

CBSE CLASS 10

SOCIAL SCIENCE

REVISION NOTEBOOK

History • Geography • Political Science • Economics

Complete Board Revision • Topper-Style Notes

Concept Maps • Tables • Case Studies • Map Cues • Last-Day Revision

DESIGNED FOR FAST, CONFIDENT REVISION

- Hierarchical chapter structure: major topics + numbered subtopics.
- Short exam-ready points instead of long textbook paragraphs.
- High-value examples, comparisons and recall tables.
- Unified visual language across all four Social Science subjects.

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History • Geography • Political Science • Economics

Edition note

This revision notebook consolidates the subject notes developed for the current Class 10 Social Science study workflow into one unified book.

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Brand

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PREFACE

Social Science becomes difficult when revision feels scattered across dates, maps, examples, case studies and long explanations. This notebook is designed to solve that problem by bringing the full study set into one consistent revision system.

Every chapter is organised from major ideas to smaller subtopics. The notes favour short explanations, comparison tables, visual recall blocks and exam-ready examples so that students can revise quickly without losing conceptual clarity.

The four sections—History, Geography, Political Science and Economics—retain their subject identity while sharing the same layout, typography and revision logic. This makes the book suitable for repeated revision before school examinations and the board examination.

THE GOAL OF THIS BOOK

- Understand first, then revise repeatedly.
- Use tables and highlighted boxes for active recall.
- Use last-day revision pages only after completing the full chapter.

HOW TO USE THIS NOTEBOOK

Step	What to do
1. Learn the chapter flow	Read major headings first so you understand how the chapter is organised.
2. Study one subtopic at a time	Use 1.1, 1.2, 2.1-style subtopics as small revision units.
3. Recall without looking	After a section, close the page and recall definitions, examples, causes/effects and comparisons.
4. Mark weak areas	Use a pencil, sticky note or digital highlight for facts that need another revision.
5. Practice board-style questions	Answer using headings, key terms and examples from the same chapter.
6. Finish with last-day revision	Use summary tables and quick-recall pages for final consolidation.

CONTENTS

PART I • HISTORY

- 1. The Rise of Nationalism in Europe
- 2. Nationalism in India
- 3. The Making of a Global World
- 4. The Age of Industrialisation
- 5. Print Culture and the Modern World

PART II • GEOGRAPHY

- 1. Resources and Development
- 2. Forest and Wildlife Resources
- 3. Water Resources
- 4. Agriculture
- 5. Minerals and Energy Resources
- 6. Manufacturing Industries
- 7. Lifelines of National Economy

PART III • POLITICAL SCIENCE

- 1. Power Sharing
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- 4. Political Parties
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- 1. Development
- 2. Sectors of the Indian Economy
- 3. Money and Credit
- 4. Globalisation and the Indian Economy
- 5. Consumer Rights

PART I

HISTORY

India and the Contemporary World-II

THIS SECTION INCLUDES

- Chapter 1 • The Rise of Nationalism in Europe
- Chapter 2 • Nationalism in India
- Chapter 3 • The Making of a Global World
- Chapter 4 • The Age of Industrialisation
- Chapter 5 • Print Culture and the Modern World

Revise concepts → examples → comparisons → exam questions

CHAPTER 1

THE RISE OF NATIONALISM IN EUROPE

1-PAGE CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ French Revolution transformed subjects into citizens and introduced the idea of the nation.
- ✓ Napoleon spread modern laws but his rule also produced resistance and stronger national feeling.
- ✓ After 1815, conservative rulers tried to restore monarchies through the Congress of Vienna.
- ✓ Liberalism, revolutions and romanticism kept the idea of nationalism alive.
- ✓ Germany and Italy were unified in the nineteenth century.
- ✓ Britain developed into a nation-state through a different, gradual process.
- ✓ The Balkans became a region of intense nationalist rivalry and conflict.

Quick Timeline



Must-Know Words

Term	Meaning
Nation-state	A state where most citizens develop a common identity, history and sense of belonging.
Liberalism	Freedom of the individual, equality before law and representative government.
Conservatism	Preference for traditional institutions, monarchy and established social order.

Term	Meaning
Suffrage	The right to vote.

1. NATIONALISM AND THE FRENCH REVOLUTION

1.1 The idea of the nation

France before 1789

- France was ruled by an absolute monarch and society was divided into unequal estates.
- The Revolution challenged monarchy, privilege and the idea that people were merely subjects of a king.

What changed after the Revolution?

- The ideas of la patrie (the fatherland) and le citoyen (the citizen) created the idea of a united community.
- A new French tricolour replaced the royal standard.
- The Estates-General was elected by active citizens and renamed the National Assembly.
- New hymns, oaths and martyrs were used to strengthen collective identity.
- A centralised administrative system introduced uniform laws for all citizens.
- Internal customs duties were abolished and uniform weights and measures were adopted.
- French became the common national language instead of regional dialects.

Cause → Effect



BOARD LANGUAGE

- ✓ Use the phrase 'collective identity' when describing symbols, laws and shared practices.
- ✓ Use 'citizen' rather than 'subject' to show the political change.

1.2 Napoleon and nationalism

Napoleonic Code, 1804

- Napoleon introduced the Civil Code of 1804, commonly known as the Napoleonic Code.
- It removed privileges based on birth and established equality before law.
- It secured the right to property.
- In territories under French control, feudal systems were simplified or abolished.

- Guild restrictions were removed and transport/communication improved in several regions.

Why did people first welcome Napoleon?

- Businessmen and small producers often welcomed uniform laws, common currency, easier movement and freer trade.

Why did opposition grow?

- French rule increasingly meant taxation, censorship and military conscription.
- Political freedom did not expand as much as people expected.
- Foreign domination itself encouraged people to think in terms of their own national identity.



EXAM CONNECTION

- ✓ Napoleon is a two-sided figure: he spread revolutionary reforms, but conquest also created resentment.
- ✓ A strong answer mentions both reform and domination.

2. EUROPE AFTER 1815

Congress of Vienna (1815)

- After Napoleon's defeat, representatives of European powers met at Vienna.
- The meeting was hosted by Austrian Chancellor Duke Metternich.
- The objective was to restore monarchies and create a conservative political order.
- The Bourbon dynasty was restored in France.
- A series of states was strengthened around France to prevent future expansion.
- The German Confederation of 39 states was left in place.

What did Conservatives believe?

- Traditional institutions such as monarchy, Church, social hierarchy, property and family should be preserved.
- Most conservatives did not seek a complete return to the pre-revolutionary world; they accepted selected modern changes that strengthened states.

Vienna Settlement in one line



METTERNICH

- ✓ Austrian statesman associated with the conservative order after 1815.
- ✓ He viewed revolutionary and nationalist ideas as threats to established monarchies.

2.1 Liberalism and the new middle class

Meaning of Liberalism

- For the new middle classes, liberalism meant freedom for the individual and equality before law.
- Politically, it emphasised government by consent and a representative constitution.
- Economically, it stood for freedom of markets and removal of state restrictions on movement of goods and capital.
- In the nineteenth century, liberalism did not automatically mean universal adult suffrage.

Zollverein - Economic Nationalism

- In 1834, a customs union called the Zollverein was formed at the initiative of Prussia.
- Many German states joined it.
- Tariff barriers were abolished and the number of currencies was reduced.
- Railways helped mobility and further connected economic interests.



DON'T CONFUSE

- ✓ Political unification of Germany was completed in 1871.
- ✓ Zollverein came much earlier and built economic unity.

2.2 Revolutionaries and revolts

Secret Societies and Giuseppe Mazzini

- After 1815, revolutionary movements developed in many European states.
- Giuseppe Mazzini believed nations were the natural units of mankind.
- He founded Young Italy in Marseille and Young Europe in Berne.
- He wanted a united, republican Italy.

Revolutions of 1830

- The Bourbon kings were overthrown in France and a constitutional monarchy was installed.

- Belgium broke away from the United Kingdom of the Netherlands.
- Nationalist uprisings also occurred elsewhere in Europe.

Greek War of Independence

- Greece had been part of the Ottoman Empire.
- Greek nationalists received support from Greeks living abroad and from many Europeans.
- Greece was recognised as an independent nation in 1832.

TOPPER CONNECTION

- ✓ Mazzini = ideology and revolutionary nationalism.
- ✓ Greek struggle = nationalism strengthened by culture, history and European sympathy.

2.3 Romanticism, culture and national feeling

How did culture create nationalism?

- Romantic artists and poets criticised excessive emphasis on reason and science.
- They tried to create a shared cultural past and collective heritage.
- Folk songs, folk poetry and dances were used to express the spirit of the nation.
- Language became an important tool of national resistance.

Poland - Language as Resistance

- Poland had been partitioned by Russia, Prussia and Austria.
- Polish language and culture were kept alive despite Russian control.
- After an armed rebellion was crushed, Polish was increasingly used in churches and religious instruction as a symbol of national resistance.

Visualising the Nation

Symbol	Country	Meaning
Marianne	France	Republic, liberty and the nation; shown with symbols such as the red cap and tricolour.
Germania	Germany	German nation; associated with strength, unity and national pride.

MEMORY LINE

- ✓ Culture gives nationalism an emotional base: language + folklore + symbols + shared past.

3. REVOLUTION AND NATION-STATE BUILDING

Economic Hardship before 1848

- Population increased in many European regions.

- People moved from rural areas to cities, where jobs were often insecure.
- Small producers faced competition from cheap machine-made goods.
- Food shortages and rising prices increased hardship.

The Liberal Revolution

- In France, events of February 1848 led to the abdication of the monarch and the proclamation of a republic.
- In German regions, middle-class professionals, businessmen and artisans demanded national unity and constitutional government.

Frankfurt Parliament

- On 18 May 1848, 831 elected representatives met in the Frankfurt Parliament.
- They drafted a constitution for a German nation headed by a monarchy subject to parliament.
- The crown was offered to Friedrich Wilhelm IV, King of Prussia, who rejected it.
- The movement weakened as monarchies and armies regained control.

IMPORTANT LIMITATION

✓ Women participated in political associations and demonstrations but were denied political rights and were admitted to the assembly only as observers.

3.1 Unification of Germany

Before Unification

- German-speaking Europe consisted of many states within the German Confederation.
- Prussia emerged as the leading power in the unification process.

Role of Otto von Bismarck

- Bismarck was the chief minister of Prussia.
- He used the Prussian army and bureaucracy to pursue unification.
- Three wars over seven years - with Denmark, Austria and France - ended in Prussian victory.

War Sequence



Final Step

- In January 1871, the Prussian king William I was proclaimed German Emperor in a ceremony at Versailles.

5-MARK ANSWER FRAME

- ✓ Start with the fragmented German states.
- ✓ Mention Prussia and Bismarck.
- ✓ Write the three wars in correct order.
- ✓ End with 1871 and proclamation at Versailles.

3.2 Unification of Italy

Italy before Unification

- Italy was divided into several states; some regions were under foreign or dynastic control.
- Sardinia-Piedmont became the centre of the practical unification movement.

Key Leaders

Leader	Role
Giuseppe Mazzini	Revolutionary nationalist; promoted a united republican Italy and founded Young Italy.
Count Cavour	Chief Minister of Sardinia-Piedmont; used diplomacy and alliance with France.
Giuseppe Garibaldi	Led armed volunteers known as the Red Shirts; helped unite southern Italy.
Victor Emmanuel II	King of Sardinia-Piedmont; became king of unified Italy in 1861.

Unification Flow



- Venetia was added in 1866 and Rome in 1870.

MEMORY TRICK

- ✓ Mazzini = mind/idea.
- ✓ Cavour = cabinet/diplomacy.
- ✓ Garibaldi = gun/campaign.
- ✓ Victor Emmanuel II = king of united Italy.

3.3 The strange case of Britain

How Britain became a nation-state

- There was no sudden British revolution comparable to the French Revolution.
- Before the eighteenth century, people in the British Isles had distinct ethnic identities - English, Welsh, Scot and Irish.

- The English nation steadily grew in wealth and power and extended influence over the other nations.

England and Scotland

- The Act of Union (1707) united England and Scotland into the United Kingdom of Great Britain.
- England dominated the new union.
- Scottish cultural and political institutions were weakened in several ways.

Ireland

- Ireland was deeply divided between Catholics and Protestants.
- England supported Protestant dominance.
- After a failed revolt led by Wolfe Tone and the United Irishmen, Ireland was incorporated into the United Kingdom in 1801.

Symbols of British Identity

- The British flag, national anthem and English language were promoted as symbols of the new nation.

EXAM DISTINCTION

- ✓ Germany and Italy: deliberate political unification.
- ✓ Britain: gradual formation under English political dominance.

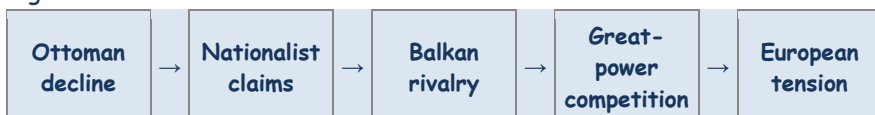
4. NATIONALISM AND IMPERIALISM

The Balkans

- The Balkans was a region of geographical and ethnic diversity in south-eastern Europe.
- Much of the region had been under Ottoman control.
- As the Ottoman Empire weakened, different national groups sought independence.

Why did tension rise?

- Balkan groups used history and nationality to justify territorial claims.
- The newly independent states were jealous of one another and sought to expand territory.
- Russia, Germany, England and Austria-Hungary competed for influence in the region.



BIG IDEA

✓ Nationalism began as a force for freedom and unity, but by the late nineteenth century it became increasingly linked with imperial rivalry and conflict.

5. EXAM REVISION

Conservatism vs Liberalism

Conservatism	Liberalism
Preserve traditional institutions and social order.	Individual freedom and equality before law.
Preferred stability, hierarchy and authority.	Supported representative and constitutional government.
Suspicious of radical revolution.	Supported political/economic freedoms, though suffrage was initially limited.

Germany vs Italy

Germany	Italy
Prussia led the process.	Sardinia-Piedmont led the practical process.
Bismarck was the key statesman.	Cavour was the key statesman/diplomat.
Unification achieved mainly through Prussian military victories.	Unification combined diplomacy, war and popular campaigns.
Empire proclaimed in 1871.	Kingdom proclaimed in 1861; later completed with Venetia and Rome.

Marianne vs Germania

Marianne	Germania
Personification of France.	Personification of Germany.
Associated with republican liberty.	Associated with German unity and national strength.

5.1 Important dates and people

Dates to Memorise

Year	Event
1789	French Revolution.
1804	Napoleonic Code.
1815	Congress of Vienna.

Year	Event
1830	Wave of liberal-nationalist revolutions.
1832	Greece recognised as independent.
1834	Zollverein formed.
1848	Liberal revolutions; Frankfurt Parliament.
1861	Kingdom of Italy proclaimed.
1871	German Empire proclaimed.

People to Remember

Person	Why important
Duke Metternich	Symbol of conservative order after 1815.
Giuseppe Mazzini	Revolutionary nationalist; Young Italy and Young Europe.
Otto von Bismarck	Led German unification under Prussian leadership.
Count Cavour	Diplomacy and alliance-building in Italian unification.
Giuseppe Garibaldi	Military campaigns and Red Shirts in southern Italy.
Victor Emmanuel II	King of unified Italy.

5.2 Board-style answer bank

2-Mark / 3-Mark

- What steps did French revolutionaries take to create a sense of collective identity?
- What was the Zollverein? Why was it important?
- Who was Giuseppe Mazzini? State any two of his ideas/actions.
- How did culture contribute to nationalism in Europe?
- What was the significance of the Frankfurt Parliament?

5-Mark

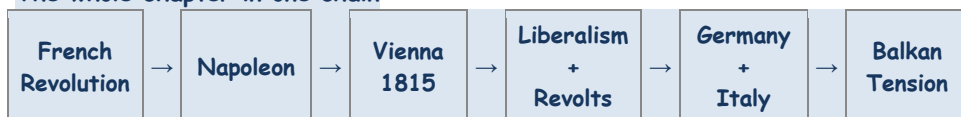
- Explain the role of the French Revolution in the rise of nationalism in Europe.
- Describe the process of German unification.
- Explain the process of Italian unification.
- How did Britain become a nation-state?
- Why did the Balkans become the most serious source of nationalist tension in Europe?

HOW TO WRITE A 5-MARK SST ANSWER

- ✓ Opening line: directly define/contextualise the issue.
- ✓ Write 5 distinct, factual points.
- ✓ Keep chronology correct where the question is historical.
- ✓ Underline key names, dates and terms.
- ✓ End with the outcome/significance if relevant.

5.3 Last-day revision

The whole chapter in one chain



10 One-Line Recall Prompts

Prompt	Recall
La patrie	Fatherland / common national community.
Le citoyen	Citizen with equal rights.
Napoleonic Code	Equality before law + property rights + end of birth privileges.
Metternich	Conservative Austrian statesman.
Zollverein	German customs union, 1834.
Mazzini	Young Italy; republican nationalism.
Bismarck	Prussian-led German unification.
Cavour	Diplomacy in Italian unification.
Marianne	France.
Germania	Germany.

Self-Test

- Can I explain nationalism without using the word 'patriotism' only?
- Can I write Germany's three wars in the correct sequence?
- Can I distinguish Mazzini, Cavour and Garibaldi?
- Can I explain why liberalism did not mean universal suffrage?
- Can I connect Balkan nationalism with European rivalry?

CHAPTER 2

NATIONALISM IN INDIA

1-PAGE CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Indian nationalism grew through anti-colonial struggles, especially under Gandhi's leadership.
- ✓ The First World War changed the economic and political situation in India.
- ✓ Gandhi used satyagraha first in Champaran, Kheda and Ahmedabad.
- ✓ The Rowlatt Act and Jallianwala Bagh created widespread anger.
- ✓ The Khilafat issue and Non-Cooperation united diverse groups for some time.
- ✓ The Civil Disobedience Movement gave a wider mass character to nationalism.
- ✓ Different social groups joined the movement for different reasons.
- ✓ Nationalism spread through symbols, songs, folklore, history and mass mobilisation.

Quick Timeline



Must-Know Words

Term	Meaning
Satyagraha	A method of non-violent resistance based on truth and moral force.
Rowlatt Act	1919 law allowing detention without trial and severe political repression.
Khilafat	Movement to defend the position of the Ottoman Caliph after the First World War.
Non-Cooperation	Movement asking Indians to withdraw cooperation from the colonial state.
Civil Disobedience	Movement in which people broke colonial laws openly and non-violently.
Purna Swaraj	Complete independence; declared as the goal in 1929.

1. GROWTH OF NATIONALISM IN INDIA

BACKGROUND

Why did nationalism grow in India?

- Colonial rule created political subordination, economic exploitation and racial discrimination.
- Western education, print culture and new communication networks helped ideas spread.
- The Congress provided an early platform for political expression.
- However, the nationalist movement became a true mass movement mainly after Gandhi's arrival.

The Idea of Satyagraha

- Gandhi believed that if the cause was just and the struggle was non-violent, the oppressor could be resisted through truth, self-discipline and moral pressure.
- Satyagraha rejected physical violence and aimed at winning over the opponent.

TOPPER TIP

- ✓ In exam answers, define satyagraha clearly: truth + non-violence + self-suffering + moral force.
- ✓ Do not confuse satyagraha with passive resistance. NCERT treats it as a stronger moral-political method.

1.1 First World War and Gandhi's early satyagrahas

Impact of the First World War

- The war created a new political and economic situation in India.
- Defence expenditure increased sharply, leading to higher taxes and custom duties.
- Prices doubled between 1913 and 1918, causing hardship to common people.
- Villages were called upon to supply soldiers, and forced recruitment created anger.

- Crop failures and the influenza epidemic worsened suffering.

Champaran Satyagraha (1917)

- Gandhi supported indigo cultivators who were forced to grow indigo under oppressive conditions.

Kheda Satyagraha (1918)

- Peasants in Kheda demanded relaxation of land revenue because crops had failed.

Ahmedabad Mill Strike (1918)

- Gandhi supported cotton mill workers in demanding higher wages.

EARLY SATYAGRAHAS - WHY IMPORTANT?

- ✓ They gave Gandhi direct experience of Indian conditions.
- ✓ They showed how non-violent mass politics could work in India.
- ✓ They built Gandhi's public image as a national leader.

1.2 Rowlatt Act and Jallianwala Bagh

Rowlatt Act, 1919

- This Act gave the government enormous powers to repress political activities.
- It allowed detention of political prisoners without trial for two years.
- Gandhi launched a nationwide satyagraha against it.

6 April 1919 - Hartal

- Rallies were organised in various cities, workers went on strike and shops closed down.
- The British government responded with repression.

Jallianwala Bagh Massacre

- On 13 April 1919, thousands had gathered at Jallianwala Bagh in Amritsar.
- General Dyer blocked the exit and ordered troops to fire on the crowd.
- Hundreds were killed and many more were wounded.
- This event deeply shocked the nation and transformed public opinion against British rule.

BOARD PHRASE

- ✓ Use 'brutal repression' and 'turning point in nationalist opinion' while writing about Jallianwala Bagh.

2. NON-COOPERATION MOVEMENT

WHY DID THEY COME TOGETHER?

The Khilafat Issue

- After the Ottoman Empire's defeat in the First World War, many Muslims were worried about the fate of the Caliph.
- The Ali brothers - Muhammad Ali and Shaukat Ali - launched the Khilafat Movement.
- Gandhi saw this as an opportunity to unite Hindus and Muslims in a broad anti-colonial struggle.

Why was Non-Cooperation launched?

- Gandhi felt that British rule survived because Indians cooperated with it.
- If Indians withdrew that cooperation, British power would weaken.



IMPORTANT

- ✓ The Non-Cooperation Movement started in 1920.
- ✓ Its early strength came from the coming together of Khilafat and nationalist politics.

2.1 Programme of Non-Cooperation

PROGRAMME

Main features

- Surrender of titles that had been awarded by the government.
- Boycott of government schools and colleges.
- Boycott of law courts by lawyers.
- Boycott of foreign cloth.
- Resignation from government services in some cases.
- Refusal to participate in legislative councils under certain conditions.
- Promotion of hand-spun khadi and village industries.

Spread of the movement

- The movement began with middle-class participation in towns.
- Soon it spread to peasants, tribals and workers in many regions.

Economic effects

- Imports of foreign cloth fell sharply.
- Merchants and traders also participated in boycott and swadeshi activities.

WRITE THIS CLEARLY

- ✓ NCM = withdrawal of cooperation, not direct violation of laws.
- ✓ That distinction helps you separate NCM from Civil Disobedience.

2.2 Different groups under NCM

TOWNS AND COUNTRYSIDE

In the cities

- The movement started with middle classes in cities.
- Students left government schools and colleges, teachers resigned, and lawyers gave up practice in some places.
- However, the movement slowed when khadi was more expensive than mill cloth and alternatives were limited.

In Awadh

- Peasants were led by Baba Ramchandra.
- They demanded reduction of revenue, abolition of begar and social boycott of oppressive landlords.

In tribal areas

- For tribal communities, swaraj often meant freedom to use forests and common lands as before.

For plantation workers

- In Assam, many workers interpreted swaraj as the right to move freely and return to their villages.

EXAM TRICK

- ✓ When asked 'how different social groups interpreted swaraj', write separate points for peasants, tribals and plantation workers.

2.3 Withdrawal of NCM and aftermath

Why was the movement withdrawn?

- In February 1922, at Chauri Chaura in Gorakhpur, a violent clash led to the death of policemen.
- Gandhi believed that the movement had become too violent and was not ready for disciplined non-violent struggle.
- He therefore called off the movement.

Why was this controversial?

- Many leaders were disappointed because they wanted to continue the struggle.
- However, Gandhi prioritised the principle of non-violence over immediate political gains.

What happened next?

- Within the Congress, some leaders wanted to continue political work through councils.
- C.R. Das and Motilal Nehru founded the Swaraj Party.

TOPPER POINT

- ✓ Always mention Chauri Chaura + Gandhi's commitment to non-violence.
- ✓ That is the key reason for withdrawal of NCM.

3. CIVIL DISOBEDIENCE MOVEMENT

Why was a new movement needed?

- By the late 1920s, nationalist frustration had grown again.
- The Simon Commission arrived in 1928 without a single Indian member and faced protests.
- The demand for full independence gained strength.

Lahore Congress, 1929

- Under Jawaharlal Nehru's presidency, the Congress declared Purna Swaraj as its goal.
- 26 January 1930 was celebrated as Independence Day.

Why was salt chosen?

- Salt was consumed by all - rich and poor alike.
- The salt tax and government monopoly touched every Indian.
- Gandhi turned a simple everyday item into a powerful political symbol.

BOARD LANGUAGE

- ✓ Salt became a 'unifying symbol' because it connected the poorest person with the nationalist struggle.

3.1 Dandi March and Civil Disobedience

DANDI MARCH AND AFTER

Beginning of the movement

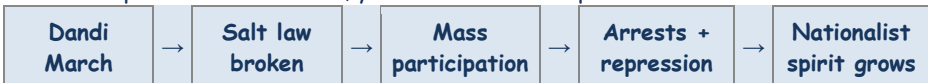
- On 12 March 1930, Gandhi started the Dandi March from Sabarmati Ashram with 78 volunteers.
- After walking about 240 miles, he reached Dandi and broke the salt law on 6 April 1930.

Forms of Civil Disobedience

- Manufacturing salt and violating the salt law.
- Boycott of foreign cloth and liquor.
- Refusal to pay certain taxes and revenue in some areas.
- Picketing of shops selling foreign goods.

Government response

- The colonial government arrested large numbers of Congress leaders and workers.
- Police repression intensified, yet the movement spread.



DON'T MISS

- ✓ CDM = breaking colonial laws openly and non-violently.
- ✓ This is the core distinction from NCM.

3.2 Different social groups in CDM

Rich Peasants

- Rich peasant communities such as Patidars of Gujarat and Jats of Uttar Pradesh were active supporters.
- They were hard hit by the fall in agricultural prices and demanded reduction of revenue.

Poor Peasants

- Poor peasants wanted remission of rent, but Congress did not always support these demands because that could upset landlords.

Business Classes

- Indian industrialists and merchants supported the movement at certain stages.
- They wanted protection against imports and a stable business environment.

Industrial Workers

- Some workers participated in protests, though Congress was cautious in raising strictly class-based demands.

Women

- Large numbers of women participated in processions, picketing and salt making.
- Yet in the social imagination of the time, they were not always seen as equal political decision-makers.

ANSWER FRAME

✓ Question on 'different social groups' must show: support + their specific demands + limits of Congress response.

3.3 Limits of nationalist unity

Dalits / Depressed Classes

- Dr B.R. Ambedkar organised dalits to demand political rights and social justice.
- Many dalits were not satisfied with Congress leadership alone and wanted separate political safeguards.
- The Poona Pact of 1932 changed the system of separate electorates into reserved seats in joint electorates.

Muslim Political Responses

- After the decline of the Khilafat-Non-Cooperation alliance, relations became more difficult.
- Some Muslim leaders felt that Congress organisation and symbols reflected a Hindu-majority environment.
- Muhammad Ali Jinnah was willing to negotiate safeguards but unity weakened over time.

IMPORTANT BALANCE

- ✓ Do not write that nationalism united everyone fully and permanently.
- ✓ NCERT clearly shows both unity and limitations.

4. NATIONAL IDENTITY AND SWARAJ

How was national feeling created?

- National identity was not natural; it had to be created through symbols and experiences.
- Bharat Mata was imagined as a spiritual and symbolic mother figure.
- Bankim Chandra Chattopadhyay's Vande Mataram became a powerful song of nationalism.
- The tricolour flag became an important symbol during the movement.
- Revival of folklore, songs, tales and reinterpretation of history helped create pride in the nation.

Why was this effective?

- Symbols turned abstract nationalism into an emotional experience.
- Public rituals and songs helped people feel that they belonged to one larger community.

USE IN LONG ANSWERS

- ✓ Collective belonging = symbols + songs + folklore + history + shared struggle.

4.1 Different meanings of Swaraj

ONE MOVEMENT - DIFFERENT EXPECTATIONS

Awadh Peasants

- Peasants were led by Baba Ramchandra and organised through the Oudh Kisan Sabha.
- They opposed high rents and revenue, begar and insecurity of tenure under talukdars and landlords.
- For them, swaraj meant relief from oppressive agrarian relations.

Tribal Peasants of the Gudem Hills

- Colonial forest laws restricted shifting cultivation, grazing and access to forest produce.
- Alluri Sitaram Raju inspired the rebels and became a popular leader in the Gudem Hills.
- He admired Gandhi, encouraged khadi and temperance, but believed liberation could also require force and guerrilla warfare.

Plantation Workers in Assam

- Under the Inland Emigration Act of 1859, plantation workers were not free to leave tea gardens without permission.
- For many workers, swaraj meant freedom to move freely and return to their villages.

BOARD CONCEPT

- ✓ CBSE can ask why 'swaraj' meant different things to different groups.
- ✓ Answer by linking each group to its own economic or social grievance.

4.2 Non-Cooperation: important NCERT details

Council Boycott and the Justice Party

- The Congress generally boycotted council elections during the Non-Cooperation Movement.
- In Madras, the Justice Party participated because it saw the councils as a route to political power for non-Brahmans.

Why did the urban movement slow down?

- Khadi was often more expensive than mass-produced mill cloth.
- Alternative Indian institutions were not available everywhere, so students and teachers gradually returned to government institutions.

Economic Impact

- Foreign cloth was boycotted and merchants increasingly refused to trade in foreign goods.
- The boycott strengthened swadeshi and the symbolic importance of khadi.

MCQ ALERT

- ✓ Justice Party + Madras is a useful exception-type fact.
- ✓ Khadi was politically powerful but economically difficult for many poor households.

4.3 Civil Disobedience: complete chronology

From Purna Swaraj to Dandi

- Lord Irwin's 1929 declaration raised expectations about future constitutional change, but nationalist leaders remained dissatisfied.
- Gandhi sent Viceroy Irwin a list of eleven demands before launching the movement.
- Salt was chosen because every household used it and the tax symbolised colonial control over daily life.



Gandhi-Irwin Pact and Round Table Conference

- In March 1931, Gandhi entered into a pact with Lord Irwin and agreed to suspend the Civil Disobedience Movement.
- Gandhi attended the Second Round Table Conference in London, but negotiations failed.
- He returned to India and the movement was relaunched in 1932 under severe repression.

CHRONOLOGY TO MEMORISE

- ✓ 1930: launch of CDM.
- ✓ 1931: Gandhi-Irwin Pact; movement suspended.
- ✓ 1931: Second Round Table Conference.
- ✓ 1932: CDM relaunched; repression intensifies.

4.4 Social groups: board-level detail

Rich Peasants and the Depression

- The worldwide economic depression reduced agricultural prices and made revenue payments difficult.
- Rich peasants such as Patidars and Jats therefore strongly supported reduction of land revenue.

Business Classes

- Industrialists such as G.D. Birla and Purshottamdas Thakurdas supported nationalist economic demands.
- Business groups such as FICCI sought protection against imports and favourable conditions for Indian industry.
- Support weakened when prolonged mass agitation threatened business stability and concessions remained limited.

Industrial Workers

- Workers joined some protests, but Congress often avoided incorporating strongly class-based labour demands into the national programme.

Dalits and Political Safeguards

- Dr B.R. Ambedkar formed the Depressed Classes Association in 1930 and demanded political safeguards for the depressed classes.
- The Communal Award proposed separate electorates; Gandhi opposed this for the depressed classes.
- The Poona Pact of 1932 provided reserved seats in joint electorates instead of separate electorates.

HIGH-VALUE DISTINCTION

- ✓ Ambedkar emphasised independent political safeguards.
- ✓ Gandhi feared separate electorates would permanently divide Hindu society.

4.5 Collective belonging: complete

Bharat Mata

- Abanindranath Tagore painted Bharat Mata as an ascetic, spiritual mother figure.
- The image gave the nation an emotional and sacred form.

Vande Mataram

- Bankim Chandra Chattopadhyay wrote Vande Mataram, later included in his novel Anandamath.
- It became an important song of the Swadeshi and nationalist movements.

Flags

- During the Swadeshi movement, a flag with symbols of unity and resistance was used as a nationalist emblem.
- In 1921 Gandhi designed a Swaraj flag with a spinning wheel, representing self-help and swadeshi.

Folklore and History

- Rabindranath Tagore collected folk traditions in Bengal, while Natesa Sastri published a major collection of Tamil folk tales.
- Nationalist writers reinterpreted India's past as glorious to challenge colonial claims that Indians were backward and unfit to govern themselves.

MASTER FORMULA

✓ Collective belonging = Bharat Mata + Vande Mataram + flags + folklore + reinterpretation of history + shared struggle.

5. EXAM REVISION

Important map locations

Type	Places
Congress Sessions	Calcutta (1920), Nagpur (1920), Madras (1927)
Satyagraha Movements	Champaran, Kheda, Ahmedabad
Other Important Place	Jallianwala Bagh, Dandi

Very Important Dates

Year	Event
1915	Gandhi returned to India.
1917	Champaran Satyagraha.
1918	Ahmedabad Mill Strike; Kheda Satyagraha.
1919	Rowlatt Act; Jallianwala Bagh.
1920	Non-Cooperation Movement started.
1922	Chauri Chaura; NCM withdrawn.
1929	Purna Swaraj at Lahore Congress.
1930	Dandi March; Civil Disobedience Movement.

5.1 Board-style answer bank

2-Mark / 3-Mark Questions

- What is meant by satyagraha?
- Why was the Rowlatt Act opposed?
- Why was salt chosen by Gandhi as a symbol?
- Name any two early satyagrahas led by Gandhi.
- Why did Gandhi withdraw the Non-Cooperation Movement?

5-Mark Questions

- Explain the circumstances that led to the Non-Cooperation Movement.
- Describe the progress of the Civil Disobedience Movement.
- How did different social groups participate in the national movement?
- How was a sense of collective belonging developed among Indians?
- Why was nationalist unity limited in some respects?

HOW TO SCORE FULLER MARKS

- ✓ Write answers in chronology where possible.
- ✓ Use names, dates and examples from NCERT.
- ✓ Separate different groups into different points instead of mixing them.
- ✓ End with significance or outcome.

5.2 Last-day revision

Whole chapter in one chain



10 One-Line Recall Prompts

Prompt	Recall
Satyagraha	Truth + non-violence + moral force.
Champaran	Indigo peasants.
Kheda	Revenue relief after crop failure.
Ahmedabad	Mill workers' wage issue.
Rowlatt Act	Detention without trial.
Jallianwala Bagh	Massacre in Amritsar, 13 April 1919.
NCM	Withdraw cooperation from British rule.
Purna Swaraj	Complete independence.
Dandi	Salt law broken, 1930.
Collective Belonging	Symbols, songs, folklore, history, shared struggle.

Self-Test

- Can I explain NCM and CDM distinctly?
- Can I write why different groups joined the movement?
- Can I explain the role of Khilafat in nationalism?
- Can I recall all map locations from this chapter?
- Can I explain how symbols created nationalism?

READY FOR EXAM?

✓ If you can answer the self-test questions without looking back, Chapter 2 is revision-ready.

CHAPTER 3

THE MAKING OF A GLOBAL WORLD

UPDATED BOARD-CORE SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Board-evaluated core = from the pre-modern world to conquest, disease and trade.
- ✓ Before European expansion, Asia, Europe and Africa were already connected by land and sea routes.
- ✓ Silk Routes and Indian Ocean trade linked goods, people, faith and ideas.
- ✓ The discovery of the Americas, migration, slavery and silver trade transformed the world economy.
- ✓ Food crops moved across continents and changed diets and population patterns.
- ✓ Conquest depended heavily on disease, especially smallpox.
- ✓ The rest of the chapter is useful enrichment for globalisation understanding.

Board-Focused Core Flow



WHAT WAS ADDED NOW

- ✓ Indian Ocean trade before European dominance.
- ✓ European migration to the Americas.
- ✓ El Dorado and the lure of precious metals.
- ✓ Silver from Peru and Mexico and the birth of a global trade network.
- ✓ Irish potato famine as a classic crop-dependence example.
- ✓ Shift of economic power from Asia toward Europe.

1. THE PRE-MODERN GLOBAL WORLD

Basic idea

- A global world is a world in which distant societies are linked by trade, migration, movement of capital, exchange of ideas, religion, food and culture.
- Globalisation is not completely new. Connections existed centuries before the modern age.
- What changes over time is the speed, scale and intensity of these connections.

Three things to remember

- People moved from one region to another.
- Goods and food crops travelled across continents.
- Ideas, religions and diseases also crossed boundaries.

TOPPER DEFINITION

- ✓ A global world is created when different parts of the world become interconnected economically, socially and culturally.

1.1 The pre-modern world

Long-distance links existed before modern times

- Travellers, traders, priests and pilgrims travelled vast distances long before the age of railways and aeroplanes.
- Knowledge, stories, customs and spiritual beliefs moved with them.
- Such contacts helped create early forms of a global world.

Important examples

- The Silk Routes linked Asia, Europe and North Africa.
- Buddhism travelled from eastern India to many parts of Asia through trade and pilgrimage routes.
- Muslim missionaries and traders also carried ideas and culture over long distances.
- Before European ships dominated the seas, the Indian Ocean connected India, East Africa, Arabia and South-East Asia through a lively sea trade.

KEY IDEA

- ✓ Global interdependence began much before European colonialism.
- ✓ Both land routes and sea routes were crucial in the pre-modern world.

1.2 Silk Routes and Indian Ocean trade

Silk Routes

- The Silk Routes were a network of trade routes, not a single road.
- They linked China with West Asia, Europe and parts of Africa.
- They existed before the Christian era and continued to be important until around the fifteenth century.

Indian Ocean trade

- The Indian Ocean also connected Asia and Africa through maritime trade.
- Spices, textiles and other goods moved between India, East Africa, Arabia and South-East Asia.
- These routes show that world connections did not begin with Europe.

What moved?

What moved?	Examples
Goods	Silk, textiles, spices, precious metals and luxury goods.
People	Merchants, pilgrims, priests, traders and sailors.
Ideas & culture	Religions, customs, art styles and knowledge.

1.3 Food travels across the world

Food changed history

- Food offers an easy way to understand global connections.
- Many foods commonly eaten today did not originally belong to the regions where they are now popular.

American foods that changed the world

- Noodles are believed to have travelled west from China and become spaghetti in Italy.

- Potatoes, maize, tomatoes, chillies, sweet potatoes, groundnuts and soya came to Europe and Asia after the discovery of the Americas.
- These crops transformed the lives of poor people because some were cheap, nutritious and could grow on marginal lands.

The potato and Ireland

- The potato greatly improved the diet of the poor in Europe.
- In Ireland, many poor people became heavily dependent on potatoes.
- When disease destroyed the potato crop in the 1840s, Ireland suffered a major famine and many people died or migrated.

MCQ ALERT

- ✓ Potato = crop from the Americas that changed Europe.
- ✓ Irish potato famine = example of how dependence on one crop can create disaster.

1.4 Discovery of the Americas

Why was this a turning point?

- Until the sixteenth century, the world was not yet fully linked in one single trade network.
- The discovery of the Americas changed this situation dramatically.
- Portuguese and Spanish sailors opened new routes and intensified global exchange.

Exploration and movement

- Christopher Columbus accidentally discovered the Americas while searching for a western sea route to India.
- Vasco da Gama found the sea route to India around the Cape of Good Hope.
- After the discovery of the Americas, many Europeans migrated there in search of land, livelihood and opportunity.

El Dorado

- Europeans were attracted by stories of great wealth in the Americas.
- The legend of El Dorado symbolised the dream of gold and riches.

BOARD WORDING

- ✓ The discovery of the Americas was a turning point because it linked Europe, Asia, Africa and the Americas more directly than before.

1.5 Conquest, disease, silver and trade

How did conquest happen?

- European conquest was not based only on military power.
- Disease—especially smallpox—was the most powerful ally of the Europeans.
- The indigenous people of the Americas had no immunity to many European diseases, so populations declined sharply.

Silver from the Americas

- Mines in Peru and Mexico produced large quantities of silver.
- This silver was carried to Europe and then used to finance trade with Asia, especially China and India.

- In this way, precious metals from the Americas helped create a more tightly connected world economy.

A shift in world power

- Before the modern era, Asia was an important centre of trade and production.
- With American resources, colonial control and expanding trade, Europe's economic power increased steadily.

EXAM TIP

✓ If a question asks how the global world was made, mention: exploration + migration + silver + slavery + disease.

1.6 Slavery, plantations and forced labour

Need for labour in the Americas

- European colonisers needed labour to work in mines and on plantations in the Americas.
- The native population had declined sharply because of disease and conquest.

Rise of slavery

- To meet labour needs, enslaved Africans were forcibly taken to the Americas.
- They worked on plantations producing sugar, cotton and other commercial crops.
- The Atlantic slave trade became a major link in the making of the global economy.

BIG IDEA

✓ The making of a global world was not only about exchange and opportunity; it also involved slavery, exploitation and suffering.

1.7 Enrichment / project zone

2. THE NINETEENTH CENTURY (1815-1914)

Why include this section?

- According to your syllabus, the later parts are better treated as enrichment or interdisciplinary/project reading.
- Still, they help connect this chapter with Economics and Geography.

Three big flows

Flow	Meaning
Flow of trade	Expansion of world markets for goods.
Flow of labour	Migration of people for work, settlement or indentured labour.
Flow of capital	Investment moving across countries.

Nineteenth-century world economy

- Railways, steamships and the telegraph reduced distances.
- Industrialisation increased production and demand for raw materials and markets.
- Colonialism deeply shaped the pattern of world connections.

2.1 Indian indentured labour

PROJECT / ENRICHMENT

What was indentured labour?

- Indentured labour was a contract system under which labourers worked for a fixed period for employers, often in overseas colonies.
- Many Indian labourers migrated to plantations, mines and railway construction projects.

Why did Indians migrate?

- Poverty, indebtedness, social pressures and lack of opportunities pushed many to migrate.
- Recruiters often used persuasion, false promises or coercion.

Cultural side

- Indian migrants carried food habits, language, religion and culture abroad.
- This contributed to the spread of Indian cultural practices in different parts of the world.

KEY TERM

✓ Indentured labour is often described as a 'new system of slavery' because conditions were harsh and freedom was limited.

3. GREAT DEPRESSION AND AFTER

PROJECT / ENRICHMENT

Very short understanding

- The Great Depression of 1929 caused a severe fall in prices, production, employment and trade across the world.
- The crisis showed that global links could spread economic hardship as well as economic growth.

Why keep this page?

- It helps connect history with the later idea of modern globalisation.

MEMORY LINE

✓ Global links can spread prosperity, but they can also spread crisis.

4. EXAM REVISION

Pre-modern globalisation vs modern globalisation

Pre-modern	Modern
Slower movement of people, goods and ideas.	Much faster movement through advanced transport and communication.
Silk Routes and Indian Ocean trade were key links.	Steamships, railways, telegraph and large global markets became key links.
Connections existed but were less intense.	Connections became much wider and more integrated.

Positive and negative sides

Positive side	Negative side
Exchange of food, ideas, religion and knowledge.	Conquest, disease and slavery.
Better contacts among regions.	Exploitation of weaker populations.
Greater trade and mobility.	Economic dependence and coercion.

4.1 Important terms and facts

Term / fact	What to remember
Silk Routes	Land-based network linking Asia, Europe and North Africa.
Indian Ocean trade	Sea-based network linking Asia and Africa before European dominance.
Potato	Crop from the Americas that transformed Europe.
Irish potato famine	Example of crop failure and migration in the 1840s.
El Dorado	Legend representing the lure of wealth in the Americas.
Silver from Peru/Mexico	Helped connect American resources with European trade and Asian markets.
Smallpox	Disease that weakened native populations in the Americas.
European migration	Many Europeans moved to the Americas after discovery and conquest.

BOARD-FOCUSED REVISION

✓ If time is short, revise pages 1 to 7 first. That is the strongest exam zone.

4.2 Board-style answer bank

2-Mark / 3-Mark Questions

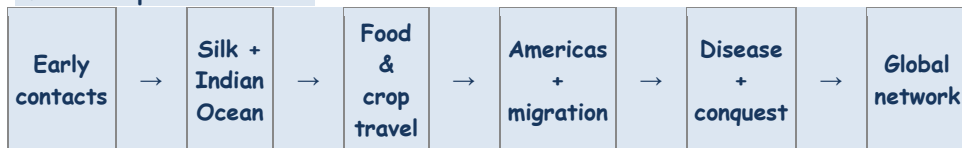
- What is meant by a global world?
- What were the Silk Routes?
- What was the role of Indian Ocean trade in the pre-modern world?
- Why was the discovery of the Americas a turning point?
- How did smallpox help Europeans conquer the Americas?
- What was the importance of silver from Peru and Mexico?

5-Mark Questions

- Explain how the pre-modern world was already interconnected.
- How did conquest, disease and trade shape the making of a global world?
- How did food and crops demonstrate global interdependence?
- Explain the importance of the Silk Routes and Indian Ocean trade.
- Show that the making of a global world had both positive and negative consequences.

4.3 Last-day revision

Whole chapter in one line



10 One-Line Recall Prompts

Prompt	Recall
Global world	Interconnected world of trade, people, ideas and culture.
Silk Routes	Network of land routes linking Asia, Europe and Africa.
Indian Ocean trade	Sea trade linking Asia and Africa.
Potato	Crop from the Americas that changed Europe.
Irish potato famine	Crop failure led to famine and migration.
El Dorado	Legend of riches in the Americas.
Silver	Peru and Mexico helped finance global trade.
Smallpox	Disease that helped European conquest.
Slavery	Forced labour in plantations and mines.
Big lesson	Globalisation brought both exchange and exploitation.

CHAPTER 4

THE AGE OF INDUSTRIALISATION

UPDATED SNAPSHOT

- ✓ This chapter explains how industrialisation developed before and after factories.
- ✓ Proto-industrialisation connected merchants and rural households before factory systems spread.
- ✓ Factories grew gradually; hand labour did not disappear at once.
- ✓ India had a rich textile tradition, but colonial control and Manchester imports hurt many weavers.
- ✓ Indian entrepreneurs built mills, jute factories and steel industries under difficult colonial conditions.
- ✓ Handloom survived, small-scale production remained important, and advertisements created markets.
- ✓ This updated version adds missing names, dates, examples and Indian details.

What was missing and is now added

- Canal Age and the first symbols of industrial change.
- Named inventions: flying shuttle, spinning jenny, water frame and steam engine.
- Decline of old ports and rise of Bombay, Calcutta and Madras.

- Named factories and entrepreneurs: Bombay cotton mill 1854, first jute mill 1855, Elgin Mill, Seth Hukumchand, Tata Iron and Steel.
- Managing agencies, jobber details, handloom survival examples and advertisement imagery.

SYLLABUS NOTE

✓ As per your syllabus, this chapter is for periodic assessment, not for the main Board examination. Still, the notes are now fuller and more complete.

1. BEFORE THE INDUSTRIAL REVOLUTION

1.1 Proto-industrialisation

What was proto-industrialisation?

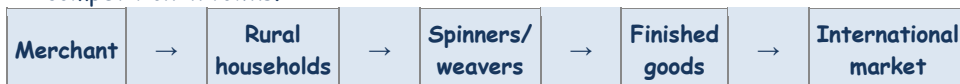
- Before factories spread widely, merchants organised large-scale production for international markets through rural households.
- Production was decentralised: spinners, weavers, fullers and dyers completed different stages.

Why did merchants move to the countryside?

- Urban craft guilds regulated production, prices, quality and entry into trades, so expansion in towns was difficult.
- Poor peasants in villages welcomed additional income because small fields could not support their families.

Guilds

- Guilds were associations of producers that trained craftspeople and controlled competition in towns.



2. FACTORIES AND INDUSTRIAL CHANGE

Why cotton led the early change

- Cotton was one of the first industries to transform rapidly in Britain.
- A series of inventions increased the efficiency of carding, twisting, spinning and weaving.

Important inventions

Invention / person	Why important
Flying Shuttle - John Kaye	Sped up weaving and increased demand for spun yarn.
Spinning Jenny - James Hargreaves	Allowed one worker to spin several spindles at once.
Water Frame - Richard Arkwright	Used water power and encouraged mill production.
Steam Engine - James Watt	Improved power source that later drove factories and transport.

Factory system

- Richard Arkwright created the cotton mill, bringing labour, machines and raw material together under one roof.
- Factories allowed closer supervision and tighter control over production.

2.1 Pace of industrial change

Not all change was sudden

- Large-scale factory production grew gradually and unevenly.
- Cotton was the leading sector in the first phase.
- Iron and steel expanded later, especially with railway growth.

Canal Age

- In late eighteenth-century Britain, canals became an important symbol of industrial growth.
- Canals helped move raw materials and finished goods more cheaply.

Why was change slow?

- New machines were expensive and often unreliable.
- Many industrialists preferred known methods where hand labour was cheap and flexible.

KEY IDEA

✓ Industrialisation was a gradual process, not a sudden overnight replacement of hand production.

2.2 Hand labour and steam power

Why did industrialists still prefer hand labour?

- Britain had a large supply of poor workers, so labour was often cheap.
- Seasonal industries needed workers only at peak times; machines were costly to keep idle.
- Many products required careful finishing, irregular sizes and intricate designs that machines could not easily make.
- Elite consumers often preferred handmade goods because they signified quality and refinement.

Resistance to machines

- Some workers feared unemployment and attacked new machines such as the Spinning Jenny.

EXAM LINE

✓ Factories expanded, but hand labour remained important because it was cheap, flexible and better suited to many products.

2.3 Life of the workers

Migration to cities

- Many workers came from villages to industrial towns in search of jobs.
- Finding work often depended on friends, relatives and local contacts.

Employment was insecure

- Work was seasonal in many industries.
- Periods without work were common and wages could be low.

Living conditions

- Rapid urban growth created overcrowded and unhealthy housing.
- Long hours and uncertainty made life difficult for workers.

3. INDUSTRIALISATION IN COLONIAL INDIA

The age of Indian textiles

- Before British industrial dominance, Indian cotton and silk textiles were famous all over the world.
- Printed cotton cloths—chintz and cossaes—were especially popular in Europe.
- Fine muslin from Bengal and other high-quality cloths were exported widely.

Ports and trade

- Old ports such as Surat, Hooghly and Masulipatnam had once connected Indian trade with global markets.
- Later, colonial trade increasingly shifted to Bombay, Calcutta and Madras.

Trade network

- Indian merchants, bankers and brokers financed production and linked weavers with export markets.

3.1 What happened to the weavers?

East India Company control

- After gaining political power, the East India Company tried to eliminate rival traders and control the textile trade.
- It appointed paid servants called gomasthas to supervise weavers, collect supplies and inspect cloth quality.

System of advances

- Weavers were given loans and had to hand over cloth only to the Company.
- This reduced their freedom to bargain or sell to other buyers.

Conflict

- Gomasthas often acted harshly and had little social relation with village communities.
- Many weavers resisted, deserted villages, delayed work or shifted to other occupations.

MCQ ALERT

✓ Gomastha = Company agent who supervised weavers and enforced Company contracts.

3.2 Manchester comes to India

Three major blows to Indian weavers

- British industrialists won tariff protection in Britain, making Indian cotton textiles face barriers there.
- Machine-made cloth from Manchester became cheaper and flooded Indian markets.
- During the American Civil War, raw cotton from India was exported to Britain, raising prices for Indian weavers.

Later challenge

- By the late nineteenth century, Indian machine-made cloth also competed with handloom cloth.

Yet not all weavers vanished

- Some handloom producers survived by focusing on fine, decorative and region-specific cloth.

3.3 Factories come up in India

Important beginnings

Industry / date	Fact
1854	First cotton mill in Bombay.
1855	First jute mill in Bengal.
1860s	Elgin Mill in Kanpur became an important example.
1907	Tata Iron and Steel Company established.
1917	Seth Hukumchand set up the first Indian jute mill.

Why Bombay and Bengal?

- Ports, capital, labour, markets and access to raw materials encouraged growth.
- Bombay developed cotton mills, while Bengal became important for jute.

3.4 Early entrepreneurs

Where did Indian industrial capital come from?

- Some early entrepreneurs accumulated wealth through trade with China, Burma, the Middle East and Africa.
- Trading communities invested part of their capital in new industries.

Named examples

- Dwarkanath Tagore invested in shipping, shipbuilding, mining and banking.
- Parsi businessmen in Bombay, including Dinshaw Petit and Jamsetjee Tata, invested in industry.
- Seth Hukumchand became important in jute.
- Marwari businessmen also entered commerce and industry.

Colonial constraints

- European managing agencies dominated tea, coffee, indigo, mining and jute, and had easier access to finance and government support.

3.5 Where did the workers come from?

Sources of industrial labour

- Workers often came from nearby districts and villages.
- Many retained ties with villages and returned during harvests or festivals.
- In Bombay, many workers came from the Ratnagiri district and neighbouring regions.

The jobber

- Industrialists often employed a jobber to recruit workers.
- The jobber became an important intermediary, helping workers get jobs and sometimes lending money.
- Over time, the jobber could exercise considerable authority, extracting gifts or favours from workers.

4. PECULIARITIES OF INDUSTRIAL GROWTH

Why industrial growth followed a different path

- British imports dominated many finished-goods markets, so Indian industrialists initially avoided direct competition in some areas.
- Many Indian mills produced coarse yarn rather than fine cloth.
- Yarn was exported to China and also bought by handloom weavers in India.

Effect of the First World War

- British factories were busy with war production, so exports to India declined.
- Indian mills received large orders for war supplies and expanded production.
- After the war, Indian industries held a stronger position in the domestic market.

4.1 Why did handloom survive?

Factories did not destroy handloom completely

- Handloom producers adopted new technology such as the fly shuttle to increase productivity.
- Some specialised in fine or distinctive cloth that mills could not easily reproduce.
- Demand for borders, coloured designs and traditional garments protected some handloom sectors.

Small-scale industry remained important

- Even while factories grew, most industrial workers for a long time remained outside the large registered factory sector.

KEY IDEA

✓ Handloom survived through adaptation, specialisation and the continued demand for customised cloth.

4.2 Market for goods

Why advertising became important

- Mass production required mass markets.
- Manufacturers used advertisements to make products seem desirable, modern and trustworthy.

Labels and visual culture

- Manchester goods often carried labels such as 'Made in Manchester' to signal quality.
- Images of Indian gods and goddesses were used to appeal to consumers.
- Some advertisements also showed figures like nawabs, maharajas or elegantly dressed Indians to suggest prestige.

Calendars and nationalism

- Calendars reached even those who could not read newspaper advertisements.
- Later, advertisements also carried swadeshi messages encouraging people to buy Indian goods.

5. EXAM REVISION

Proto-industry vs factory system

Proto-industry	Factory system
Production spread across rural households.	Production concentrated in one place.

Proto-industry	Factory system
Merchant organised different stages outside towns.	Machines, labour and raw material gathered under one roof.
Dependent on domestic and artisanal labour.	Greater supervision and coordination.

Britain vs India

Britain	India
Industrialisation started earlier with inventions and factories.	Traditional textile production existed strongly before mills grew.
Factory system expanded with cotton, iron and steam.	Colonial control and imports shaped industrial growth.
Machines became important, but hand labour still remained.	Handloom and small-scale industries survived alongside mills.

5.1 Important terms, people and dates

Item	What to remember
Proto-industrialisation	Production for markets before factory system.
Guild	Urban association controlling craft and trade.
Gomastha	Company agent supervising weavers.
Jobber	Recruiter/intermediary for industrial workers.
1854	First cotton mill in Bombay.
1855	First jute mill in Bengal.
1907	Tata Iron and Steel Company.
1917	First Indian jute mill by Seth Hukumchand.
Dinshaw Petit / Jamsetjee Tata	Important industrial entrepreneurs.

5.2 Periodic-assessment question bank

2-Mark / 3-Mark

- What is proto-industrialisation?
- Why did merchants turn to rural areas before factories?
- What was the role of the flying shuttle or spinning jenny?
- Who was a gomastha?
- What was the role of a jobber?
- Why did Indian weavers face difficulties in the nineteenth century?

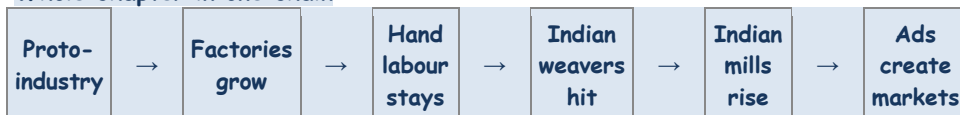
5-Mark

- Explain why industrialisation was a gradual and uneven process.
- Describe the condition and experience of workers in industrial Britain.

- Explain what happened to Indian weavers under East India Company control.
- Why did Manchester goods create difficulties for Indian textile producers?
- Explain the peculiarities of industrial growth in colonial India.
- How did advertisements help create markets for industrial goods?

5.3 Last-day revision

Whole chapter in one chain



10 One-Line Recall Prompts

Prompt	Recall
Proto-industrialisation	Production for markets before factories.
Guild	Urban craft association.
Flying shuttle	Sped up weaving.
Gomastha	Company agent over weavers.
Bombay mill 1854	First cotton mill.
First jute mill 1855	In Bengal.
Jobber	Recruiter of workers.
Tata 1907	Iron and steel company.
Fly shuttle	Helped handloom survive.
Advertising	Created markets for goods.

CHAPTER 5

PRINT CULTURE AND THE MODERN WORLD

1-PAGE CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Print began in East Asia and later transformed Europe and India.
- ✓ Woodblock printing developed in China, Japan and Korea before movable-type print became widespread.
- ✓ Gutenberg's press revolutionised European book production.
- ✓ Print expanded reading, debate, religious reform, dissent and political awareness.
- ✓ Print culture contributed to new ideas associated with the French Revolution.
- ✓ In India, print reshaped religious debate, social reform, women's reading and public opinion.
- ✓ The colonial state increasingly used censorship to control print.

Chapter Flow



BOARD FOCUS

- ✓ For long answers, connect print with social change, not just technology.
- ✓ Remember names + dates + effects: Gutenberg, Martin Luther, Raja Rammohun Roy, Vernacular Press Act.

1. EARLY PRINT CULTURE

China - the earliest print culture

- China had a large bureaucratic system. Textbooks for civil-service examinations created a strong demand for printed material.
- From around AD 594, books were printed by rubbing paper against inked woodblocks.
- Because Chinese script had thousands of characters, woodblock printing remained useful for a long time.

Who read printed books?

- Initially, scholar-officials were the main readers.
- By the seventeenth century, urban culture expanded and merchants, women and other readers increasingly used printed material.

Japan

- Buddhist missionaries from China introduced hand-printing technology into Japan around AD 768-770.
- The oldest Japanese printed book, the Buddhist Diamond Sutra, dates to AD 868.

MCQ ALERT

- ✓ Diamond Sutra - AD 868 - Japan - one of the oldest printed books.

1.1 Print comes to Europe

Before print

- Books in Europe were handwritten manuscripts copied by scribes.
- Manuscripts were expensive, fragile, time-consuming to produce and difficult to carry.
- Even after paper arrived in Europe, hand-copying could not meet growing demand for books.

Marco Polo and woodblock printing

- Marco Polo returned to Italy after travelling in China and brought knowledge of woodblock printing.
- Woodblock printing was then used in Europe for textiles, playing cards and religious pictures with short texts.

Why was a new technology needed?

- Universities expanded, literacy grew and the demand for books increased.

KEY IDEA

- ✓ Demand for books grew faster than scribes could copy them. This created the need for mechanical printing.

1.2 Gutenberg and the printing press

Johann Gutenberg

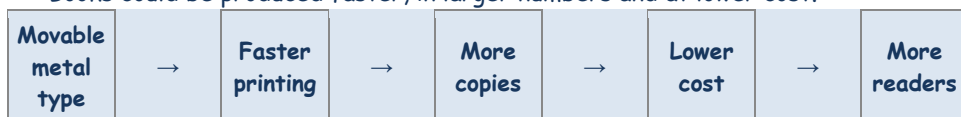
- Johann Gutenberg grew up in a family familiar with metalwork and used this knowledge to develop movable metal type.
- By the 1440s, Gutenberg had perfected a printing press using movable metal letters.

The Gutenberg Bible

- The first major book printed by Gutenberg was the Bible.
- About 180 copies were printed, which was remarkably fast compared with hand-copying.

Why was this revolutionary?

- The same metal letters could be rearranged and reused.
- Books could be produced faster, in larger numbers and at lower cost.



TOPPER LINE

✓ Gutenberg did not invent the idea of printing from nothing; he mechanised and improved book production in Europe.

2. PRINT REVOLUTION AND RELIGIOUS DEBATE

What changed after print?

- The number of books available increased rapidly.
- Books became cheaper and the time required to produce them decreased.
- A new reading public emerged.
- Knowledge and ideas could circulate much more widely.

But literacy was still limited

- Printers therefore published popular ballads and folk tales with pictures.
- These could be read aloud to groups, allowing even non-literate people to participate in print culture.

Oral culture + print culture

- Print did not immediately replace oral traditions; instead, printed material often entered oral culture through public reading and storytelling.

BOARD ANGLE

✓ Print expanded access to ideas even among people who could not read independently.

2.1 Fear of print and religious debate

Why did some people fear print?

- Print could spread ideas quickly and beyond the control of rulers and religious authorities.
- Some feared that rebellious or irreligious ideas would circulate among ordinary people.

Martin Luther and the Reformation

- In 1517, Martin Luther wrote Ninety-Five Theses criticising many practices of the Roman Catholic Church.
- His writings were rapidly printed and circulated, helping spread the Protestant Reformation.
- Print made it easier for people to debate religion and challenge established authority.

Menocchio

- Menocchio, an Italian miller, read printed books and developed his own interpretation of religion.
- His case showed how ordinary readers could use print to form ideas that worried religious authorities.

EXAM CONNECTION

✓ Print created a new world of debate and dissent; this is one of the chapter's central themes.

2.2 Print and dissent

Control by the Church

- The Roman Catholic Church became concerned about heretical readings and interpretations.
- From 1558, the Church maintained an Index of Prohibited Books.

Why was censorship introduced?

- Authorities wanted to control ideas that could challenge religion, monarchy or social order.
- Print made censorship harder because identical texts could be reproduced quickly and circulate widely.

Big lesson



KEY TERM

✓ Censorship = official control over what can be printed, published or circulated.

3. PRINT AND POLITICAL CHANGE

How did print contribute?

- Print popularised the ideas of Enlightenment thinkers such as Voltaire and Rousseau.
- Their writings criticised superstition, despotism and the authority of the Church.
- Print created a culture of dialogue, criticism and debate.
- Newspapers, pamphlets and cartoons mocked royalty and discussed social inequality.

Did print cause the Revolution directly?

- No. Print alone did not cause the French Revolution.
- But it helped create an environment in which people could question traditional authority and imagine political change.

5-MARK BALANCE

✓ Write: print spread Enlightenment ideas + encouraged debate + criticised monarchy, but it was one among several causes of the Revolution.

4. EXPANSION OF PRINT AND NEW READERS

More readers

- Literacy rates rose in many parts of Europe.
- Schools expanded and children became an important group of readers.
- Women and workers also became important reading publics.

New forms of literature

- Cheap series, penny chapbooks, almanacs and serialised novels expanded the market.
- Lending libraries made books available to readers who could not afford to buy them.

Impact

- Print became part of everyday life rather than a luxury for elite readers only.

4.1 Print comes to India

Before print

- India had a rich tradition of handwritten manuscripts in Sanskrit, Arabic, Persian and many vernacular languages.
- Manuscripts were copied on palm leaves or handmade paper and were often beautifully illustrated.
- They were fragile and difficult to use, so access remained limited.

First printed books

- The printing press first came to Goa with Portuguese missionaries in the sixteenth century.
- Catholic priests printed religious texts in Konkani and other Indian languages.
- By the late eighteenth century, newspapers began to appear in English and Indian languages.

IMPORTANT

✓ Print in India did not replace manuscript culture immediately; both existed together for a long time.

4.2 Early newspapers and public debate

James Augustus Hickey

- In 1780, James Augustus Hickey began the Bengal Gazette, one of the earliest English newspapers in India.
- It criticised East India Company officials and frequently faced official hostility.

Indian newspapers

- By the early nineteenth century, Indian reformers used newspapers and journals to discuss religion and society.
- Raja Rammohun Roy published and supported newspapers to argue for social and religious reform.

Why newspapers mattered

- They created a new public sphere where people could debate government policies, religion and social customs.

ONE-LINE RECALL

✓ Bengal Gazette - 1780 - James Augustus Hickey.

4.3 Religious reform and public controversies

Print and religious debate

- In the nineteenth century, print intensified debate within Hindu, Muslim and other religious communities.
- Reformers printed arguments against social customs they considered harmful, while orthodox groups printed replies.

Raja Rammohun Roy

- He used print to campaign against practices such as sati and to argue for religious and social reform.

Muslim print culture

- Religious scholars used cheap lithographic presses to publish Persian, Urdu and Arabic texts.
- The Deoband Seminary issued fatwas and religious interpretations to guide Muslim readers.

Impact

- Print turned religious reform into a wider public discussion rather than a debate limited to scholars.

4.4 New forms of publication in India

What became popular?

- Newspapers, journals, religious tracts, calendars, cartoons, novels and cheap pamphlets circulated widely.
- Visual images became an important part of print culture.

Raja Ravi Varma

- Mass-produced prints of paintings, including images associated with Raja Ravi Varma, reached ordinary homes.
- Religious and mythological images became widely available through printing.

Cartoons and caricatures

- Cartoons commented on social change, colonial rule and tensions between old and new lifestyles.

COMPETENCY TIP

✓ Images are also historical sources. Be ready to infer what a cartoon or print is trying to communicate.

4.5 Women and print

Growth of women readers

- As education for women expanded, more women began to read books and journals.
- Some conservative families feared that reading would make women disobedient or independent.

Women began to write

- Rashsundari Debi secretly learned to read and later wrote *Amar Jiban*, one of the earliest autobiographies by an Indian woman.
- Tarabai Shinde wrote *Stri Purush Tulana*, criticising gender inequality.
- Pandita Ramabai wrote about the difficult condition of upper-caste Hindu women.

Women's journals

- Journals discussed women's education, widowhood, domestic life, social reform and women's rights.

EXAM NAMES

✓ Rashsundari Debi - *Amar Jiban*; Tarabai Shinde - *Stri Purush Tulana*; Pandita Ramabai - women's condition.

4.6 Print and poor people

Cheap books

- Cheap small books were sold at crossroads and markets, making print accessible to poorer readers.
- Public libraries also expanded access.

Workers and caste

- Jyotiba Phule wrote *Gulamgiri*, attacking the injustices of caste.
- B.R. Ambedkar and E.V. Ramaswamy Naicker later wrote strongly against caste discrimination.
- Workers also wrote about their experiences of exploitation and inequality.

Why this matters

- Print gave marginalised groups a medium to criticise social hierarchy and demand dignity.

BIG IDEA

✓ Print was not only a tool of elites; it gradually became a weapon of social criticism.

4.7 Print and censorship in India

Early colonial control

- The colonial government worried that newspapers could spread criticism and political opposition.
- Press restrictions changed over time, becoming stricter during periods of political tension.

Vernacular Press Act, 1878

- The Vernacular Press Act gave the colonial government power to censor reports and editorials in Indian-language newspapers.
- It was especially aimed at controlling criticism of British rule.

Nationalist response

- Indian newspapers continued to grow and became important tools of nationalism.
- Writers developed indirect ways of criticising colonial policies when direct criticism was dangerous.

BOARD FACT

- ✓ Vernacular Press Act - 1878 - colonial censorship of Indian-language newspapers.

4.8 Children, women and workers

NEW READERS IN NINETEENTH-CENTURY EUROPE

Children

- Compulsory primary education made children an important reading public.
- A children's press was set up in France in 1857.
- The Grimm Brothers collected German folk tales and published them in 1812.

Women

- Women became major readers and writers; penny magazines, novels and household manuals were marketed to them.
- Jane Austen, the Bronte sisters and George Eliot became prominent women novelists.

Workers

- Lending libraries educated white-collar workers, artisans and lower-middle-class readers.
- As working hours shortened, self-educated workers wrote political tracts and autobiographies.

WHY THIS MATTERS

- ✓ Print expanded beyond elites to children, women and workers.

4.9 Further innovations in print

Technology

- Richard M. Hoe perfected the power-driven cylindrical press; it could print about 8,000 sheets per hour.
- The offset press could print several colours at a time.
- Electrically operated presses, automatic paper reels, better plates and improved paper feeding made printing faster and cleaner.

Publishing strategies

- Periodicals serialised important novels.
- Cheap series, book jackets and later inexpensive paperback editions helped maintain mass sales.

MCQ ALERT

- ✓ Richard M. Hoe = cylindrical press.
- ✓ Offset press = multi-colour printing.
- ✓ Electric presses = faster twentieth-century production.

4.10 Print, fear and press control

EXTRA NCERT BOARD DETAILS

Erasmus and Mercier

- Erasmus feared that uncontrolled printing could circulate foolish, scandalous or irreligious ideas.
- Louise-Sebastien Mercier believed print could spread enlightenment and challenge despotism.

Indian newspapers

- Gangadhar Bhattacharya brought out the Bengal Gazette, an early newspaper published by an Indian.
- Rammohun Roy published Sambad Kaumudi from 1821; Samachar Chandrika opposed his reformist views.
- Jam-i-Jahan Nama, Shamsul Akhbar and Bombay Samachar widened vernacular print.

Censorship timeline

- Before 1798: Company concern focused mainly on English critics of Company misrule.
- 1820s: regulations were introduced to control press freedom.
- 1835: press laws were liberalised after petitions by editors.
- After 1857: colonial attitudes hardened toward the Indian-language press.
- 1878: the Vernacular Press Act enabled warnings, censorship and seizure of presses.

FULL VERNACULAR PRESS ACT POINT

- ✓ The government monitored vernacular newspapers.
- ✓ Material judged seditious could trigger a warning.
- ✓ Ignoring the warning could lead to confiscation of the press and machinery.

5. EXAM REVISION

Manuscript vs Print

Manuscript culture	Print culture
Slow and expensive to copy.	Faster reproduction and more copies.
Limited circulation.	Much wider circulation.
Copy could vary from manuscript to manuscript.	More uniform copies could be produced.
Mostly elite access.	Gradually reached a wider reading public.

Europe vs India

Europe	India
Gutenberg transformed print in the fifteenth century.	Printing press arrived with Portuguese missionaries in the sixteenth century.
Religious Reformation and Enlightenment debates became major themes.	Religious reform, caste, women and nationalism became major themes.
Church and monarchies attempted censorship.	Colonial government used press laws and censorship.

5.1 Important people, books and dates

Item	What to remember
AD 868	Diamond Sutra - Japan.
Johann Gutenberg	Movable-type printing press in Europe.
1517 - Martin Luther	Ninety-Five Theses; Protestant Reformation.
1558	Index of Prohibited Books.
1780 - Hickey	Bengal Gazette.
Raja Rammohun Roy	Print and social/religious reform.
Rashsundari Debi	Amar Jiban.
Tarabai Shinde	Stri Purush Tulana.
1878	Vernacular Press Act.

5.2 Board-style question bank

2-Mark / 3-Mark

- Why were manuscripts not able to satisfy the growing demand for books?
- What was Gutenberg's contribution to printing?
- How did print create a new reading public?
- What was the role of Martin Luther in print culture?
- How did print shape religious debate in India?

- What was the Vernacular Press Act?

5-Mark

- Explain the major effects of the print revolution in Europe.
- How did print contribute to religious debate and dissent?
- Explain the role of print culture in the French Revolution.
- How did print culture develop in India?
- How did print affect women and marginalised groups in India?
- Explain colonial censorship of print in India.

ANSWER STRATEGY

✓ For 5-mark answers: definition/context + 5 distinct points + named examples + significance.

5.3 Last-day revision

Whole chapter in one chain



10 One-Line Recall Prompts

Prompt	Recall
Diamond Sutra	Japan, AD 868.
Gutenberg	Movable-type press in Europe.
Martin Luther	Ninety-Five Theses, 1517.
Menocchio	Ordinary reader whose ideas worried the Church.
French Revolution	Print spread Enlightenment and criticism.
Hickey	Bengal Gazette, 1780.
Rammohun Roy	Print for reform and public debate.
Rashsundari Debi	Amar Jiban.
Jyotiba Phule	Gulamgiri.
Vernacular Press Act	1878 colonial censorship.

Self-Test

- Can I compare manuscript culture with print culture?
- Can I explain why print caused both excitement and fear?
- Can I explain print and the French Revolution without saying print alone caused it?
- Can I name women and social reform writers from India?
- Can I explain the Vernacular Press Act?

PART II

GEOGRAPHY

Contemporary India-II

THIS SECTION INCLUDES

- Chapter 1 • Resources and Development
- Chapter 2 • Forest and Wildlife Resources
- Chapter 3 • Water Resources
- Chapter 4 • Agriculture
- Chapter 5 • Minerals and Energy Resources
- Chapter 6 • Manufacturing Industries
- Chapter 7 • Lifelines of National Economy

Revise concepts → examples → comparisons → exam questions

GEOGRAPHY • CHAPTER 1

RESOURCES AND DEVELOPMENT

1-PAGE CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ A resource becomes useful when it is technologically accessible, economically feasible and culturally acceptable.
- ✓ Resources can be classified by origin, exhaustibility, ownership and status of development.
- ✓ Indiscriminate resource use creates depletion, inequality and ecological problems.
- ✓ Resource planning and sustainable development are essential for India.
- ✓ Land is a finite resource; land-use patterns vary because of physical and human factors.
- ✓ Land degradation has region-specific causes and requires region-specific remedies.
- ✓ India has six major soil groups, each with distinct properties, distribution and crops.
- ✓ Soil erosion must be controlled through scientific conservation methods.

Chapter Flow

Resources → Planning → Land → Degradation → Soils →
Conservation

BOARD MAP WORK

✓ Major soil types must be identified on the map of India.

1. RESOURCES AND THEIR CLASSIFICATION

Definition

- Anything available in our environment that can satisfy human needs may be called a resource, provided it is technologically accessible, economically feasible and culturally acceptable.

Resources are not simply 'free gifts of nature'

- Resources are a result of interaction between nature, technology and institutions.
- Human beings themselves are an important component of resources because they transform materials into useful forms.

Three conditions

Technology → Economic feasibility → Cultural acceptability → Resource

EXAM WORDING

✓ Always mention all three conditions in the definition of a resource.

1.1 Classification by origin

BY ORIGIN

Biotic Resources

- Obtained from the biosphere and have life.
- Examples: humans, flora, fauna, livestock and fisheries.

Abiotic Resources

- Composed of non-living things.
- Examples: rocks, minerals, metals, air and water.

Quick comparison

Basis	Biotic	Abiotic
Nature	Living or once living	Non-living
Examples	Forests, animals, fisheries	Rocks, minerals, metals

MCQ TRICK

✓ Coal and petroleum originated from organic matter, but in school classification they are treated under mineral/fossil fuel resources rather than as living resources.

1.2 Classification by exhaustibility

BY EXHAUSTIBILITY

Renewable Resources

- Resources that can be renewed or reproduced through physical, chemical or mechanical processes.
- Examples: solar energy, wind energy, water, forests and wildlife when managed sustainably.

Non-renewable Resources

- Resources that form over very long geological periods and cannot be replaced quickly.
- Examples: fossil fuels and metallic minerals.

Sub-types

Type	Meaning	Example
Recyclable	Can be used again after processing	Metals
Non-recyclable	Cannot practically be reused after consumption	Fossil fuels

KEY IDEA

✓ Renewable does not mean unlimited. Misuse can still deplete forests, groundwater and wildlife.

1.3 Classification by ownership

BY OWNERSHIP

Type	Meaning	Examples
Individual	Owned privately by individuals	Plots, houses, wells, plantations
Community	Accessible to all members of a community	Public parks, grazing grounds, playgrounds

National	Belong to the nation; government has legal control	Forests, minerals, water, roads, territorial sea
International	Beyond national jurisdiction and regulated internationally	Oceanic resources beyond 200 nautical miles

Important point

- All resources within a country's political boundaries, including territorial waters and the Exclusive Economic Zone, are treated as national resources.

MCQ ALERT

✓ Resources beyond 200 nautical miles of the Exclusive Economic Zone require international institutional consent for use.

1.4 Classification by status of development

BY STATUS OF DEVELOPMENT

Type	Meaning	Example
Potential	Known to exist but not fully used	Wind/solar in Rajasthan and Gujarat
Developed	Surveyed, quantified and currently used	Coalfields, cultivated land
Stock	Available but usable technology is not yet adequate	Hydrogen in water as energy source
Reserves	Can be used with current technology but kept for future	Water stored in dams, protected forests

Stock vs Reserves

- Stock: resource exists, but technology for practical use is not fully available.
- Reserves: usable with present technology, but saved or managed for future use.

COMMON CONFUSION

✓ Stock ≠ Reserves. Technology is the key difference.

2. RESOURCE DEVELOPMENT AND PLANNING

Problems caused by indiscriminate use

- Depletion of resources to satisfy the greed of a few individuals.
- Accumulation of resources in a few hands, dividing society into 'haves' and 'have-nots'.
- Global ecological crises such as global warming, ozone depletion, environmental pollution and land degradation.

Need for equitable distribution

- Resource development must improve human well-being without destroying ecological balance.

Overuse → Deplete → Inequality → Eco crisis → Sustain

BOARD CONNECTION

✓ A resource-development question often expects both economic inequality and environmental consequences.

2.1 Sustainable development

Meaning

- Development should take place without damaging the environment and without compromising the needs of future generations.

Rio de Janeiro Earth Summit, 1992

- World leaders met at the United Nations Conference on Environment and Development in Rio de Janeiro.
- The summit focused on environmental protection and sustainable development.

Agenda 21

- Agenda 21 is a global action plan for sustainable development adopted at the Rio Earth Summit.
- One major objective was that every local government should prepare its own Local Agenda 21.

MEMORY LINE

✓ Rio 1992 → Sustainable Development → Agenda 21.

2.2 Resource planning in India

Why is planning essential?

- India has enormous resource diversity, but resources are unevenly distributed.
- Some regions are rich in certain resources while lacking others.

Three stages of resource planning

Stage	What happens
1. Identification	Surveying, mapping, qualitative and quantitative estimation of resources.
2. Planning structure	Developing appropriate technology, skills and institutional setup.
3. Matching plans	Linking resource-development plans with overall national development plans.

Why mere availability is not enough

- Resources can contribute to development only when technology, institutions and human skills are available.

EXAMPLE LOGIC

✓ Resource-rich regions may remain poor if technology, capital or institutions are weak.

2.3 Conservation of resources

Why conservation?

- Resources are vital for development, but many are finite or slow to renew.
- Conservation means planned and judicious use so that resources remain available in the future.

Gandhian idea

- Gandhi emphasised that the Earth has enough for everyone's need, but not for everyone's greed.
- He considered greed and exploitative modern technology major causes of resource depletion.

Practical principle

Need → Judicious use → Reuse +recycle → Future availability

5-MARK ENDING

✓ Conservation is not anti-development; it makes development durable and equitable.

3. LAND RESOURCES

Why is land important?

- Land supports natural vegetation, wildlife, human settlements, transport, communication, agriculture and industry.

Relief features of India

Relief	Approx. share	Importance
Plains	43%	Agriculture and industry
Mountains	30%	Rivers, forests, tourism, ecological balance
Plateaus	27%	Minerals, fossil fuels, forests

Land is finite

- Population growth and competing uses put heavy pressure on land.

EXAM ANGLE

✓ Land is both a natural resource and the base on which most economic activities occur.

3.1 Land utilisation

Major land-use categories

Category	Meaning
Forests	Area under forest cover.
Land not available for cultivation	Barren/waste land + land used for buildings, roads, factories etc.
Other uncultivated land	Permanent pastures, tree crops/groves, culturable waste land.
Fallow land	Land left uncultivated for one or more seasons.
Net sown area	Land actually under crops in a year.

What determines land use?

- Physical factors: topography, climate and soil type.

- Human factors: population density, technology, culture and traditions.

3.2 Land-use pattern in India

Why does land use vary from place to place?

- Relief, rainfall, soil, population pressure and economic activities differ widely across India.

Key observations

- The net sown area differs greatly among states.
- Forest area is lower than the desired 33% of geographical area in many regions.
- Permanent pasture land is limited despite the importance of livestock.
- Fallow land can vary with rainfall, irrigation and farming conditions.

Why accurate land-use planning matters

- Changing land to non-agricultural uses without planning can threaten food security and ecological balance.

DATA QUESTION TIP

✓ In data-based questions, explain the pattern and then connect it to relief, climate, population or development.

3.3 Land degradation

Meaning

- Land degradation is the decline in the quality and productive capacity of land.

Major causes in India

Region / activity	Major cause
Jharkhand, Chhattisgarh, Madhya Pradesh, Odisha	Mining and deforestation
Gujarat, Rajasthan, Madhya Pradesh, Maharashtra	Overgrazing
Punjab, Haryana, western Uttar Pradesh	Over-irrigation → waterlogging, salinity and alkalinity

Industrial/mining regions	Mineral processing dust and industrial effluents
---------------------------	--

Other causes

- Deforestation, over-cultivation and improper land management also accelerate degradation.

MCQ LINK

✓ Match the state/region with the dominant cause of land degradation.

3.4 Conservation of land

Measures

- Afforestation and proper management of grazing.
- Planting shelter belts and stabilising sand dunes with thorny bushes in arid regions.
- Proper treatment and disposal of industrial effluents and wastes.
- Controlling mining and reclaiming mined land.
- Managing irrigation to prevent waterlogging and salinity.

Problem → Remedy

Problem	Suitable remedy
Overgrazing	Controlled grazing + pasture development
Mining damage	Mine reclamation + afforestation
Waterlogging/salinity	Drainage + regulated irrigation
Wind erosion	Shelter belts + dune stabilisation

4. SOIL RESOURCES

What is soil?

- Soil is the most important renewable natural resource for agriculture.
- It is a living system containing minerals, organic matter, air, water and organisms.

Factors of soil formation

- Relief, parent rock or bedrock, climate, vegetation and other organisms, and time.

Parent rock → Climate → Relief → Biota → Time → Soil

Soil profile

- Different layers or horizons develop over time as weathering and organic processes continue.

TOPPER TIP

✓ For 'factors of soil formation', write at least five factors and mention that time is essential.

4.1 Alluvial soil

Distribution

- Most widespread and important soil in India.
- Found mainly in the northern plains and river valleys; also in eastern coastal deltas.

Formation and texture

- Formed by river deposits of sand, silt and clay.
- Texture becomes coarser in upper reaches and finer in lower valleys and deltas.

Two types

Type	Feature
Bangar	Older alluvium; often contains kankar nodules.
Khadar	Newer alluvium; renewed by floods and generally more fertile.

Fertility

- Generally rich in potash, phosphoric acid and lime; suitable for wheat, rice, sugarcane and pulses.

4.2 Black soil

Other name

- Also called regur soil or black cotton soil.

Distribution

- Typical of the Deccan Trap region and spread over Maharashtra, Madhya Pradesh, Gujarat, parts of Telangana/Andhra region and Tamil Nadu.

Properties

- Fine clayey material with high moisture-retaining capacity.
- Develops deep cracks in hot weather, which helps aeration.
- Sticky when wet and difficult to work.
- Rich in calcium carbonate, magnesium, potash and lime; generally poor in phosphorus.

Best known crop

- Especially suitable for cotton.

MEMORY LINE

✓ Black soil → Deccan Trap → moisture retention → deep cracks → cotton.

4.3 Red, Yellow and Laterite soils

Red and Yellow Soil

- Develops on crystalline igneous rocks in areas of low rainfall.
- Red colour is due to diffusion of iron; it appears yellow when iron is hydrated.
- Found in parts of the eastern and southern Deccan plateau.

Laterite Soil

- Develops under high temperature and heavy rainfall with intense leaching.
- Generally acidic and poor in plant nutrients.
- With suitable manuring and irrigation, it can support crops such as tea, coffee and cashew.
- Found in parts of Karnataka, Kerala, Tamil Nadu, Madhya Pradesh and hilly areas of Odisha and Assam.

DON'T CONFUSE

✓ Red soil colour = iron; Laterite = intense leaching under high rainfall.

4.4 Arid and Forest soils

Arid Soil

- Ranges from red to brown in colour and is generally sandy and saline.
- Low humus and moisture because of dry climate and high evaporation.
- In some areas, kankar restricts water infiltration.

- After irrigation, some arid soils become cultivable.

Forest / Mountain Soil

- Found in hilly and mountainous areas where forest cover influences soil development.
- Texture varies with altitude and slope.
- Coarse on upper slopes; loamy and silty in valley sides; fertile in river terraces and alluvial fans.

Soil	Typical region	Key clue
Arid	Western Rajasthan	Sandy + saline
Forest	Himalayan/hilly belts	Varies with altitude

4.5 Soil erosion

Meaning

- The removal of the top fertile layer of soil by natural agents or human activities is called soil erosion.

Major forms

Type	What happens
Gully erosion	Running water cuts deep channels; badlands may develop.
Sheet erosion	Water flows as a sheet and removes topsoil over a large area.
Wind erosion	Loose soil is blown away in dry and exposed regions.

Human causes

- Deforestation, overgrazing, construction and faulty farming practices accelerate erosion.

BOARD KEYWORD

✓ Ravines / badlands are strongly associated with gully erosion.

4.6 Soil conservation

Important methods

Method	How it helps
Contour ploughing	Ploughing along contour lines slows water flow.
Terrace farming	Steps on slopes reduce runoff and soil loss.

Strip cropping	Alternating crop strips break wind speed.
Shelter belts	Rows of trees reduce wind erosion.
Afforestation	Roots bind soil and reduce runoff.

Where are these especially useful?

- Terraces: hill slopes.
- Shelter belts and strip cropping: dry and windy regions.
- Contour ploughing: sloping land.

Erosion → Right method → Reduced runoff/wind → Soil conserved

4.7 Soil master table

Soil	Main region	Key property	Important crops
Alluvial	Northern plains + deltas	Very fertile; Bangar/Khadar	Rice, wheat, sugarcane
Black	Deccan Trap	Clayey, moisture-retaining	Cotton
Red & Yellow	Eastern/southern plateau	Iron gives red/yellow colour	Millet, pulses
Laterite	High-rainfall tropical regions	Leached, acidic	Tea, coffee, cashew
Arid	Western Rajasthan	Sandy, saline, low humus	With irrigation: various crops
Forest	Hilly/mountain areas	Varies with altitude	Plantation/fruits in suitable zones

MAP WORK

✓ Practise identifying the broad belts of all six major soil types on an outline political map of India.

5. EXAM REVISION

2-Mark / 3-Mark

- What is a resource? State the three conditions that make something a resource.
- Differentiate between stock and reserves.
- What is Agenda 21?

- Why is resource planning essential in India?
- What is land degradation? Name any two causes.
- Differentiate between Bangar and Khadar.
- Why is black soil ideal for cotton?
- What is gully erosion?

5-Mark

- Explain the classification of resources on different bases.
- Describe the three stages of resource planning in India.
- Explain the causes of land degradation and measures to control it.
- Describe the major features of alluvial and black soils.
- Explain different methods of soil conservation.

5.1 Last-day revision

Whole chapter in one chain

Classify → Sustain → Planning → Land use → Soils → Conservation

12 One-Line Recall Prompts

Prompt	Recall
Resource	Tech accessible + economically feasible + culturally acceptable
Agenda 21	Rio Earth Summit action plan, 1992
Potential resource	Known but not fully used
Stock	Exists but technology inadequate
Reserve	Usable now but saved for future
Alluvial	Bangar + Khadar
Black	Regur; cotton
Red/yellow	Iron
Laterite	Leaching
Arid	Sandy + saline
Gully erosion	Deep channels / ravines
Shelter belts	Control wind erosion

READY FOR EXAM?

- ✓ Can you classify any resource on all four bases?
- ✓ Can you write the three steps of resource planning?
- ✓ Can you match each soil with region, property and crop?
- ✓ Can you distinguish land degradation from soil erosion?

GEOGRAPHY • CHAPTER 2

FOREST AND WILDLIFE RESOURCES

1-PAGE CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Biodiversity means the rich variety of wildlife and cultivated species linked through networks of interdependence.
- ✓ Forests are primary producers and support water, air, soil and the wider ecological system.
- ✓ Rapid decline of forest and wildlife makes conservation essential.
- ✓ The Wildlife (Protection) Act, 1972 gave legal protection to species and habitats.
- ✓ Project Tiger was launched in 1973.
- ✓ Forest land is classified as reserved, protected and unclassed forests.
- ✓ Local communities play a major role in protecting habitats and restoring degraded forests.
- ✓ Chipko, sacred groves, Beej Bachao, Navdanya and Joint Forest Management are key conservation examples.

Chapter Flow

Biodiversity → Depletion → Conservation → Forest categories
→ Community role → Good practices

MAP WORK

- ✓ No prescribed Board map item is listed for this chapter in the syllabus you shared.

1. BIODIVERSITY AND DEPLETION

Meaning

- Biodiversity or biological diversity refers to the immense variety of wildlife and cultivated species, diverse in form and function but linked through multiple networks of interdependence.

Why are forests important?

- Forests are primary producers on which many other living beings depend.
- Plants, animals and micro-organisms help maintain the quality of air, water and soil.
- Humans are only one part of this complex ecological system.

Interdependence

Plants → Animals → Micro-organisms → Water + air + soil →
Human survival

BOARD KEYWORD

✓ Use the word 'interdependence' while explaining biodiversity.

1.1 Why biodiversity matters

Life-support systems

- Conservation protects ecological diversity and life-support systems such as water, air and soil.

Genetic diversity

- Genetic diversity allows species to remain healthy, adapt and breed.
- Agriculture still depends on traditional crop varieties.
- Fisheries depend heavily on aquatic biodiversity.

Human well-being

- Forests and wildlife also support livelihoods, food, medicine, cultural values and ecological stability.

EXAM LINE

✓ Biodiversity conservation protects both ecological balance and the long-term basis of human life.

1.2 Why forests and wildlife decline

Human pressures highlighted in the syllabus

- Expansion of developmental works can destroy or fragment habitats.
- Overgrazing can prevent regeneration and degrade forest cover.
- Excessive wood cutting and fuelwood extraction can reduce forest quality.

- Mining, infrastructure and other land-use changes can damage habitats.
- Insensitivity to ecological limits increases stress on flora and fauna.

Cause → Effect

Development / extraction → Habitat loss → Reduced biodiversity
→ Ecological imbalance

TOPPER TIP

✓ Write causes as human activity → habitat impact → biodiversity effect.

2. CONSERVATION OF FORESTS AND WILDLIFE

Why conservation became essential

- Wildlife populations and forest resources were declining rapidly.
- Conservation aims to preserve ecological diversity, life-support systems and genetic diversity.

Conservation approach

- Protection requires legal action, protected habitats, restrictions on hunting and trade, and community participation.
- Modern conservation increasingly focuses on biodiversity as a whole rather than only a few large animals.

KEY IDEA

✓ Conservation = species + habitat + ecological processes + community participation.

2.1 Wildlife (Protection) Act, 1972

Major provisions

- The Indian Wildlife (Protection) Act was implemented in 1972.
- It provided legal protection to habitats and species.
- Hunting of protected wildlife was restricted or banned.
- Trade in wildlife and wildlife products was restricted.
- National parks and wildlife sanctuaries were established by central and state governments.

Why it mattered

- It gave conservation a national legal framework rather than leaving protection to isolated local efforts.

MCQ ALERT

✓ Wildlife (Protection) Act → 1972.

2.2 Project Tiger

Launch

- Project Tiger was launched in 1973.

Why tiger conservation matters

- The tiger is an important species in the food chain and a symbol of wider habitat health.
- Saving tigers also protects large forest ecosystems and many other species living in them.

Important tiger reserves/examples

Protected area	State
Corbett National Park	Uttarakhand
Sunderbans National Park	West Bengal
Bandhavgarh National Park	Madhya Pradesh
Sariska Wildlife Sanctuary / Tiger Reserve	Rajasthan
Manas Tiger Reserve	Assam
Periyar Tiger Reserve	Kerala

2.3 Conservation becomes broader

Beyond a few famous species

- Conservation projects increasingly focus on biodiversity rather than only selected large mammals.
- Insects also began receiving protection under wildlife notifications.
- Butterflies, moths, beetles and even a dragonfly were added to protected lists in the 1980s.
- In 1991, plants were included in protected-species lists for the first time, beginning with six species.

BIG IDEA

✓ Modern conservation protects the entire web of life, not only charismatic animals.

3. FOREST CATEGORIES AND LEGAL STATUS

Category	What it means	Importance
Reserved Forests	More than half of total forest land; strictest protection among the three categories.	Most valuable for conservation.
Protected Forests	Almost one-third of forest area; protected from further depletion.	Important conservation land.
Unclassed Forests	Other forests and wastelands owned by government, private individuals or communities.	Often important in North-East and parts of Gujarat.

Permanent forest estates

- Reserved and protected forests are also called permanent forest estates.
- They are maintained for timber, other forest produce and protective purposes.

COMMON CONFUSION

✓ Reserved forest ≠ protected forest. Reserved forests are considered more valuable for conservation.

3.1 Distribution of forest categories

Important NCERT patterns

- Madhya Pradesh has a very large share of permanent forests.
- Several states such as Jammu and Kashmir, Andhra Pradesh, Uttarakhand, Kerala, Tamil Nadu, West Bengal and Maharashtra have large percentages of reserved forests.
- Bihar, Haryana, Punjab, Himachal Pradesh, Odisha and Rajasthan have large shares under protected forests.
- North-eastern states and parts of Gujarat have a high percentage of unclassified forests, often managed by local communities.

HOW TO USE THIS

✓ For board answers, focus on the pattern and one or two state examples rather than memorising every state mechanically.

4. COMMUNITY CONSERVATION

Why communities matter

- Forests are home and livelihood sources for many traditional communities.
- Local people often have strong practical knowledge of local ecology.
- Long-term conservation works better when communities see that protection also secures their livelihoods.

Core principle

Local knowledge → Participation → Protection → Livelihood benefit → Long-term conservation

BOARD CONCEPT

✓ Community participation turns conservation from an external restriction into a shared responsibility.

4.1 Sariska and Bhairodev Dakav 'Sonchuri'

Sariska Tiger Reserve, Rajasthan

- Villagers have fought against mining by citing provisions of the Wildlife Protection Act.

Bhairodev Dakav 'Sonchuri'

- People of five villages in Alwar district, Rajasthan, declared about 1,200 hectares of forest as Bhairodev Dakav 'Sonchuri'.
- They created their own rules that prohibit hunting.
- They protect wildlife against outside encroachment.

WHY THIS EXAMPLE MATTERS

✓ It proves that local communities can create and enforce conservation rules themselves.

4.2 Chipko Movement

What did it show?

- The Chipko movement in the Himalayas resisted deforestation in several areas.
- It demonstrated that local communities can directly participate in forest protection.
- It also showed that community afforestation using indigenous species can be highly successful.

Lesson

Deforestation threat → Community action → Trees protected
→ Indigenous afforestation

BOARD PHRASE

✓ Chipko = resistance to deforestation + community-based conservation.

4.3 Beej Bachao and Navdanya

Beej Bachao Andolan

- Farmers' initiatives in the Tehri region promoted traditional seeds and diversified agriculture.

Navdanya

- Navdanya is associated with conserving seed diversity and promoting ecological farming.

What these examples prove

- Diversified crop production can be maintained without excessive dependence on synthetic chemicals.
- Traditional knowledge can contribute to biodiversity conservation and economically viable farming.

KEY IDEA

✓ Conservation is not limited to forests; crop diversity and traditional seeds are also part of biodiversity.

4.4 Sacred groves

Meaning

- Sacred groves are patches of forest protected because of religious and cultural beliefs.
- Local communities leave these forests largely untouched and restrict interference.

Why they are important

- They preserve rare and diverse species.
- They show how cultural traditions can support conservation.

Examples of community protection

- Mundas and Santhals of the Chota Nagpur region traditionally revere trees such as mahua and kadamba.
- In and around Bishnoi villages of Rajasthan, blackbuck, chinkara, nilgai and peacocks are treated as part of community life and protected.

4.5 Joint Forest Management (JFM)

What is JFM?

- Joint Forest Management involves local village institutions in protecting and restoring degraded forest land managed by the Forest Department.

Formal beginning

- JFM has been in formal existence since 1988, when Odisha passed the first resolution for Joint Forest Management.

How does it work?

- Local communities undertake protection and restoration activities.
- In return, they may receive non-timber forest produce and a share in timber harvested after successful protection.

**Degraded forest → Village institution → Protection + restoration
→ Benefits shared**

MCQ ALERT

✓ JFM formal resolution → Odisha, 1988.

4.6 Good conservation practices

Practice	Why effective
Legal protection	Restricts hunting, trade and habitat destruction.
Protected areas	Protect habitats through parks, sanctuaries and reserves.
Community conservation	Uses local knowledge and creates ownership.
Sacred groves	Cultural beliefs preserve untouched forest patches.
JFM	Links local protection with livelihood benefits.
Ecological farming	Conserves seed and crop diversity.

The central lesson

- The dynamics of environmental destruction and reconstruction show that local communities must be involved in conservation.

5-MARK ENDING

✓ Effective conservation combines law, science, local knowledge and community participation.

5. EXAM REVISION

Reserved vs Protected vs Unclassed

Reserved	Protected	Unclassed
Most valuable for conservation.	Protected from further depletion.	Other forests/wastelands under varied ownership.
More than half of forest land.	Almost one-third of forest area.	Important in North-East and parts of Gujarat.
Part of permanent forest estate.	Part of permanent forest estate.	Often community-managed.

Government-only vs Community-based conservation

Government-led	Community-based
Laws, parks, sanctuaries, species protection.	Chipko, sacred groves, local rules, JFM.
Essential for legal enforcement.	Essential for local ownership and livelihood integration.

5.1 Important terms and dates

Term / date	Recall
Biodiversity	Variety of species linked by interdependence.
1972	Wildlife (Protection) Act.
1973	Project Tiger.
Reserved forest	Most valuable category for conservation.
Protected forest	Protected against further depletion.
Unclassed forest	Other forests/wastelands under mixed ownership.
Sacred groves	Community-protected forest patches.
1988	Odisha resolution for JFM.
JFM	Community + Forest Department management.
Chipko	Community resistance to deforestation.

5.2 Board-style question bank

2-Mark / 3-Mark

- What is biodiversity? Why is it important for human life?
- Why is conservation of forests and wildlife necessary?
- State any three provisions or effects of the Wildlife Protection Act.
- Differentiate between reserved, protected and unclassed forests.
- What is Joint Forest Management?
- How do sacred groves help conservation?

5-Mark

- Explain how human activities contribute to depletion of flora and fauna.
- Describe how local communities have conserved forests and wildlife in India.
- Explain important good practices used for conservation of forests and wildlife.
- Why is community participation important for successful forest conservation?

ANSWER STRATEGY

✓ Use named examples: Sariska, Bhairodev Dakav Sonchuri, Chipko, sacred groves, Beej Bachao/Navdanya and JFM.

5.3 Last-day revision

Whole chapter in one chain

Biodiversity → Depletion → 1972 Act → Project Tiger →
Forest categories → Community conservation

12 One-Line Recall Prompts

Prompt	Recall
Biodiversity	Interdependent variety of living forms
Forests	Primary producers
1972	Wildlife Protection Act
1973	Project Tiger
Reserved	Most valuable conservation forests
Protected	Protected from further depletion
Unclassed	Mixed ownership forests/wastelands
Sariska	Villagers opposed mining
Sonchuri	Community-protected Alwar forest
Chipko	Resisted deforestation
Sacred groves	Culture-based forest protection
JFM	Odisha resolution, 1988

READY FOR EXAM?

- ✓ Can you explain why biodiversity matters?
- ✓ Can you distinguish all three forest categories?
- ✓ Can you write four community-conservation examples?
- ✓ Can you explain JFM with year, state and benefits?

6. ADDITIONAL EXAM-READY DETAILS

SPECIES STATUS CATEGORIES

Categories often used in school-level conservation study

Category	Meaning / clue	Simple example idea
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Normal species	Population considered normal for survival in that area.	Cattle egret / common species in suitable habitats
Endangered species	In danger of extinction.	Blackbuck, crocodile, Indian wild ass, lion-tailed macaque, sangai
Vulnerable species	Likely to become endangered if threats continue.	Blue sheep, Asiatic elephant, Gangetic dolphin
Rare species	Small population; may become endangered.	Himalayan brown bear, wild Asiatic buffalo, desert fox, hornbill
Endemic species	Restricted to a particular region.	Andaman teal, Nicobar pigeon, Andaman wild pig
Extinct species	Not found after searches in their known habitat.	Asiatic cheetah in India, pink-headed duck

WHY I ADDED THIS

✓ These categories are classic textbook-style details and can support MCQs, short answers and case-based questions.

✓ Even if your school focuses the rationalised core, knowing these terms improves conceptual clarity.

6.1 Red Data Book and protected areas

RED DATA BOOK + PROTECTED AREAS

Red Data Book

- The Red Data Book records endangered species of plants and animals.
- It is used as an important reference for conservation priorities.

Protected areas - quick distinction

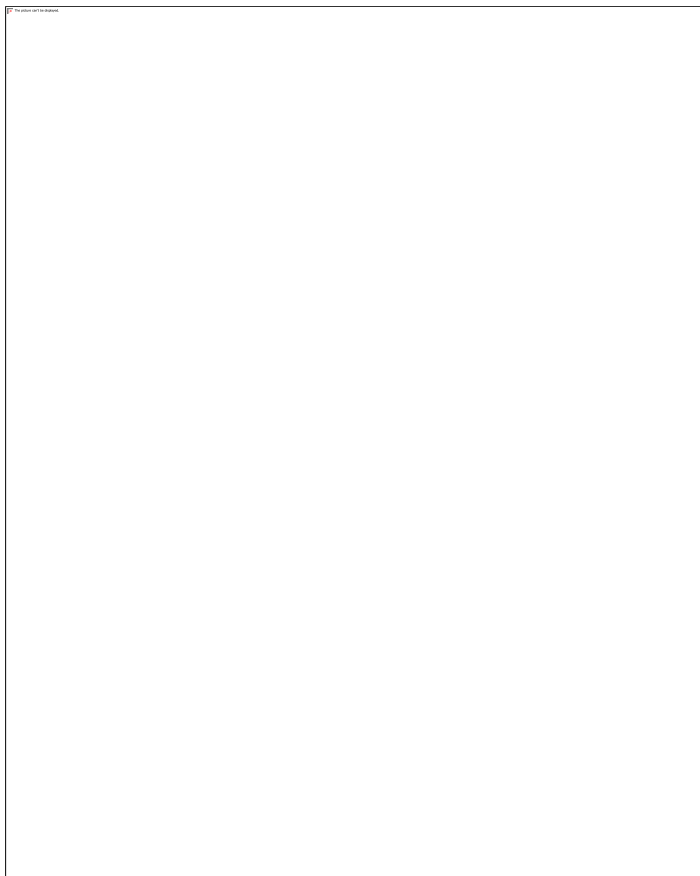
Type	Main idea	Key clue
Biosphere Reserve	Large protected area for conserving biodiversity, research and sustainable use.	Very broad conservation zone
National Park	Area reserved for wildlife where activities are highly restricted.	Strong legal protection
Wildlife Sanctuary	Protected area for wildlife; some regulated human activities may be allowed.	Protection with limited flexibility

SMART REVISION TIP

✓ If a question asks for conservation methods, combine legal tools (Act, sanctuaries, parks) with community tools (Chipko, sacred groves, JFM).

6.2 Visual recap - biodiversity and interdependence

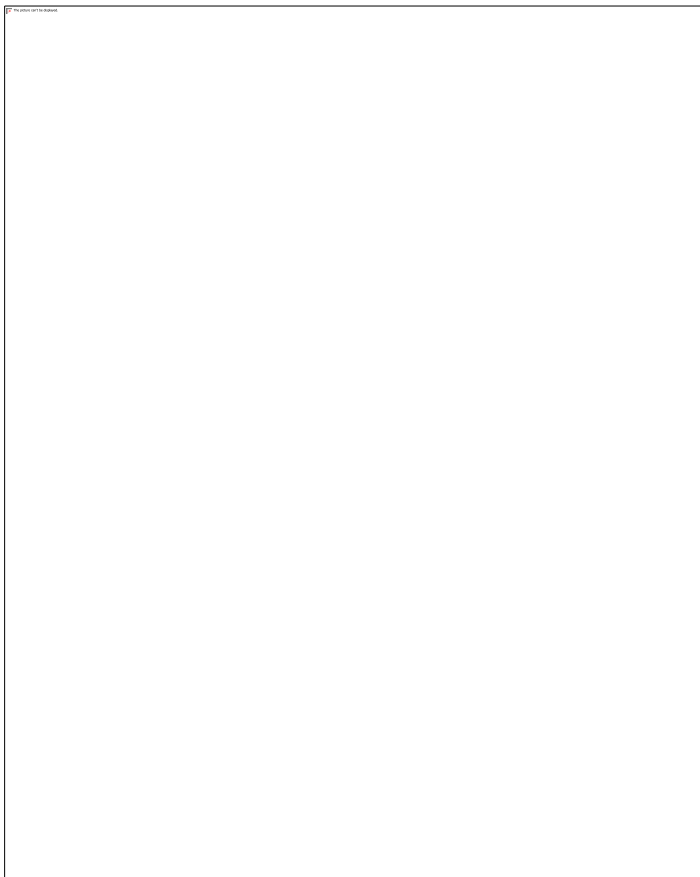
BIODIVERSITY AND INTERDEPENDENCE



Visual recap page for quick understanding and last-day revision.

6.3 Visual recap - causes of depletion

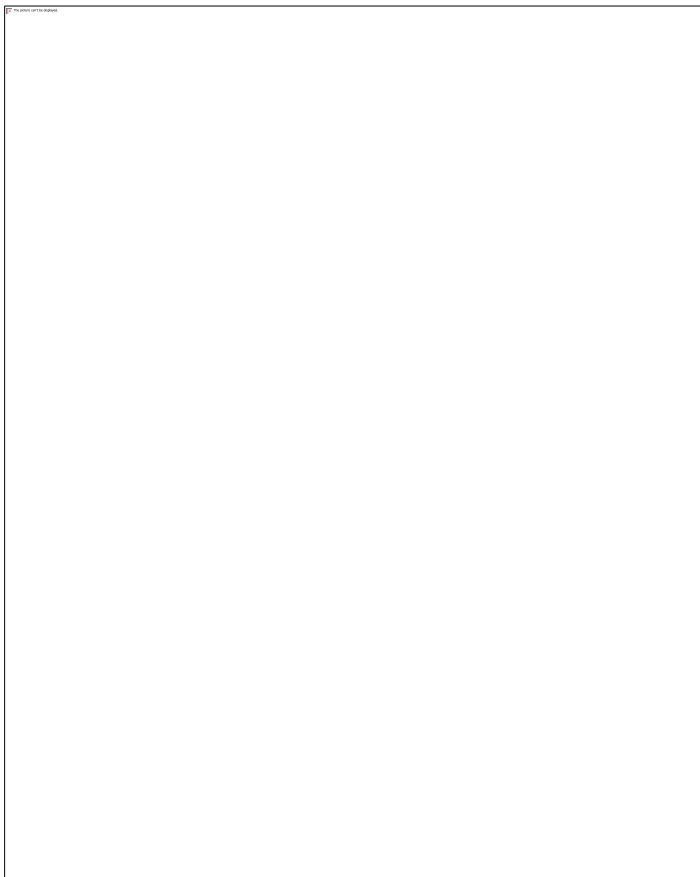
CAUSES OF DEPLETION OF FORESTS AND WILDLIFE



Visual recap page for quick understanding and last-day revision.

6.4 Visual recap - forest categories

RESERVED, PROTECTED AND UNCLASSIFIED FORESTS



Visual recap page for quick understanding and last-day revision.

6.5 Visual recap - community conservation

COMMUNITY CONSERVATION IN INDIA

Visual recap page for quick understanding and last-day revision.

GEOGRAPHY • CHAPTER 3

WATER RESOURCES

1-PAGE CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Water is a renewable resource because it continuously circulates through the hydrological cycle.
- ✓ Freshwater is limited and unevenly distributed in time and space.
- ✓ Water scarcity can result from population growth, urbanisation, industrialisation, intensive irrigation, over-exploitation and unequal access.
- ✓ Water conservation and management are necessary for present and future water security.
- ✓ Multipurpose river projects provide irrigation, hydropower, flood control and water supply but can create social and ecological costs.
- ✓ Large dams have generated debates over displacement, forests, river ecology, siltation and conflicts.
- ✓ Rainwater harvesting is a decentralised method of storing rainwater and recharging groundwater.
- ✓ Traditional Indian water-harvesting systems remain important models of local adaptation.

Chapter Flow

Water as a resource → Scarcity → Conservation → River projects → Dam debates → Rainwater harvesting

BOARD MAP WORK

- ✓ Eight multipurpose projects/dams are prescribed for locating and labelling.

1. WATER AVAILABILITY AND SCARCITY

Why is water called renewable?

- Water is continuously renewed through the hydrological cycle: evaporation, condensation, precipitation, runoff and groundwater recharge.
- However, usable freshwater is limited and unevenly distributed.

Freshwater sources

- Surface water: rivers, lakes, ponds and reservoirs.
- Groundwater: water stored below the surface in aquifers.

Important distinction

KEY IDEA

✓ Renewable does not mean unlimited. Water can become scarce when use exceeds recharge or when pollution reduces usable supply.

1.1 Water scarcity

Meaning

- Water scarcity means shortage of usable water relative to demand.

Scarcity is not only a rainfall problem

- An area may receive reasonable rainfall but still face scarcity because of overuse, pollution, poor management or unequal access.
- Scarcity can be quantitative (not enough water) or qualitative (water exists but is polluted/unusable).

Core logic

Limited usable freshwater → Demand rises → Overuse / pollution → Water scarcity

BOARD LANGUAGE

✓ Water scarcity is caused by both natural availability and human pressure on the resource.

1.2 Causes of water scarcity

Cause	How it creates scarcity
Population growth	Raises domestic demand and increases demand for food production.
Urbanisation	Concentrates demand in cities and puts pressure on municipal and groundwater supplies.
Industrialisation	Industries need large quantities of water for production, cooling and cleaning.
Intensive irrigation	High agricultural demand can overdraw rivers and groundwater.
Groundwater overuse	Tube wells extract water faster than aquifers recharge.
Pollution	Sewage, industrial effluents and chemicals reduce usable freshwater.
Unequal access	Some groups receive secure supply while others face shortage.

1.3 Irrigation and water pressure

Why agriculture matters

- Irrigated agriculture is the largest user of water in many regions.
- High-yielding crops and multiple cropping can increase water demand.
- Tube-well irrigation may lower groundwater levels when extraction exceeds recharge.

Water-intensive farming

- Growing water-intensive crops in dry regions can increase pressure on scarce water resources.

Better management

- Drip and sprinkler irrigation, crop planning and efficient canal management reduce wastage.

EXAM LINK

✓ Agricultural development must be balanced with groundwater recharge and long-term water security.

1.4 Need for water conservation

Why conservation is essential

- To ensure enough water for domestic, agricultural and industrial needs.
- To prevent falling groundwater tables.
- To protect rivers, lakes, wetlands and aquatic ecosystems.
- To reduce conflicts among regions and user groups.
- To ensure availability for future generations.

Conservation approach

Reduce waste → Improve efficiency → Recharge groundwater
→ Protect quality → Sustainable water security

2. MULTIPURPOSE RIVER PROJECTS

What are they?

- Large dams and reservoirs are built to store and regulate river water for several uses.

Major purposes

Use	How the project helps
Irrigation	Stored water is supplied through canals.
Hydroelectricity	Flowing/stored water generates electricity.
Flood control	Reservoirs regulate river flow.
Water supply	Provides water for domestic and industrial use.
Navigation	Maintains navigable water in some regions.
Fisheries	Reservoirs can support fish production.
Recreation	Reservoirs may support tourism and water sports.

NCERT IDEA

✓ Jawaharlal Nehru described large dams as the 'temples of modern India' because they were associated with development and nation-building.

2.1 Why multipurpose projects are debated

Social costs

- Large reservoirs can submerge villages and agricultural land.
- People may be displaced and lose homes, livelihoods and access to common resources.

Environmental costs

- Forests and wildlife habitats may be submerged.
- Dams alter the natural flow of rivers and can block fish migration.
- Sediments may get trapped, affecting downstream fertility and delta formation.

Agricultural side-effects

- Canal irrigation can contribute to waterlogging and soil salinity in poorly drained areas.

BALANCED ANSWER

✓ Write both benefits and costs. CBSE competency questions often test whether students can evaluate, not merely list advantages.

2.2 Dams, floods and sediments

Are dams always effective in flood control?

- Dams may reduce flood peaks when reservoirs have storage capacity.

- But heavy siltation reduces storage capacity over time.
- Sudden release of large quantities of water can worsen downstream flooding.

Sediment problem

- Rivers naturally carry silt that fertilises floodplains and deltas.
- Reservoirs trap much of this sediment.

Ecological consequence

- Changes in sediment and flow affect aquatic habitats and downstream ecosystems.

COMPETENCY TIP

✓ Avoid absolute statements such as 'dams stop floods'. Their effect depends on storage, siltation and reservoir management.

2.3 Water conflicts

Why do conflicts arise?

- River water is shared by different states, regions, cities, farms and industries.
- Upstream storage or diversion can affect downstream users.
- Benefits and costs of projects may be distributed unequally.

Types of conflict

Conflict	Example of competing interest
Inter-state	Different states demand larger shares of river water.
Rural-urban	Cities draw water from surrounding rural areas.
Agriculture-industry	Both sectors compete for reliable supply.
Project-local community	Large projects benefit wider regions but may displace local people.

2.4 Narmada Bachao Andolan

What was it?

- A social movement that questioned large dam projects in the Narmada valley, especially their social and environmental consequences.

Major concerns

- Displacement and rehabilitation of affected people.
- Submergence of forests and agricultural land.
- Questions about who receives benefits and who bears the costs.

Why it is important

- It made development debates more attentive to rehabilitation, environmental impact and local communities.

5-MARK LINK

✓ Use Narmada Bachao Andolan as an example when evaluating multipurpose projects.

3. RAINWATER HARVESTING

Meaning

- Rainwater harvesting means collecting and storing rainwater for direct use or for groundwater recharge.

Why is it useful?

- Reduces dependence on distant water sources.
- Recharges aquifers.
- Reduces surface runoff and local flooding.
- Can provide water during dry periods.
- Works at household, village and watershed scales.

Rainfall → Catchment → Collection → Storage/recharge →
Later use

KEY IDEA

✓ Rainwater harvesting is a decentralised, locally adaptable method of water conservation.

3.1 Traditional water harvesting in India

Region	Traditional system	Purpose / idea
Western Himalayas	Guls and Kuls	Diversion channels carry stream/glacial water to fields.
Rajasthan	Khadins	Earthen embankments capture surface runoff for agriculture.
Rajasthan	Tankas	Underground tanks store rainwater for domestic use.

Bengal plains	Inundation channels	Floodwater diverted to fields.
Meghalaya	Bamboo drip irrigation	Bamboo pipes distribute spring/stream water drop by drop.

BOARD TIP

✓ Named examples make rainwater-harvesting answers much stronger than generic descriptions.

3.2 Rooftop rainwater harvesting

How it works

- Rain falls on a roof catchment.
- Gutters and pipes carry water to a filter.
- Filtered water enters a storage tank or recharge pit.
- Recharge pits allow water to percolate into the ground.

Tamil Nadu

- Tamil Nadu became the first state to make rooftop rainwater harvesting compulsory for buildings.

Why cities need it

- Paved surfaces reduce natural infiltration, while urban groundwater extraction is often high.

EXAM PHRASE

✓ Rooftop harvesting converts buildings from water-demand surfaces into water-capturing surfaces.

3.3 Rajasthan: tankas and khadins

Tankas

- Tankas are underground storage structures traditionally used to store rainwater.
- They were especially valuable for drinking water in arid western Rajasthan.

Khadins

- Khadins are earthen embankments that capture runoff.
- The stored moisture supports cultivation after water infiltrates the soil.

Local adaptation

- These systems evolved in response to low and highly variable rainfall.

BIG IDEA

- ✓ Traditional systems match local climate, relief and community needs.

4. MAP WORK AND REVISION

Project / dam	River	State / region to remember
Salal	Chenab	Jammu & Kashmir
Bhakra Nangal	Sutlej	Himachal Pradesh / Punjab region
Tehri	Bhagirathi	Uttarakhand
Rana Pratap Sagar	Chambal	Rajasthan
Sardar Sarovar	Narmada	Gujarat
Hirakud	Mahanadi	Odisha
Nagarjuna Sagar	Krishna	Telangana-Andhra Pradesh region
Tungabhadra	Tungabhadra	Karnataka

MAP PRACTICE

- ✓ Practise locating all eight on an outline political map of India.
- ✓ CBSE may ask either locating/labelling or identification.

4.1 Multipurpose projects - master table

Benefit	Corresponding concern
Irrigation	Waterlogging, salinity, unequal access
Hydropower	Submergence and ecological alteration
Flood regulation	Siltation and reservoir-management limitations
Water supply	Competition among cities, farms and industries
Regional development	Displacement and rehabilitation issues
Reservoir fisheries	Changes to natural river ecosystems

ANSWER FRAME

- ✓ A balanced evaluation = purpose/benefit → social cost → environmental cost → need for better planning and rehabilitation.

4.2 Water conservation - what should be done?

Households and cities

- Repair leakages and reduce wastage.
- Harvest rooftop rainwater.
- Reuse suitable wastewater.

Agriculture

- Adopt drip/sprinkler irrigation where suitable.
- Improve canal efficiency and crop-water planning.

Industry

- Recycle water and treat effluents before discharge.

Landscape level

- Protect catchments, wetlands and recharge areas.
- Promote watershed management and groundwater recharge.

4.3 Important terms

Term	Recall
Hydrological cycle	Continuous circulation of water.
Water scarcity	Shortage of usable water relative to demand.
Aquifer	Underground layer storing/transmitting groundwater.
Multipurpose project	Dam/reservoir serving several water-related uses.
Siltation	Accumulation of sediment in reservoirs.
Waterlogging	Soil remains excessively saturated with water.
Rainwater harvesting	Collection/storage or recharge of rainwater.
Tanka	Underground rainwater-storage tank.
Khadin	Runoff-harvesting embankment in Rajasthan.
Kul/Gul	Mountain diversion channel.

4.4 Board-style question bank

2-Mark / 3-Mark

- Why can water scarcity occur even in an area of sufficient rainfall?

- State any three causes of water scarcity.
- What is a multipurpose river project?
- Why are large dams criticised?
- What is rainwater harvesting?
- Explain tankas or khadins.
- Name any three multipurpose projects from the prescribed map work.

5-Mark

- Explain the causes of water scarcity and the need for water conservation.
- Evaluate the benefits and problems of multipurpose river projects.
- Explain how rainwater harvesting helps conserve water, using Indian examples.
- Describe traditional water-harvesting systems in different parts of India.

BOARD STRATEGY

✓ For evaluation questions, never write only advantages. Use both sides and conclude with sustainable management.

4.5 Last-day revision

Whole chapter in one chain

Water cycle → Scarcity → Conservation → Dams → Debates
→ Rainwater harvesting

12 One-Line Recall Prompts

Prompt	Recall
Water renewable?	Renewed by hydrological cycle
Scarcity	Demand > usable supply
Agriculture pressure	Irrigation + groundwater extraction
Multipurpose dam	Several uses from one river project
Nehru	Dams = temples of modern India
Main criticism	Displacement + ecological costs
NBA	Large-dam debate in Narmada valley

RWH	Collect/store rain or recharge aquifers
Gul/Kul	Western Himalayas
Tanka/Khadin	Rajasthan
Bamboo drip	Meghalaya
Map	8 prescribed projects

4.6 Visual recap - water scarcity

WATER SCARCITY: CAUSES AND CONSEQUENCES



4.7 Visual recap - multipurpose projects

MULTIPURPOSE RIVER PROJECTS: BENEFITS AND COSTS

4.8 Visual recap - rainwater harvesting

**RAINWATER HARVESTING: TRADITIONAL + ROOFTOP
SYSTEMS**



GEOGRAPHY • CHAPTER 4

AGRICULTURE

1-PAGE CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Agriculture is a primary activity that provides food, raw materials, employment and export earnings.
- ✓ Indian farming ranges from primitive subsistence to intensive, commercial and plantation agriculture.
- ✓ India has three cropping seasons: Rabi, Kharif and Zaid.
- ✓ Major food crops include rice, wheat, millets, maize and pulses.
- ✓ Other important crops include sugarcane, oilseeds, tea, coffee, horticulture, rubber, cotton and jute.
- ✓ Technological and institutional reforms aim to raise production and improve farmers' security.
- ✓ Bhoodan-Gramdan and land reforms addressed inequality and fragmented holdings.
- ✓ Globalisation creates both market opportunities and serious competition for Indian farmers.

Chapter Flow

Types of farming → Cropping seasons → Food crops → Cash + fibre crops → Reforms → Globalisation

BOARD MAP WORK

- ✓ Identify major areas of rice and wheat.
- ✓ Identify largest/major producer states of sugarcane, tea, coffee, rubber, cotton and jute.

1. FARMING SYSTEMS IN INDIA

Why agriculture matters

- Agriculture is a primary activity because it directly uses natural resources to produce food and raw materials.
- It supports a large rural population and supplies raw material to industries such as textiles, sugar, jute and food processing.
- Tea, coffee, spices and other agricultural products are also exported.

Agriculture-industry linkage

Farm → Raw material → Processing industry → Market → Income + employment

BOARD CONNECTION

✓ Agriculture is not isolated from industry; both sectors are closely interdependent.

1.1 Primitive subsistence farming

Main features

- Practised on small patches of land using primitive tools such as hoe, dao and digging sticks.
- Family or community labour is commonly used.
- Depends strongly on monsoon, natural soil fertility and local environmental conditions.
- Production is mainly for family consumption.

Slash-and-burn / shifting cultivation

- A patch is cleared, cultivated for a few years, and then abandoned when fertility declines.
- Natural vegetation later helps restore soil fertility.
- Known as jhumming in many north-eastern states.

EXAMPLES

✓ Jhumming: Assam, Meghalaya, Mizoram and Nagaland; other regional names also exist.

1.2 Intensive subsistence farming

Where is it practised?

- Common in areas of high population pressure on land.

Main features

- Small land holdings.
- High labour input per unit of land.
- Multiple cropping and intensive use of land.
- Irrigation and biochemical inputs may be used to increase output.

Why intensive?

- Farmers try to obtain maximum production from limited land.

COMPARE

✓ Primitive subsistence = low inputs and shifting cultivation; intensive subsistence = small plots but high labour/input and repeated cropping.

1.3 Commercial and plantation farming

Commercial farming

- Production is mainly for sale in the market.
- Modern inputs such as HYV seeds, fertilisers, irrigation and machinery are used more intensively.
- Degree of commercialisation varies from region to region.

Plantation agriculture

- A single crop is grown on a large estate.
- It requires capital investment, technical support and usually hired labour.
- Processing is often closely linked to the plantation.
- Examples: tea, coffee, rubber, banana and some other plantation crops.

MCQ CLUE

✓ Single crop + large estate + processing link = plantation agriculture.

2. CROPPING SEASONS

Season	Sowing	Harvest	Examples
Rabi	Oct-Dec	Apr-Jun	Wheat, barley, peas, gram, mustard
Kharif	With monsoon, Jun-Jul	Sep-Oct	Rice, maize, jowar, bajra, tur, cotton, jute
Zaid	Between Rabi and Kharif	Short summer season	Watermelon, muskmelon, cucumber, vegetables, fodder

Special points

- Winter rainfall from western disturbances helps rabi crops in north-western India.

- In Assam, West Bengal and Odisha, three crops of paddy—Aus, Aman and Boro—may be grown in a year.

MEMORY

✓ Rabi = winter; Kharif = monsoon; Zaid = short summer gap.

3. MAJOR CROPS

Season + climate

- Rice is mainly a Kharif crop.
- Needs high temperature, high humidity and generally more than 100 cm rainfall, or adequate irrigation.

Major regions

- Grown widely in the north-eastern plains, eastern and coastal regions, deltaic areas and irrigated tracts.
- Important states include West Bengal, Uttar Pradesh, Punjab, Andhra Pradesh, Telangana, Tamil Nadu, Odisha, Bihar, Assam and Chhattisgarh.

Why can it grow in Punjab/Haryana?

- Irrigation makes rice cultivation possible even where rainfall is lower than the ideal requirement.

MAP WORK

✓ Practise identifying the major rice-growing belt, not merely memorising a single state.

3.1 Wheat

Season + conditions

- Wheat is a major Rabi crop.
- It requires a cool growing season and bright sunshine during ripening.
- About 50-75 cm rainfall is suitable; irrigation supports production in drier areas.

Major regions

- Mainly grown in north and north-western India.
- Important states include Uttar Pradesh, Madhya Pradesh, Punjab, Haryana, Rajasthan and Bihar.

Green Revolution connection

- Punjab, Haryana and western Uttar Pradesh became major wheat regions with irrigation, HYV seeds and modern inputs.

MAP WORK

- ✓ Know the broad wheat belt of north and north-west India.

3.2 Millets

Major millets

Crop	Conditions / feature	Important regions
Jowar	Rain-fed; grows in lower rainfall zones	Maharashtra, Karnataka, Madhya Pradesh, Telangana
Bajra	Grows well on sandy/shallow soils with low rainfall	Rajasthan, Uttar Pradesh, Haryana, Gujarat
Ragi	Thrives in dry regions; highly nutritious	Karnataka, Tamil Nadu and other southern regions

Why are millets important?

- They are hardy, nutritious crops suited to dryland agriculture.
- Ragi is rich in iron, calcium and other nutrients.

BOARD VALUE

- ✓ Millets connect nutrition, dryland farming and climate resilience.

3.3 Maize and pulses

Maize

- Usually a Kharif crop, though it is also grown in some areas in another season.
- Requires moderate temperature and rainfall with well-drained fertile soil.
- Used as food and fodder and also as an industrial raw material.

Pulses

- Major pulses include tur, urad, moong, masur, peas and gram.
- They are important protein sources, especially in vegetarian diets.
- Being leguminous, many pulses help restore soil fertility by fixing nitrogen.

MCQ ALERT

✓ Pulses = leguminous crops = nitrogen fixation.

3.4 Sugarcane

Conditions

- A tropical and subtropical crop requiring hot and humid climate.
- Needs a long frost-free period and adequate water.
- Can grow on a variety of soils with good irrigation and management.

Uses

- Sugar, gur, khandsari, molasses and other products.

Major producing states

- Important producers include Uttar Pradesh, Maharashtra, Karnataka, Tamil Nadu, Bihar and others.

MAP WORK

✓ The CBSE map list asks for the largest/major producer state(s) of sugarcane.

3.5 Oilseeds

Major oilseeds

- Groundnut, mustard, coconut, sesamum (til), soybean, castor, cottonseed, linseed and sunflower.

Season

- Oilseeds are grown across both Kharif and Rabi seasons depending on the crop and region.

Uses

- Edible oils, soaps, cosmetics and industrial products.

EXAM TIP

✓ Do not treat 'oilseeds' as one single crop; it is a group with different seasons and regions.

3.6 Tea

Type

- Tea is a plantation and beverage crop.

Conditions

- Needs warm, moist, frost-free climate.
- Requires deep, fertile, well-drained soil rich in humus and organic matter.
- Frequent showers distributed through the year support tender leaf growth.

Major regions

- Assam, hills of Darjeeling and Jalpaiguri in West Bengal, Tamil Nadu and Kerala are important areas.

MAP WORK

- ✓ Know the major producer state(s) of tea.

3.7 Coffee

India's coffee

- Indian coffee is known for quality; Arabica is an important variety.

Conditions

- Warm climate with moderate rainfall and well-drained soil.
- Traditionally grown under shade on hill slopes.

Major producing states

- Karnataka is the largest producer, followed by other southern states such as Kerala and Tamil Nadu.

MAP WORK

- ✓ Coffee → remember Karnataka as the major producer.

3.8 Horticulture

What is horticulture?

- Cultivation of fruits, vegetables, flowers and related high-value crops.

Why important?

- Improves dietary diversity.
- Provides income and employment.
- Supports processing and export industries.

Examples

- India grows tropical and temperate fruits such as mango, banana, citrus fruits, apples and others.

COMPETENCY LINK

- ✓ Horticulture shows that agriculture is broader than cereals and fibre crops.

3.9 Rubber

Conditions

- Rubber requires high temperature, heavy rainfall and humid conditions.
- It grows best in tropical areas.

Major producing states

- Kerala is the most important producer; Tamil Nadu, Karnataka and some north-eastern areas also produce rubber.

Use

- Important industrial raw material for tyres, footwear and numerous manufactured goods.

MAP WORK

- ✓ Rubber → remember Kerala as the major producer.

3.10 Cotton

Conditions

- Cotton is a Kharif crop requiring high temperature, light rainfall or irrigation and bright sunshine.
- Black soil of the Deccan plateau is especially suitable.

Major states

- Important producers include Gujarat, Maharashtra, Telangana, Andhra Pradesh, Madhya Pradesh, Karnataka and others.

Importance

- Basic raw material for the cotton textile industry.

MAP WORK

- ✓ Know the major cotton-producing belt and major producer state(s).

3.11 Jute

Conditions

- Needs high temperature, heavy rainfall and a humid climate.
- Grows well on fertile alluvial soil in floodplains, where fresh deposits renew fertility.

Major region

- West Bengal is the dominant producer; Assam, Bihar and Odisha also contribute.

Uses

- Sacks, ropes, mats, yarn, carpets and packaging material.

MAP WORK

✓ Jute → remember West Bengal as the major producer.

4. AGRICULTURAL REFORMS AND SUPPORT

Why reforms were needed

- Low productivity, small and fragmented holdings, monsoon dependence and farmer indebtedness limited agricultural development.

Institutional measures

- Abolition of zamindari and other land reforms.
- Consolidation of holdings and promotion of cooperation.
- Credit support through banks and cooperatives.

Technological measures

- Green Revolution: HYV seeds, irrigation, fertilisers and modern methods.
- White Revolution / Operation Flood: expansion of milk production and dairy cooperatives.

BIG IDEA

✓ Reforms aimed to improve productivity, equity and farmer security.

4.1 Farmer support measures

Measure	Purpose
---------	---------

Crop insurance	Protection against losses from natural hazards and crop failure.
Grameen banks/cooperatives	Institutional credit at more reasonable terms.
Kisan Credit Card (KCC)	Timely credit for agricultural needs.
Personal Accident Insurance Scheme	Financial protection for farming households.
Weather bulletins	Information for agricultural planning.
MSP / procurement prices	Protect farmers against severe price falls and exploitation.

BOARD ANSWER

✓ For reforms questions, combine land reform + technology + credit/insurance + price support.

4.2 Bhoodan-Gramdan

Vinoba Bhave

- The Bhoodan movement was associated with Acharya Vinoba Bhave.

Bhoodan

- Landowners were encouraged to voluntarily donate part of their land for redistribution to landless people.

Gramdan

- In Gramdan, entire villages could place land under collective/community ownership arrangements.

Why important?

- It represented a voluntary attempt to reduce land inequality and promote social justice.

MEMORY

✓ Bhoodan = land gift; Gramdan = village/collective donation idea.

5. GLOBALISATION AND AGRICULTURAL CHALLENGES

Globalisation is not completely new

- Indian agricultural products and spices have long been part of international trade.

Modern opportunities

- Access to larger markets and demand for high-value agricultural products.
- Possibility of processing, exports and value addition.

Challenges

- Competition from heavily subsidised agriculture in developed countries.
- Price fluctuations in international markets.
- Rising input costs and small, fragmented holdings.
- Need for sustainable and competitive farming.

BALANCED ANSWER

✓ Globalisation creates opportunity + competition. Write both sides.

5.1 Major challenges facing farmers

- Dependence on monsoon in many regions.
- Small and fragmented land holdings.
- Rising costs of seeds, fertilisers, diesel and machinery.
- Indebtedness and unequal access to formal credit.
- Price instability and marketing problems.
- Soil degradation and groundwater stress.
- Climate variability and extreme weather.

What is needed?

Technology → Credit → Insurance → Markets → Sustainable resource use

6. MAP WORK AND REVISION

Map item	What to identify
Rice	Major rice-growing areas
Wheat	Major wheat-growing areas
Sugarcane	Largest/major producer state(s)

Tea	Largest/major producer state(s)
Coffee	Largest/major producer state(s)
Rubber	Largest/major producer state(s)
Cotton	Largest/major producer state(s)
Jute	Largest/major producer state(s)

MAP STRATEGY

✓ Rice and wheat: learn broad belts/areas.

✓ Other crops: learn the major producer states specified by the CBSE map-work list.

6.1 Master crop comparison

Crop	Season	Key condition	Strong recall clue
Rice	Kharif	High temperature + humidity + water	Eastern/coastal + irrigated belts
Wheat	Rabi	Cool season + bright ripening sunshine	North/north-west
Millets	Mostly Kharif	Lower rainfall / dryland	Nutritious + hardy
Pulses	Both	Varies; often low moisture	Nitrogen fixation
Tea	Plantation	Warm, moist, humus-rich soil	Assam/WB/south
Coffee	Plantation	Warm, shaded hills	Karnataka
Cotton	Kharif	Heat + black soil	Textile fibre
Jute	Kharif	Hot, humid, alluvial floodplains	West Bengal

6.2 Board-style question bank

2-Mark / 3-Mark

- Differentiate between primitive and intensive subsistence farming.
- State three features of plantation agriculture.
- Differentiate between Rabi, Kharif and Zaid seasons.
- State the geographical conditions required for rice or wheat.
- Why are pulses important for soil fertility?

- State geographical conditions for tea, coffee, cotton or jute.
- Mention any three institutional reforms for farmers.

5-Mark

- Explain the major types of farming practised in India.
- Describe India's cropping seasons with examples.
- Explain technological and institutional reforms introduced in Indian agriculture.
- Describe the conditions and distribution of major food or cash crops.
- Evaluate the impact of globalisation on Indian agriculture.

6.3 Last-day revision

Whole chapter in one chain

Farming types → Seasons → Food crops → Cash/fibre crops
→ Reforms → Challenges

12 One-Line Recall Prompts

Prompt	Recall
Jhumming	Primitive slash-and-burn
Intensive farming	High labour on small holdings
Plantation	Single crop on large estate
Rabi	Oct-Dec sowing; Apr-Jun harvest
Kharif	Monsoon season
Zaid	Short summer season
Rice	Hot + humid + high water
Wheat	Cool growing season
Pulses	Nitrogen fixing
Coffee	Karnataka
Jute	West Bengal
Reforms	Land + technology + credit + MSP

6.4 Visual recap - farming types and seasons

TYPES OF FARMING + CROPPING SEASONS



6.5 Visual recap - major crops

MAJOR CROPS OF INDIA

6.6 Visual recap - reforms

TECHNOLOGICAL + INSTITUTIONAL REFORMS



GEOGRAPHY • CHAPTER 5

MINERALS AND ENERGY RESOURCES

1-PAGE CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Minerals are naturally occurring homogeneous substances with a definite internal structure.
- ✓ Minerals occur in ores and in different geological forms such as veins, beds, residual deposits and placers.
- ✓ India has rich but unevenly distributed mineral resources.
- ✓ Major metallic minerals include iron ore, manganese, copper and bauxite; mica and limestone are important non-metallic/rock minerals.
- ✓ Mining creates serious health and environmental hazards.
- ✓ Minerals are finite and non-renewable, so conservation is essential.
- ✓ Energy resources are classified as conventional and non-conventional.
- ✓ Coal, petroleum and natural gas remain major conventional energy sources; solar, wind, biogas, tidal, geothermal and atomic energy diversify supply.
- ✓ CBSE map work includes mines, oil fields, thermal plants and nuclear plants.

Chapter Flow

Minerals → Occurrence → Distribution → Mining hazards →
Energy resources → Conservation

1. MINERALS: TYPES AND OCCURRENCE

- A mineral is a homogeneous, naturally occurring substance with a definable internal structure.
- Minerals are indispensable to modern life: buildings, transport, machinery, electricity, electronics and even food depend on them.

Mineral vs ore

- An ore is an accumulation of a mineral mixed with other elements from which extraction is commercially viable.
- Economic viability depends on concentration, ease of extraction and proximity to markets.

KEY IDEA

✓ Not every mineral occurrence becomes a mine; it must be economically workable.

1.1 Classification of minerals

Group	Sub-group / examples	Key idea
-------	----------------------	----------

Metallic	Ferrous: iron ore, manganese	Contain iron / support metallurgical industries
Metallic	Non-ferrous: copper, bauxite, lead, zinc, gold	Do not contain iron as the main metallic component
Non-metallic	Mica and others	Important in electrical/electronic uses
Rock mineral	Limestone	Raw material for cement and iron smelting

EXAM TRAP

- ✓ Ferrous vs non-ferrous is a classification of metallic minerals.
- ✓ Coal, petroleum and natural gas are primarily discussed as energy resources.

1.2 Veins and lodes

VEINS AND LODES

- In igneous and metamorphic rocks, minerals may occur in cracks, crevices, faults or joints.
- Smaller occurrences are called veins; larger ones are called lodes.
- Tin, copper, zinc and lead are common examples found in this form.

Magma / hot solution → Cracks + joints → Cooling + solidifying
→ Vein / lode

1.3 Beds, residual and placer deposits

BEDS, RESIDUAL + PLACER

Beds or layers

- In sedimentary rocks, minerals may occur in beds or layers formed by deposition and accumulation.
- Coal and some forms of iron ore occur in such layers; gypsum and salts can also form by evaporation.

Residual deposits

- Weathering can remove soluble materials and leave a residual mass; bauxite is a classic example.

Placer deposits

- Alluvial sands in valley floors and at the base of hills may contain minerals not corroded by water.

- Gold, silver, tin and platinum can occur in placer deposits.

1.4 Minerals from ocean water

- Ocean water contains dissolved minerals.
- Common salt, magnesium and bromine are largely derived from ocean water.
- Ocean beds also contain manganese nodules.

MEMORY

✓ Ocean water → dissolved minerals; ocean bed → nodules.

1.5 Distribution of minerals in India

- Mineral resources are unevenly distributed because geological structures and processes differ from region to region.
- Peninsular rocks contain much of India's coal, metallic minerals, mica and many non-metallic minerals.
- Sedimentary rocks on the western and eastern flanks of the peninsula, especially in Gujarat and Assam, contain major petroleum deposits.
- Rajasthan has important non-ferrous mineral reserves.
- The vast alluvial plains of northern India are relatively poor in economic mineral deposits.

BOARD EXPLANATION

✓ Distribution follows geology—not political boundaries.

1.6 Rat-hole mining

- In parts of Meghalaya, coal and other minerals have traditionally been owned by individuals or communities.
- Coal mining in areas such as Jowai and Cherrapunjee has been done through long, narrow tunnels known as rat-hole mines.

WHY IMPORTANT

✓ Rat-hole mining is a classic NCERT example linking ownership patterns, mining methods and environmental risk.

2. METALLIC AND NON-METALLIC MINERALS

- Ferrous minerals account for a large share of the value of metallic-mineral production.
- They provide a strong base for metallurgical industries.

Iron ore

- Iron ore is the basic mineral and backbone of industrial development.
- Magnetite is the finest iron ore and may contain up to about 70% iron; it also has excellent magnetic qualities.
- Hematite is the most important industrial iron ore by quantity used and generally has lower iron content than magnetite.

2.1 Major iron-ore belts

Belt	Important places / features
Odisha-Jharkhand	Badampahar in Mayurbhanj/Kendujhar; Gua and Noamundi in Singhbhum
Durg-Bastar-Chandrapur	Bailadila in Bastar, Chhattisgarh; very high-grade hematite
Ballari-Chitradurga-Chikkamagaluru-Tumakuru	Large Karnataka reserves; Kudremukh is a major deposit
Maharashtra-Goa	Goa and Ratnagiri district; ore exported through Marmagao

MAP LINK

✓ Prescribed iron-ore mines: Mayurbhanj, Durg, Bailadila, Bellary and Kudremukh.

2.2 Manganese

- Manganese is mainly used in steel making and ferro-manganese alloys.
- It is also used in bleaching powder, insecticides and paints.

MEMORY

✓ Manganese → steel + alloy + chemicals.

2.3 Copper

- India is relatively deficient in copper reserves and production.
- Copper is malleable, ductile and a good conductor.
- It is widely used in electrical cables, electronics and chemical industries.
- Important producing areas include Balaghat in Madhya Pradesh, Khetri in Rajasthan and Singhbhum in Jharkhand.

2.4 Bauxite

- Bauxite is a clay-like ore from which alumina and then aluminium are obtained.
- It forms through decomposition of rocks rich in aluminium silicates.
- Aluminium is light, strong, conductive and malleable.
- Important deposits occur in the Amarkantak plateau, Maikal Hills and Bilaspur-Katni plateau region.
- Panchpatmali in Koraput, Odisha, is an important bauxite deposit.

2.5 Mica and limestone

Mica

- Mica splits easily into thin sheets.
- Its dielectric strength, low power loss and insulating properties make it valuable in electrical and electronic industries.
- Important belts include Koderma-Gaya-Hazaribagh in Jharkhand, Ajmer in Rajasthan and Nellore in Andhra Pradesh.

Limestone

- Limestone is associated with calcium-carbonate rocks.
- It is a basic raw material for cement and is essential in smelting iron ore in blast furnaces.

3. MINING HAZARDS AND CONSERVATION

- Dust and noxious fumes can cause pulmonary diseases among miners.

- Mine-roof collapse, inundation and fires are constant occupational hazards.
- Mining can contaminate local water sources.
- Waste and slurry degrade land and soil and increase stream and river pollution.

BOARD CONCLUSION

✓ Mining requires stricter safety regulation, environmental law enforcement and land reclamation.

3.1 Conservation of minerals

- Mineral resources are finite and non-renewable because geological formation is extremely slow.
- As high-grade deposits are exhausted, extraction moves deeper and becomes costlier.
- Improved technologies can make low-grade ores usable at lower cost.
- Recycling metals, using scrap and developing substitutes reduce pressure on fresh extraction.

**Judicious use → Low-grade ore technology → Recycle + scrap
→ Substitutes → Longer resource life**

4. ENERGY RESOURCES

- Energy is required for cooking, lighting, heating, transport and industry.
- Energy comes from fuel minerals and electricity.

Conventional	Non-conventional
Firewood, dung cake	Solar
Coal	Wind
Petroleum	Tidal
Natural gas	Geothermal
Hydel electricity	Biogas
Thermal electricity	Atomic / nuclear energy

KEY IDEA

✓ The textbook classification places atomic energy with non-conventional sources.

4.1 Coal

- Coal is India's most abundant fossil fuel and is crucial for electricity and industry.

Types of coal

Type	Main feature
Peat	Low carbon, high moisture, low heating value
Lignite	Low-grade brown coal; soft and high in moisture
Bituminous	Most widely used commercial coal
Anthracite	Highest-quality hard coal

- Neyveli in Tamil Nadu is a major lignite field.

4.2 Gondwana and Tertiary coal

- Gondwana coal is over 200 million years old and provides much of India's metallurgical coal.
- Important Damodar valley coalfields include Jharia, Raniganj and Bokaro.
- Coal is also found in the Godavari, Mahanadi, Son and Wardha valleys.
- Tertiary coal is younger and occurs in north-eastern states such as Meghalaya, Assam, Arunachal Pradesh and Nagaland.

LOCATION LOGIC

✓ Heavy industries and thermal plants often locate near coalfields because coal is bulky and loses weight as ash when used.

4.3 Petroleum

- Petroleum is the next major energy source after coal.
- It provides fuel, lubricants and raw material for synthetic textiles, fertilisers and chemical industries.

- Refineries act as nodal industries because many downstream industries depend on them.

Occurrence

- Petroleum often occurs in anticlines and fault traps in tertiary rock formations.
- Oil is held in porous rock layers between non-porous layers; natural gas commonly occurs above oil.

Major areas

- Mumbai High, Gujarat and Assam are major producing regions.
- Ankaleshwar is an important Gujarat field; Digboi, Naharkatia and Moran-Hugrijan are important Assam fields.

4.4 Natural gas

- Natural gas occurs with petroleum and is released when crude oil is brought to the surface.
- It is used in power generation, industry, petrochemicals, fertilisers, transport (CNG) and cooking (PNG).
- Major reserves occur in Mumbai High/allied west-coast fields, the Cambay basin and the Krishna-Godavari basin.

HVJ pipeline

- The Hazira-Vijaipur-Jagdishpur pipeline linked western offshore gas fields with fertiliser, power and industrial centres.

4.5 Hydel vs thermal electricity

HYDEL VS THERMAL

Hydel electricity	Thermal electricity
Generated by running/flowing water	Generated by burning coal, petroleum or natural gas
Uses renewable water flow	Uses non-renewable fossil fuels
Examples include major multipurpose projects	Thermal plants often lie near coal/fuel sources

DEVELOPMENT INDICATOR

✓ Per-capita electricity consumption is often treated as an indicator of development.

4.6 Nuclear / atomic energy

- Nuclear energy is released by altering the structure of atoms.
- Uranium and thorium are important nuclear minerals.
- Uranium is available in Jharkhand and parts of the Aravalli region of Rajasthan.
- Monazite sands of Kerala are rich in thorium.

MAP LINK

✓ Prescribed nuclear plants: Narora, Kakrapar, Tarapur and Kalpakkam.

4.7 Solar energy

- India has enormous solar potential because it lies in the tropical belt.
- Photovoltaic technology converts sunlight directly into electricity.
- Solar energy is especially useful in rural and remote areas.
- It can reduce dependence on firewood and dung cakes, supporting forest conservation and preserving dung for manure.

5-MARK ANSWER

✓ Solar has a bright future because India has abundant sunshine, decentralised rural demand and growing need for clean energy.

4.8 Wind and biogas

Wind

- India has substantial wind-energy potential.
- The major wind-farm cluster extends from Nagercoil to Madurai in Tamil Nadu.
- Other important wind-energy states include Gujarat, Maharashtra, Karnataka, Andhra Pradesh and Kerala.

Biogas

- Biogas is produced from shrubs, farm waste and animal/human waste.
- Gobar-gas plants provide fuel and improved manure.

- Biogas reduces pressure on fuelwood and is an efficient use of cattle dung.

4.9 Tidal and geothermal

Tidal energy

- Tidal energy uses the rise and fall of ocean tides to generate electricity.
- Potential areas include the Gulf of Khambhat, Gulf of Kachchh and the Sundarban delta.

Geothermal energy

- Geothermal energy uses heat from the Earth's interior.
- Experimental Indian projects have operated in the Parvati Valley near Manikaran in Himachal Pradesh and Puga Valley in Ladakh.

4.10 Conservation of energy

- Economic growth raises energy demand, so conservation and renewable energy must expand together.
- Use public transport where possible.
- Switch off electricity when not needed.
- Use energy-efficient devices.
- Promote renewable and non-conventional energy.

MEMORY LINE

✓ Energy saved is energy produced.

5. MAP WORK AND REVISION

Category	Prescribed locations
Iron ore mines	Mayurbhanj, Durg, Bailadila, Bellary, Kudremukh
Coal mines	Raniganj, Bokaro, Talcher, Neyveli
Oil fields	Digboi, Naharkatia, Mumbai High, Bassien, Kalol, Ankaleshwar
Thermal plants	Namrup, Singrauli, Ramagundam
Nuclear plants	Narora, Kakrapar, Tarapur, Kalpakkam

MAP STRATEGY

✓ Practise identification and locating/labeling separately; spell every place exactly.

5.1 Master comparisons

Pair	Difference
Ferrous vs non-ferrous	Ferrous minerals contain iron; non-ferrous do not have iron as the dominant metallic component.
Magnetite vs hematite	Magnetite has higher iron content and magnetic properties; hematite is the most widely used industrial ore.
Gondwana vs Tertiary coal	Gondwana is older and concentrated in peninsular river valleys; Tertiary coal is younger and common in the North-East.
Hydel vs thermal	Water-based renewable generation vs fossil-fuel-based generation.
Conventional vs non-conventional	Long-used mainstream sources vs newer/alternative sources such as solar, wind and tidal.

5.2 Board-style question bank

2-Mark / 3-Mark

- What is a mineral? What is an ore?
- How do minerals occur in igneous and metamorphic rocks?
- Differentiate between ferrous and non-ferrous minerals.
- Why is mica important to electrical industries?
- State any three hazards of mining.
- Differentiate between hydel and thermal electricity.
- Why is natural gas considered a useful fuel?

5-Mark

- Describe the major iron-ore belts of India.
- Explain the distribution of coal in India.
- Explain the occurrence and major producing areas of petroleum in India.

- Why do mineral resources need conservation? Suggest measures.
- Why does solar energy have a bright future in India?

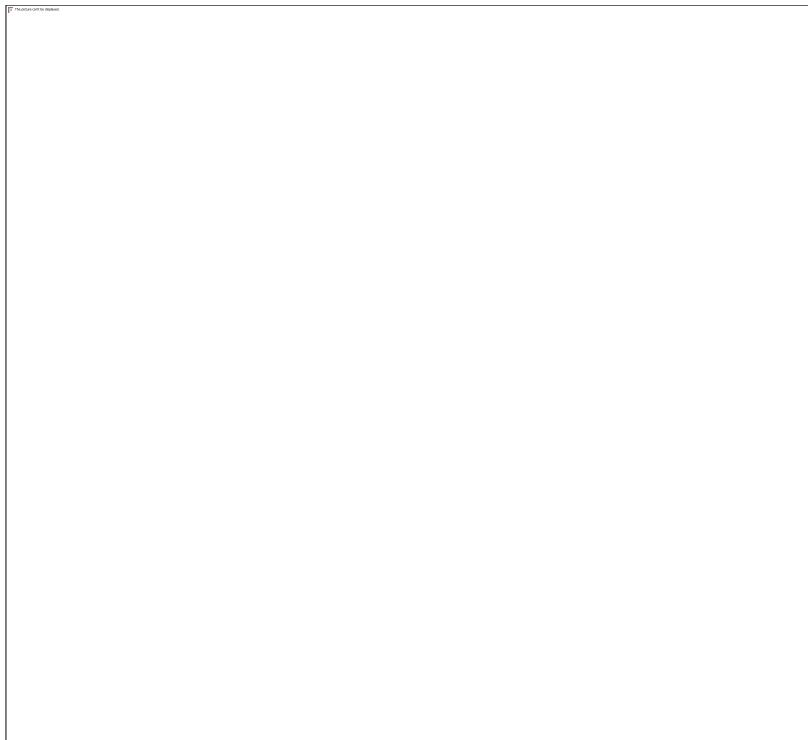
5.3 Last-day revision

Occurrence → **Iron ore + minerals** → **Mining hazards** → **Coal + oil + gas** → **Renewables** → **Map work**

Prompt	Recall
Ore	Commercially viable mineral accumulation
Vein/lode	Igneous/metamorphic cracks
Residual	Bauxite
Placer	Gold / tin / platinum
Magnetite	Finest iron ore
Hematite	Main industrial iron ore
Mica	Electrical insulation
Anthracite	Highest-grade hard coal
Neyveli	Lignite
Mumbai High	Petroleum
Monazite	Thorium
JFM?	Not this chapter—avoid mixing with Forest chapter

5.4 Visual recap - mineral occurrence

HOW MINERALS OCCUR IN NATURE



Use the visual for concept recall; use the written pages for exact exam wording.

5.5 Visual recap - energy resources

CONVENTIONAL VS RENEWABLE ENERGY



GEOGRAPHY • CHAPTER 6

MANUFACTURING INDUSTRIES

1-PAGE CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Manufacturing means producing goods in large quantities after processing raw materials into more valuable products.
- ✓ Manufacturing belongs to the secondary sector and is a major measure of economic strength.
- ✓ Industry modernises agriculture, creates jobs, reduces poverty, earns foreign exchange and adds value to raw materials.
- ✓ Industrial location depends on raw material, labour, capital, power, market, transport, water and agglomeration advantages.
- ✓ Industries are classified by raw material, role, investment, ownership and bulk/weight.
- ✓ Major industries include cotton, jute, sugar, iron-steel, aluminium, chemicals, fertilisers, cement, automobiles and IT-electronics.
- ✓ Industries cause air, water, land and noise pollution, so environmental controls are essential.
- ✓ Map work includes cotton textile centres, iron-steel plants and software technology parks.

Meaning → Importance → Location → Classification → Industries → Pollution + control

1. MANUFACTURING AND ITS IMPORTANCE

- Manufacturing is the production of goods in large quantities after processing raw materials into more valuable products.
- Examples: paper from wood, sugar from sugarcane, steel from iron ore and aluminium from bauxite.
- Manufacturing belongs to the secondary sector because primary materials are converted into finished or semi-finished products.

KEY IDEA

- ✓ Manufacturing = value addition.

1.1 Importance of manufacturing

- Modernises agriculture by providing machinery, pumps, fertilisers, pesticides and other inputs.
- Reduces dependence on agricultural income by creating secondary and tertiary-sector jobs.

- Helps reduce unemployment and poverty.
- Public and joint-sector industries can reduce regional disparities when located in backward regions.
- Exports of manufactured goods expand trade and bring foreign exchange.
- Processing raw materials into higher-value finished goods supports national prosperity.

BOARD ENDING

✓ Agriculture and industry move hand in hand; neither develops efficiently in isolation.

1.2 Industry-agriculture linkage

- Agro-industries use farm products as raw materials.
- Industries supply farmers with pumps, PVC pipes, fertilisers, machines, tools, insecticides and pesticides.
- Efficient manufacturing improves agricultural productivity and makes production processes more efficient.

Agriculture → **Raw material** → **Industry** → **Farm inputs** →
Higher farm productivity

GLOBALISATION LINK

✓ Indian manufactured goods must compete in quality and efficiency with international products.

2. INDUSTRIAL LOCATION AND CLASSIFICATION

- Industrial location is influenced by the least-cost combination of inputs and access to markets.

Factor	Why it matters
Raw material	Bulky/perishable inputs favour locations near sources.
Labour	Industries need appropriate quantity and skill.
Power	Continuous energy supply is essential.

Capital	Finance is needed for land, machinery and operations.
Market	Demand influences transport cost and sales.
Transport	Moves raw material, workers and finished products.
Water	Required for processing, cooling and cleaning.

2.1 Agglomeration economies

- Industries often cluster near one another to share infrastructure, labour pools, transport, markets and specialised services.
- Such advantages created by concentration are called agglomeration economies.
- Large industrial centres may develop into urban-industrial regions.

EXAM WORD

✓ Agglomeration economy = benefit from industrial clustering.

2.2 Classification by raw material and role

Basis	Category	Examples
Raw material	Agro-based	Cotton, jute, silk, sugar, rubber, tea, edible oil
Raw material	Mineral-based	Iron-steel, cement, aluminium, machine tools, petrochemicals
Role	Basic / key	Iron-steel, copper/aluminium smelting
Role	Consumer	Sugar, toothpaste, paper, fans, sewing machines

2.3 Classification by ownership and size

Category	Meaning / examples
Public sector	Owned/operated by government agencies: BHEL, SAIL
Private sector	Owned by individuals/groups: TISCO, Bajaj Auto, Dabur

Joint sector	Government + private participation; OIL is a classic textbook example
Cooperative sector	Producers/workers pool resources and share gains/losses; Maharashtra sugar, Kerala coir
Heavy industry	Bulky raw materials/products: iron-steel
Light industry	Light raw materials/products: electrical goods

CAPITAL BASIS

✓ Small- and large-scale classification depends on investment; textbook limits may change over time, so learn the concept rather than an outdated rupee figure.

3. MAJOR MANUFACTURING INDUSTRIES

- Textiles have a unique place because the value chain extends from raw fibre to finished high-value products.
- The industry contributes to industrial production, employment and foreign-exchange earnings.
- It links agriculture, manufacturing, trade and design.

**Fibre → Spinning → Weaving → Processing/dyeing →
Garments + market**

3.1 Cotton textiles

- The first successful cotton textile mill was established in Mumbai in 1854.
- Early mills concentrated in Maharashtra and Gujarat because of raw cotton, labour, market, transport, port facilities and moist climate.
- Spinning remains more centralised; weaving is highly decentralised through handlooms, powerlooms and mills.
- Khadi and handloom production provide significant cottage-industry employment.

MAP WORK

✓ Cotton textile centres: Mumbai, Indore, Surat, Kanpur and Coimbatore.

3.2 Jute textiles

- Most jute mills are concentrated along the Hugli River in West Bengal.
- The first jute mill was set up at Rishra near Kolkata in 1855.
- Location factors: proximity to jute-growing areas, water transport, rail-road-waterway network, abundant process water, labour, banking, insurance and Kolkata port.
- After Partition, most mills remained in India while much of the raw-jute-growing area went to East Pakistan (Bangladesh).

COMPETENCY LINK

✓ Location questions usually expect a combination of raw material + transport + water + labour + port/market.

3.3 Sugar industry

- Sugar is an agro-based seasonal industry.
- The raw material is bulky and loses sucrose during transport, so mills tend to locate near cane-growing areas.
- It is well suited to the cooperative sector.
- Mills have increasingly shifted toward southern and western states, especially Maharashtra, because cane has higher sucrose content, crushing season is longer and cooperatives are more successful.

PRODUCTS

✓ Sugar industry also produces gur and khandsari; bagasse can be used as fuel/raw material.

3.4 Iron and steel industry

- Iron and steel is a basic industry because almost all other industries depend on it for machinery and construction material.
- It is a heavy industry: both raw materials and finished products are bulky.
- Main inputs are iron ore, coking coal and limestone, approximately in a 4:2:1 ratio; manganese is added for hardening.
- The Chhotanagpur plateau has the highest concentration because of nearby raw materials, cheap labour and market potential.

DEVELOPMENT INDEX

✓ Steel production and consumption are often used as indicators of a country's development.

3.5 Iron-steel map work

Plant	State
Durgapur	West Bengal
Bokaro	Jharkhand
Jamshedpur	Jharkhand
Bhilai	Chhattisgarh
Vijayanagar	Karnataka
Salem	Tamil Nadu

MAP TASK

✓ All six are prescribed for locating and labelling.

3.6 Aluminium smelting

- Aluminium is light, corrosion-resistant, a good conductor and malleable.
- It is used in aircraft, utensils and wires and can substitute for steel, copper, zinc and lead.
- Bauxite is a bulky raw material.
- The two major location factors are assured raw material at minimum cost and a regular supply of electricity.
- Important states include Odisha, West Bengal, Kerala, Uttar Pradesh, Chhattisgarh, Maharashtra and Tamil Nadu.

3.7 Chemical industry

- The chemical industry includes both large- and small-scale units and is rapidly diversifying.

Inorganic chemicals

- Examples: sulphuric acid, nitric acid, alkalies, soda ash and caustic soda.

Organic chemicals

- Petrochemicals are used in synthetic fibres, synthetic rubber, plastics, dyes, drugs and pharmaceuticals.
- Organic chemical plants are commonly located near oil refineries or petrochemical plants.

KEY POINT

✓ The chemical industry is its own largest consumer: basic chemicals are further processed into other chemicals.

3.8 Fertiliser industry

- Produces nitrogenous fertilisers (especially urea), phosphatic fertilisers, DAP and complex N-P-K fertilisers.
- Potash is imported because India lacks commercially usable potash reserves.
- The industry expanded after the Green Revolution.
- Major producing states include Gujarat, Tamil Nadu, Uttar Pradesh, Punjab and Kerala, with several other states also contributing.

3.9 Cement industry

- Cement is essential for houses, factories, bridges, roads, airports, dams and commercial buildings.
- Main raw materials are limestone, silica and gypsum.
- Coal/electric power and rail transport are also important inputs.
- Plants tend to locate near bulky raw materials and good transport; Gujarat plants also benefit from access to Gulf markets.

3.10 Automobile industry

- Produces trucks, buses, cars, motorcycles, scooters, three-wheelers and multi-utility vehicles.
- Liberalisation and new models increased demand and stimulated industry growth.
- Major centres include Delhi-Gurugram, Mumbai, Pune, Chennai, Kolkata, Lucknow, Indore, Hyderabad, Jamshedpur and Bengaluru.

LOCATION LOGIC

✓ Automobile clusters need components, skilled labour, large markets, capital and excellent transport.

3.11 IT and electronics industry

- Produces items ranging from electronic sets and televisions to telecom equipment, radars and computers.
- Bengaluru emerged as India's electronic capital.
- Major industry concentration includes Bengaluru, Noida, Mumbai, Chennai, Hyderabad and Pune.
- Its major impact has been employment generation and the growth of hardware and software services.

3.12 Software technology parks - map work

Prescribed centre	State / UT
Noida	Uttar Pradesh
Gandhinagar	Gujarat
Mumbai	Maharashtra
Pune	Maharashtra
Hyderabad	Telangana
Bengaluru	Karnataka
Chennai	Tamil Nadu
Thiruvananthapuram	Kerala

4. INDUSTRIAL POLLUTION AND CONTROL

Type	Major sources/effects
Air	SO ₂ , CO, dust, smoke, toxic gases; harms health, plants, buildings and atmosphere
Water	Effluents from paper, chemicals, textiles, refineries, tanneries, electroplating; acids, dyes, salts, heavy metals
Land	Solid wastes, ash, slag, chemicals and garbage render land unproductive and contaminate groundwater

Noise	Machinery, drills and generators cause stress, hearing damage and physiological effects
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4.1 Thermal and nuclear pollution

- Hot water released by factories and thermal plants before cooling causes thermal pollution and harms aquatic life.
- Fly ash, phospho-gypsum and iron-steel slag are major industrial solid wastes.
- Improperly handled radioactive/nuclear wastes can create severe long-term health hazards.

BOARD TIP

✓ For 'How do industries pollute?', organise the answer under Air-Water-Land-Noise.

4.2 Control of water pollution

- Minimise process-water use by reusing and recycling water in successive stages.
- Harvest rainwater to meet part of industrial demand.
- Treat hot water and effluents before releasing them into rivers and ponds.

Three-stage effluent treatment

Stage	Method
Primary	Mechanical: screening, grinding, flocculation, sedimentation
Secondary	Biological treatment
Tertiary	Biological + chemical + physical treatment; recycling

4.3 Control of air and noise pollution

- Fit factory smokestacks with electrostatic precipitators, fabric filters, scrubbers and inertial separators.
- Use oil or gas instead of coal where feasible to reduce smoke.
- Regulate excessive industrial groundwater extraction.
- Use quieter machinery and fit generators/equipment with silencers.

SUSTAINABILITY

✓ Industrial growth and environmental protection must proceed together.

5. MAP WORK AND REVISION

Category	Locations
Cotton textiles	Mumbai, Indore, Surat, Kanpur, Coimbatore
Iron-steel	Durgapur, Bokaro, Jamshedpur, Bhilai, Vijayanagar, Salem
Software parks	Noida, Gandhinagar, Mumbai, Pune, Hyderabad, Bengaluru, Chennai, Thiruvananthapuram

MAP RULE

✓ CBSE may ask these for locating/labelling or identification.

5.1 Master comparisons

Pair	Difference
Agro vs mineral based	Farm-derived raw materials vs mineral/metal raw materials
Basic vs consumer	Inputs for other industries vs goods for final consumers
Heavy vs light	Bulky inputs/outputs vs light materials/goods
Public vs private	Government ownership vs individual/group ownership
Joint vs cooperative	Government+private ownership vs producer/worker-owned pooled enterprise
Air vs water pollution	Gases/particulates vs liquid effluents/chemicals

5.2 Important terms

Term	Recall
Manufacturing	Large-scale value addition to raw materials

Agglomeration	Benefits from industrial clustering
Basic industry	Supplies inputs to other industries
Consumer industry	Produces direct-use goods
Cooperative sector	Owned/operated by producers or workers
Bagasse	Sugarcane residue; useful by-product
SAIL	Steel Authority of India Limited
TISCO	Tata Iron and Steel Company / Tata Steel historical name
BHEL	Bharat Heavy Electricals Limited
BPO	Business Process Outsourcing

5.3 Board-style question bank

2-Mark / 3-Mark

- What is manufacturing? Why is it called value addition?
- Why is manufacturing important for national development?
- What are agglomeration economies?
- Classify industries on any three bases.
- Why are jute mills concentrated along the Hugli?
- Why is iron-steel called a basic industry?
- State three factors affecting aluminium-smelting location.
- How does industry cause water or air pollution?

5-Mark

- Explain the importance of manufacturing industries in India.
- Explain the factors influencing industrial location.
- Describe the location and characteristics of the cotton textile industry.
- Why is the iron-steel industry concentrated in the Chhotanagpur plateau region?
- Explain four types of industrial pollution.
- Discuss measures to control environmental degradation caused by industries.

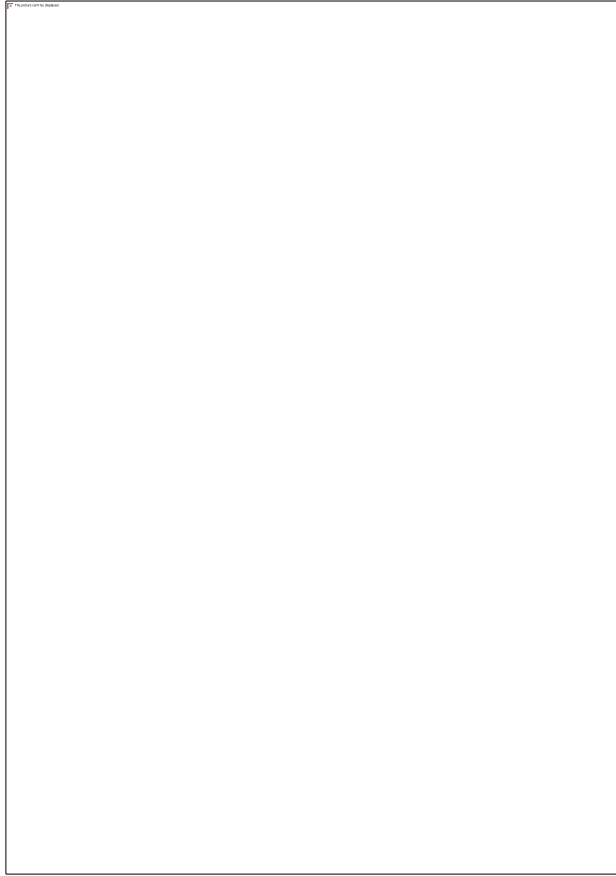
5.4 Last-day revision

Importance → Location → Classification → Major industries
→ Pollution → Control + map

Prompt	Recall
Manufacturing	Value addition
Location	Raw material + labour + power + capital + market + transport
Agglomeration	Clustering advantage
Cotton mill 1854	Mumbai
Jute mill 1855	Rishra
Sugar shift	South/west incl. Maharashtra
Steel ratio	Iron ore : coal : limestone $\approx$ 4:2:1
Aluminium	Bauxite + cheap power
Chemical	Inorganic + organic
IT capital	Bengaluru
Pollution	Air, water, land, noise
Effluent treatment	Primary, secondary, tertiary

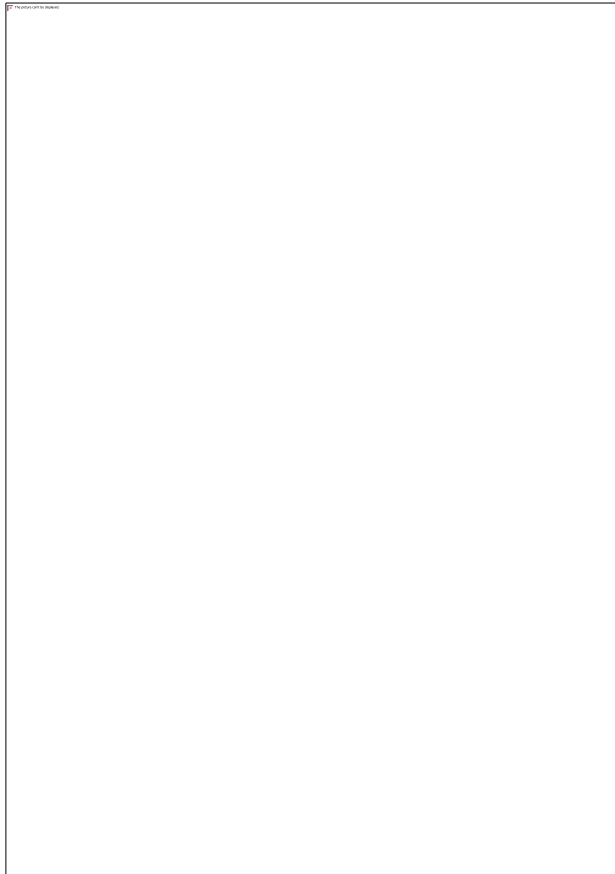
5.5 Visual recap - location factors

INDUSTRIAL LOCATION FACTORS



5.6 Visual recap - pollution and control

INDUSTRIAL POLLUTION + CONTROL



GEOGRAPHY • CHAPTER 7

LIFELINES OF NATIONAL ECONOMY

IMPORTANT BOARD STATUS

- ✓ For the current CBSE Board examination, this chapter is evaluated through MAP POINTING ONLY.
- ✓ Board map work: 10 major sea ports + 6 international airports.
- ✓ The remaining chapter notes are still useful for school tests, internal assessment and interdisciplinary understanding.
- ✓ So this chapter is designed in two layers: BOARD MAP CORE first, then enrichment notes.

Chapter Flow

Roadways → Railways → Pipelines → Waterways → Airways
→ Communication → Trade + Tourism

BOARD-FIRST STRATEGY

✓ Memorise the 16 prescribed map locations before studying the enrichment pages.

1. BOARD MAP CORE

MAJOR SEA PORTS

Port	State / coast clue
Kandla	Gujarat - western coast
Mumbai	Maharashtra - western coast
Marmagao	Goa - western coast
New Mangalore	Karnataka - western coast
Kochi	Kerala - western coast
Tuticorin / Thoothukudi	Tamil Nadu - south-east coast
Chennai	Tamil Nadu - east coast
Visakhapatnam	Andhra Pradesh - east coast
Paradip	Odisha - east coast
Haldia	West Bengal - east coast

MAP MEMORY

✓ West coast north→south: Kandla → Mumbai → Marmagao → New Mangalore → Kochi.
✓ East/south-east: Tuticorin → Chennai → Visakhapatnam → Paradip → Haldia.

1.1 International airports

INTERNATIONAL AIRPORTS

City	Airport
Amritsar	Raja Sansi / Sri Guru Ram Das Ji International Airport
Delhi	Indira Gandhi International Airport
Mumbai	Chhatrapati Shivaji Maharaj International Airport
Chennai	Chennai International / Meenambakkam

Kolkata	Netaji Subhas Chandra Bose International Airport
Hyderabad	Rajiv Gandhi International Airport

BOARD RULE

- ✓ These may be asked for locating, labelling or identification.
- ✓ Practise spellings as well as approximate position.

2. TRANSPORT NETWORKS

- Production and consumption occur at different places, so transport connects producers, markets and consumers.
- Transport, communication and trade link distant regions and support economic integration.
- They are called lifelines because agriculture, industry, services and daily life depend on them.

Production → Transport → Market → Consumer → National integration

2.1 Roadways

- India has one of the world's largest road networks.
- Roads are especially useful for short distances and door-to-door service.
- Roads can negotiate steeper slopes and sharper turns than railways and are often cheaper to construct in difficult terrain.

Advantages over railways

- Lower construction cost for many routes.
- Useful in dissected/hilly terrain.
- Acts as feeder transport to railway stations, airports and ports.

2.2 Road classification

Type	Key feature
Golden Quadrilateral	Connects Delhi, Kolkata, Chennai and Mumbai
North-South / East-West Corridors	Long-distance national corridors

National Highways	Connect major cities/states; maintained by central agencies
State Highways	Connect state capitals with district centres
District Roads	Connect district headquarters with local places
Rural Roads	Link villages; expanded through rural-road programmes
Border Roads	Strategic roads built/maintained in border areas

2.3 Railways

- Railways are a major mode for long-distance passenger travel and freight movement.
- They integrate economic life by connecting farms, mines, industries, markets and ports.

Why distribution is uneven

- Northern plains favour dense rail networks because of level land and high population.
- Himalayan mountains, desert regions, dense forests, marshy areas and dissected plateaus make construction difficult.
- Population, economic activity and terrain together determine network density.

COMPETENCY TIP

✓ Railway density is explained by both physical and economic factors.

2.4 Pipelines

- Pipelines transport crude oil, petroleum products and natural gas from production areas to refineries, fertiliser plants and markets.
- They can also transport water and even some solids in slurry form.

Advantages

- Continuous flow, low handling losses and relatively low operating cost after construction.
- Useful across difficult terrain and for bulk liquids/gases.

LINK BACK

✓ HVJ gas pipeline from Chapter 5 is a classic pipeline example.

2.5 Waterways

- Water transport is generally fuel-efficient and economical for bulky/heavy goods.
- It can reduce pressure on road and rail systems.

Inland waterways

- Rivers, canals, backwaters and creeks can be used for navigation where conditions are suitable.

Sea routes

- Sea transport handles a major share of India's international trade by volume.

2.6 Major national waterways

ENRICHMENT

Waterway	Stretch / river
NW-1	Ganga-Bhagirathi-Hooghly system: Prayagraj to Haldia
NW-2	Brahmaputra: Sadiya to Dhubri
NW-3	West Coast Canal in Kerala

NOTE

✓ Waterway numbering has expanded under later legislation; for Class 10, focus on the textbook examples and concept.

2.7 Sea ports

ENRICHMENT

- Ports are gateways for international trade.
- They connect sea routes with inland road, rail and pipeline networks.

Functional clues

- Kandla serves north-western India.
- Mumbai is a major natural harbour and commercial port.
- Marmagao is linked with iron-ore exports.

- Kochi lies on the south-west coast with a natural harbour setting.
- Visakhapatnam is a major east-coast port with a protected harbour.
- Haldia was developed to reduce pressure on Kolkata port.

2.8 Airways

- Air transport is the fastest mode and is important for long-distance travel, remote areas and emergencies.
- It is especially useful in the North-East, mountains, deserts and islands where surface transport may be difficult.
- Its main limitation is high cost.

BOARD REMINDER

✓ Only the six prescribed international airports are map-tested in this chapter.

3. COMMUNICATION, TRADE AND TOURISM

Personal communication

- Postal services, telephone, mobile networks, internet and digital messaging enable person-to-person communication.

Mass communication

- Radio, television, newspapers, magazines, films and digital media reach large audiences.
- Communication spreads information, education, entertainment and awareness.

3.1 International trade

- Trade is the exchange of goods and services between people, regions or countries.
- International trade links India's producers and consumers with world markets.

Balance of trade

- Favourable balance: value of exports exceeds imports.
- Unfavourable balance: value of imports exceeds exports.

KEY TERM

✓ International trade is often described as the economic barometer of a country.

3.2 Tourism as trade

- Tourism earns foreign exchange and generates employment.
- It supports hotels, transport, guides, handicrafts and local services.
- Tourism also promotes cultural understanding and awareness of India's heritage and landscapes.
- Sustainable tourism should protect local culture and the environment.

4. PRACTICE AND REVISION

Mode	Best suited for	Main strength	Limitation
Road	Short-medium distance	Door-to-door flexibility	Congestion / higher cost for bulk long haul
Rail	Long-distance passengers/freight	Large capacity	Fixed routes; difficult terrain
Pipeline	Oil/gas/liquids	Continuous + low handling loss	High initial cost; specialised use
Water	Bulky heavy cargo	Economical + fuel efficient	Slow; depends on navigability/ports
Air	Long distance / urgent travel	Fastest	Expensive

4.1 Board map practice sheet

Category	Must recall
West-coast ports	Kandla, Mumbai, Marmagao, New Mangalore, Kochi
East/south-east ports	Tuticorin, Chennai, Visakhapatnam, Paradip, Haldia
International airports	Amritsar, Delhi, Mumbai, Chennai, Kolkata, Hyderabad

30-SECOND RECALL

✓ 5 west-coast ports + 5 east/south-east ports + 6 airports = 16 map points.

4.2 School / internal question bank

2-Mark / 3-Mark

- Why are roadways preferred for short distances?
- Why is railway distribution uneven in India?
- State three advantages of pipelines.
- Why are waterways economical for bulky goods?
- Differentiate between personal and mass communication.
- What is balance of trade?
- How does tourism contribute to the economy?

5-Mark

- Explain why transport and communication are called lifelines of the national economy.
- Compare the major modes of transport in India.
- Explain the importance of international trade and tourism.

4.3 Last-day revision

Road → Rail → Pipeline → Water → Air → Communication
→ Trade

Prompt	Recall
Golden Quadrilateral	Delhi-Mumbai-Chennai-Kolkata
Road advantage	Door-to-door
Railway plains	Dense network
Pipeline	Oil/gas/liquids
Waterways	Economical for bulky goods
Airways	Fastest but expensive
Mass communication	Radio/TV/press/digital
Favourable trade	Exports > imports
Board ports	10
Board airports	6

PART III

POLITICAL SCIENCE

Democratic Politics-II

THIS SECTION INCLUDES

- Chapter 1 • Power Sharing
- Chapter 2 • Federalism
- Chapter 3 • Gender, Religion and Caste
- Chapter 4 • Political Parties
- Chapter 5 • Outcomes of Democracy

Revise concepts → examples → comparisons → exam questions

POLITICAL SCIENCE • CHAPTER 1

POWER SHARING

CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Power sharing means distributing political power among different organs, levels and social groups.
- ✓ Belgium succeeded by accommodating linguistic and regional diversity.
- ✓ Sri Lanka followed majoritarian policies that deepened conflict between Sinhala and Tamil communities.
- ✓ Power sharing reduces conflict and strengthens political stability.
- ✓ There are two reasons for power sharing: prudential and moral.
- ✓ Power may be shared horizontally, vertically, among social groups, and among political parties/pressure groups.

Chapter Flow

Belgium → Sri Lanka → Why share power? → Forms of sharing → Democratic stability

1. POWER SHARING: MEANING AND NEED

- Power sharing is an arrangement in which power is not concentrated in one person, institution or community.
- Different organs of government, different levels of government and different social groups receive a share in decision-making.
- In a democracy, power sharing helps ensure that citizens and groups have a voice in governance.

ONE-LINE DEFINITION

✓ Power sharing is the distribution of power among different organs, levels and groups so that no single centre dominates political life.

2. BELGIUM: POWER SHARING IN PRACTICE

- Belgium is a small European country with Dutch-speaking, French-speaking and German-speaking communities.

Population pattern	Approx. share
Dutch-speaking people in Belgium	59%
French-speaking people in Belgium	40%
German-speaking people in Belgium	1%
French-speaking people in Brussels	80%
Dutch-speaking people in Brussels	20%

- The capital Brussels had a French-speaking majority even though Dutch speakers were the national majority.

WHY THIS WAS DIFFICULT

- ✓ The French-speaking minority was relatively rich and powerful.
- ✓ Dutch-speaking people resented this imbalance.
- ✓ The language divide could have produced serious conflict.

2.1 Belgium's accommodation model

- Between 1970 and 1993, Belgium amended its Constitution several times to create a workable power-sharing arrangement.

Belgian arrangement	Purpose
---------------------	---------

Equal number of Dutch- and French-speaking ministers in the central government	Neither language group can dominate the executive.
Some special laws require support from a majority of members from each linguistic group	Important decisions need consent across communities.
State governments have substantial powers and are not subordinate to the central government	Power is shared between levels of government.
Brussels has a separate government with equal representation of Dutch and French communities	Protects both communities in the capital.
Community government is elected by one language community	Handles culture, education and language-related matters.

BELGIUM'S KEY LESSON

✓ Unity was protected by accommodation, not by forcing the majority's will on minorities.

2.2 Community government

- A community government is elected by people belonging to one language community - Dutch, French or German - regardless of where they live.
- It has powers concerning culture, education and language.
- This arrangement protects the identity and interests of linguistic communities.

MCQ CLUE

✓ Community government → language community → culture, education and language.

3. SRI LANKA: MAJORITARIANISM

- Sri Lanka has a Sinhala-speaking majority and Tamil-speaking minority.

Community	Approx. share / detail
Sinhala-speaking	74%
Tamil-speaking	18%
Sri Lankan Tamils	13%

Indian Tamils	5%
Christians	About 7%; found among both Sinhala and Tamil communities

- Most Sinhala speakers are Buddhists, while many Tamils are Hindus or Muslims.

3.1 Majoritarianism in Sri Lanka

- After independence in 1948, leaders from the Sinhala majority tried to establish the dominance of their community.
- In 1956, an Act recognised Sinhala as the only official language.
- Preferential policies favoured Sinhala applicants in university positions and government jobs.
- The Constitution gave Buddhism special protection.

MAJORITARIANISM

✓ Majoritarianism is the belief that the majority community should rule in whatever way it wants, disregarding the wishes and needs of minorities.

3.2 Consequences of Sri Lankan policies

- Tamil communities felt that the government and Constitution denied them equal political rights.
- They felt discriminated against in jobs, education and language policy.
- Relations between Sinhala and Tamil communities became increasingly strained.
- Tamil political organisations demanded recognition of Tamil, regional autonomy and equality.
- The conflict eventually developed into prolonged civil war, causing deaths, displacement and economic damage.

Majoritarian policies → Tamil alienation → Political conflict → Civil war
→ Loss of unity + development

4. COMPARISON AND FORMS OF POWER SHARING

Belgium	Sri Lanka
---------	-----------

Leaders recognised regional and cultural differences.	Majority leaders tried to impose Sinhala dominance.
Power was shared among communities and levels.	Power was concentrated in the Sinhala majority.
Minority interests received constitutional safeguards.	Tamil demands were repeatedly neglected.
Accommodation strengthened unity.	Majoritarianism produced alienation and conflict.

BOARD ANSWER FRAME

✓ For a comparison question: policy → treatment of minorities → political result.

1.1 Why is power sharing desirable?

- Power sharing is desirable for two broad reasons: prudential and moral.

Reason	Meaning
Prudential reason	Power sharing reduces conflict between social groups and helps maintain political stability.
Moral reason	Power sharing is the very spirit of democracy; people affected by decisions have a right to participate in making them.

MEMORY TRICK

- ✓ Prudential = practical benefit.
- ✓ Moral = democratic principle.

1.2 Prudential reason

- Social conflict can lead to violence and political instability.
- Imposing the will of the majority may appear effective in the short run, but it can damage national unity in the long run.
- A stable government therefore needs arrangements that respect important social groups.

TOPPER LINE

✓ Power sharing is a good way to ensure the stability of political order.

1.3 Moral reason

- Democracy means rule by the people.
- Citizens must have a voice in how they are governed.
- A legitimate government involves consultation and participation rather than unilateral decisions.
- Power sharing therefore has intrinsic democratic value, even when there is no immediate threat of conflict.

4.1 Horizontal distribution

- Power is shared among different organs of government: Legislature, Executive and Judiciary.
- Each organ exercises different powers and checks the others.
- This system is often called a system of checks and balances.

Legislature → Executive → Judiciary → Checks + balances

WHY HORIZONTAL?

✓ All these organs are placed at the same level of government.

4.2 Vertical distribution

- Power is shared among governments at different levels.
- For example: central/union government, state government and local government.
- This is commonly associated with federal systems.

Union / Central → State → Local

4.3 Power among social groups

- Power may be shared among religious, linguistic or other social communities.
- Community government in Belgium is one example.

- In some democracies, reserved constituencies or other constitutional arrangements ensure representation of weaker sections.

CORE PURPOSE

✓ Social-group power sharing prevents permanent exclusion of minorities or weaker communities.

4.4 Parties, pressure groups and movements

- In a democracy, citizens can choose among different political parties.
- When no party wins a clear majority, several parties may form a coalition government and share power.
- Interest groups, pressure groups and social movements influence those in power through participation, campaigns and public pressure.

EXAM CLUE

✓ Coalition government = a visible example of power sharing among political parties.

4.5 Four forms - master table

Form of power sharing	Example / clue
Among organs of government	Legislature, Executive, Judiciary - horizontal
Among levels of government	Union, State, Local - vertical
Among social groups	Community government, representation arrangements
Among political parties / groups	Coalitions, pressure groups, movements

5. EXAM REVISION

Term	Meaning
Power sharing	Distribution of political power.
Majoritarianism	Majority rules without adequately respecting minority interests.

Community government	Government elected by a language community for cultural, educational and language matters.
Checks and balances	Each organ of government limits/checks the others.
Coalition government	Government formed by two or more political parties.
Prudential	Based on practical consequences.
Moral	Based on democratic values and principles.

5.1 Board-style questions

- Why is power sharing desirable? Explain the prudential and moral reasons.
- Describe the Belgian model of accommodation.
- How did majoritarianism create conflict in Sri Lanka?
- Compare the approaches of Belgium and Sri Lanka to social diversity.
- Explain the four forms of power sharing with examples.
- What is community government? What powers does it exercise?

5-MARK STRATEGY

- ✓ Start with a one-line definition.
- ✓ Write 5 distinct points with textbook terms/examples.
- ✓ For Belgium/Sri Lanka answers, end with the political consequence.

5.2 Competency / case-based thinking

- If a government gives all decision-making power to one community, ask: Is this majoritarianism?
- If courts can review executive decisions, identify horizontal power sharing.
- If Union, State and Local governments have separate responsibilities, identify vertical power sharing.
- If several parties form a government together, identify power sharing among political parties.
- If a linguistic group controls cultural and educational matters, connect it to Belgium's community government.

5.3 Last-day revision

Belgium = accommodation → Sri Lanka = majoritarianism → Prudential + moral → 4 forms of sharing

Prompt	Recall
Belgium national language pattern	59% Dutch, 40% French, 1% German
Brussels	80% French, 20% Dutch
Sri Lanka majority	74% Sinhala-speaking
Sinhala Only Act	1956
Belgium central cabinet	Equal Dutch/French ministers
Community government	Culture + education + language
Prudential	Reduces conflict / improves stability
Moral	Spirit of democracy
Horizontal	Legislature-Executive-Judiciary
Vertical	Union-State-Local
Social groups	Community/representation arrangements
Parties/groups	Coalitions + pressure groups

6. ADDITIONAL EXAM-READY DETAILS

TERMS + CONSEQUENCES + INDIA EXAMPLES

Ethnic group

- An ethnic group is a social group based on shared culture or a belief in common descent. Members may share physical or cultural features, but they need not have the same religion or nationality.

Sri Lankan Tamil demands

- Tamil political organisations demanded recognition of Tamil as an official language, regional autonomy and equality in education and employment.
- By the 1980s, several organisations demanded an independent Tamil Eelam in northern and eastern Sri Lanka.
- The conflict became a civil war and ended in 2009 after causing deaths, displacement and major social and economic damage.

Belgium's result

- Belgium's accommodation arrangements helped avoid civic strife and a possible division of the country on linguistic lines.
- Brussels later became the headquarters of the European Union.

TYRANNY OF THE MAJORITY

✓ Majority domination harms minorities, but in the long run it can also damage the majority by weakening national unity.

6.1 India and other power-sharing examples

BOARD-COMPETENCY SUPPORT

India examples

- Reserved constituencies in legislatures give weaker social groups representation in political institutions.
- Constitutional and legal provisions also provide representation for women and socially weaker sections in institutions.
- Panchayati Raj is a practical example of vertical power sharing because authority is devolved to local governments.
- Coalition governments share power among political parties when no single party governs alone.

Lebanon case

- Lebanon adopted a community-based power-sharing pact after civil conflict.
- Under the arrangement, top political offices are distributed among major religious communities—for example, the President is a Maronite Christian and the Prime Minister a Sunni Muslim.
- The example shows a prudential use of power sharing to maintain peace in a deeply divided society.

Deep democratic principle

- People are the source of all political power; good democratic government gives diverse groups and views a voice in shaping public policy.

EXAM TAKEAWAY

- ✓ Use these details for higher-order and competency-based questions on power sharing.
- ✓ Connect each example to horizontal, vertical, social-group or party-based power sharing.

POLITICAL SCIENCE • CHAPTER 2

FEDERALISM

CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Federalism is vertical power sharing between a central authority and constituent units.
- ✓ A federation has constitutionally protected levels of government with separate jurisdictions.
- ✓ Federalism has two goals: national unity and regional diversity.
- ✓ Federations form through 'coming together' or 'holding together' routes.
- ✓ India is a Union of States with Union, State and Local levels.
- ✓ Legislative powers are divided through Union, State and Concurrent Lists; residuary powers lie with the Union.
- ✓ Indian federalism has been strengthened by linguistic states, flexible language policy and changing Centre-State politics.
- ✓ The 1992 constitutional amendments strengthened decentralisation and local self-government.

Federal idea → India's structure → 3 lists → Practice →
Decentralisation

1. FEDERALISM: MEANING AND FEATURES

- Federalism is a system in which power is divided between a central authority and various constituent units of the country.
- Usually there are at least two levels: a national government and state/provincial governments.
- Both levels exercise powers of their own and are directly answerable to the people.

FEDERAL VS UNITARY

- ✓ Federal: constituent governments have constitutionally protected powers.
- ✓ Unitary: sub-units are subordinate and the central government may alter or withdraw their powers.

1.1 Seven key features

Feature	Meaning
Two or more tiers	More than one level of government.

Same citizens, separate jurisdictions	Each tier has authority over specified legislation, taxation and administration.
Constitutional guarantee	Powers of each tier are written in the Constitution.
Rigid core provisions	One level cannot unilaterally change the federal arrangement.
Independent judiciary	Courts interpret the Constitution and settle Centre-State disputes.
Separate revenue sources	Each level has constitutionally recognised financial sources.
Dual objectives	Promote national unity while accommodating regional diversity.

IDEAL FEDERATION

✓ Mutual trust + agreement to live together under shared rules.

1.2 Two routes to federation

Coming together	Holding together
Independent states voluntarily join to form a larger unit.	A large country divides power between national and constituent governments.
States usually have equal power and are strong relative to the federal government.	Central government is often stronger and constituent units may have unequal powers.
Examples: USA, Switzerland, Australia.	Examples: India, Spain, Belgium.

2. INDIA'S FEDERAL STRUCTURE

- The Constitution describes India as a Union of States, even though it does not use the word 'federation'.
- Originally India had two tiers—Union and State governments; later Panchayats and Municipalities became the third tier.
- Each tier has constitutionally defined jurisdiction.

CORE IDEA

✓ India is federal in structure but follows the 'holding together' model.

2.1 Union, State and Concurrent Lists

List	Who makes laws?	Examples
Union List	Union Government	Defence, foreign affairs, banking, communications, currency
State List	State Governments	Police, trade, commerce, agriculture, irrigation
Concurrent List	Both Union and States	Education, forests, trade unions, marriage, adoption, succession

- If Union and State laws conflict on a Concurrent List subject, the Union law prevails.

Residuary powers

- Subjects not included in any of the three lists, including new fields such as computer software, fall under Union jurisdiction.

2.2 Unequal powers and special provisions

- In a holding-together federation, all constituent units need not have identical powers.
- States such as Assam, Nagaland, Arunachal Pradesh and Mizoram have special constitutional protections under Article 371 and related provisions because of distinctive social and historical circumstances.
- These may protect land rights, culture and local interests.

Union Territories

- Areas such as Chandigarh and Lakshadweep are Union Territories and have fewer powers than full States; the Union Government has special responsibilities there.

2.3 Protection of the federal arrangement

- Parliament cannot change the federal power-sharing structure on its own.
- Important constitutional changes require a two-thirds majority in both Houses of Parliament and ratification by at least half of the States.
- High Courts and the Supreme Court decide disputes about division of powers.

- Union and State governments raise revenue through constitutionally assigned taxes.

BOARD PHRASE

✓ Federalism is protected by the Constitution, judiciary and financial autonomy.

3. FEDERALISM IN PRACTICE

- Constitutional rules alone do not ensure federal success.
- India's federalism has been strengthened by democratic politics, respect for diversity and a willingness to live together.

Linguistic states → Language policy → Centre-State relations → Decentralisation

3.1 Linguistic states

- After Independence, state boundaries were reorganised so that many people speaking the same language lived in the same State.
- Some States—such as Nagaland, Uttarakhand and Jharkhand—were created to recognise cultural, ethnic or geographical differences.
- Many leaders initially feared linguistic reorganisation would divide India.
- Experience showed the opposite: linguistic States strengthened unity and made administration easier.

KEY RESULT

✓ Recognition of diversity strengthened, rather than weakened, national unity.

3.2 Language policy

- India has no single national language declared by the Constitution.
- Hindi is an official language of the Union, but many safeguards protect other languages.
- There are 22 languages in the Eighth Schedule of the Constitution.
- States may have their own official languages.
- English continued for official purposes after 1965 because many non-Hindi-speaking States opposed its removal.
- The Union promotes Hindi but cannot impose it on States where people speak other languages.

COMPARE WITH SRI LANKA

✓ India's flexible language policy avoided the type of linguistic conflict caused by majoritarian language policy in Sri Lanka.

3.3 Linguistic diversity

- The 2011 Census recorded more than 1,300 mother-tongue responses, grouped into 121 major languages.
- No single language is the mother tongue of a majority of Indians.
- This diversity explains why accommodation and federal flexibility are essential.

DO NOT MEMORISE

✓ Detailed language percentages are useful for understanding diversity but are not the core of most board answers.

3.4 Centre-State relations

- For many years, the same party ruled at the Centre and in most States, which sometimes weakened State autonomy.
- When rival parties ruled States, the Centre sometimes dismissed State governments, undermining federalism.
- After 1990, regional parties became stronger and coalition governments became common at the Centre.
- National parties had to work with regional parties, encouraging a culture of power sharing and respect for State autonomy.
- A major Supreme Court judgement also made arbitrary dismissal of State governments more difficult.

RESULT

✓ Federal power sharing became more effective in practice after 1990.

4. DECENTRALISATION AND LOCAL GOVERNMENT

- Decentralisation means transferring power from Union and State governments to local governments.
- Local people understand local problems better and can participate directly in decision-making.
- Local self-government deepens democratic participation.

4.1 Why the 1992 amendment was important

- Before 1992, local elections were irregular and local bodies had little independent power or resources.
- The Constitution was amended in 1992 to strengthen the third tier.

Reform	What changed
Regular elections	Elections to local bodies became constitutionally mandatory.
Reservations	Seats and executive posts reserved for SCs, STs and OBCs.
Women	At least one-third of all positions reserved for women.
State Election Commission	Independent state-level body conducts local elections.
Power + revenue	States must share some powers and revenue with local bodies.

4.2 Panchayati Raj - rural local government

- A village or group of villages has a Gram Panchayat.
- Its members are ward representatives (panch) and a directly elected president or sarpanch.
- The Gram Sabha consists of all voters in the village and supervises the Gram Panchayat.
- Several Gram Panchayats form a Panchayat Samiti / Block / Mandal.
- All Panchayat Samitis in a district together form the Zilla Parishad.

Gram Sabha → Gram Panchayat → Panchayat Samiti → Zilla Parishad

4.3 Urban local government

- Municipalities govern towns.
- Municipal Corporations govern big cities.
- Elected councillors form these bodies.
- The political head of a municipality is the chairperson; the head of a Municipal Corporation is the Mayor.

4.4 Achievements and limitations

- Local government has deepened democracy and increased women's political participation.
- Millions of representatives serve in Panchayats and Municipalities, making India one of the world's largest experiments in local democracy.
- However, Gram Sabha meetings are not always regular.
- Many States have not transferred enough powers or financial resources to local bodies.

BALANCED CONCLUSION

✓ Decentralisation has expanded participation, but genuine local self-government still requires more powers and resources.

5. EXAM REVISION

Term	Meaning
Federalism	Vertical sharing of power between levels of government.
Jurisdiction	Area/subjects over which an authority has legal power.
Coming together federation	Independent states join voluntarily.
Holding together federation	A large country divides powers among levels.
Residuary subject	Subject not listed in Union/State/Concurrent Lists.
Coalition government	Government formed by two or more parties.
Decentralisation	Transfer of power to local government.
Gram Sabha	All registered voters in a village.
Gram Panchayat	Village-level elected council.
Zilla Parishad	District-level rural local body.

5.1 Board-style questions

- Define federalism and explain any five features of a federal system.
- Differentiate between coming-together and holding-together federations.
- Explain the three-fold distribution of legislative powers in India.

- How have linguistic States strengthened Indian federalism?
- Explain India's language policy and why it helped national unity.
- How did Centre-State relations change after 1990?
- What is decentralisation? Why was the 1992 amendment significant?
- Describe the three levels of Panchayati Raj.

5.2 Competency check

- Currency → Union List.
- Police → State List.
- Education / forests → Concurrent List.
- A new subject not in any list → Union has residuary power.
- A dispute about Centre-State jurisdiction → courts interpret the Constitution.
- Power transferred to Panchayats → decentralisation.
- No party has majority and several parties govern together → coalition government.

5.3 Last-day revision

Federalism → 7 features → 3 lists → Practice → Decentralisation

Prompt	Recall
Federalism	Power divided between levels
Dual goal	Unity + regional diversity
Coming together	USA, Switzerland, Australia
Holding together	India, Spain, Belgium
Union List	National subjects
State List	State/local subjects
Concurrent List	Both can legislate
Residuary	Union
Language policy	Hindi + English + 22 Scheduled Languages
Post-1990	Regional parties + coalitions
1992	Strong third tier
Gram Sabha	All village voters

6. ADDITIONAL LOCAL- GOVERNMENT DETAILS

LOCAL GOVERNMENT + DEMOCRATIC IMPACT

Panchayat Samiti and Zilla Parishad

- A few Gram Panchayats are grouped into a Panchayat Samiti, also called a Block or Mandal.
- Members of this representative body are elected by Panchayat members in the area.
- All Panchayat Samitis in a district together constitute the Zilla Parishad.
- Most Zilla Parishad members are elected; Lok Sabha members, MLAs from the district and some district-level officials may also be members.
- The Zilla Parishad chairperson is its political head.

Scale of local democracy

- The textbook notes that India has about 36 lakh elected representatives in Panchayats and Municipalities.
- Constitutional status for local government has deepened democracy and increased women's representation and political voice.

Two major limitations

- Gram Sabha meetings are not held regularly in many places.
- Many State governments have not transferred enough powers or adequate financial resources to local bodies.

EXAM TAKEAWAY

✓ Use these points to strengthen source-based answers on decentralisation and local self-government.

POLITICAL SCIENCE • CHAPTER 3

GENDER, RELIGION AND CASTE

CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Social differences such as gender, religion and caste influence politics, but their political expression can be healthy or harmful.
- ✓ Gender division is often based on an unequal sexual division of labour.
- ✓ Women's movements have demanded equality, education, employment and political representation.
- ✓ Religion can enter politics through values and legitimate demands, but communalism turns religion into a basis of political domination.
- ✓ India is a secular state with no official religion and constitutional protection for religious freedom and equality.
- ✓ Caste inequalities have weakened but continue in social and economic life.
- ✓ Caste influences politics, and politics also reshapes caste identities and coalitions.

Gender division → Religion + communalism → Secularism → Caste inequalities → Caste + politics

1. GENDER AND POLITICS

- Gender division is a form of social division based on unequal roles assigned to men and women.
- Unlike many other social divisions, it is found in most societies.
- The division is not simply biological; it is largely created by social expectations and practices.

CORE IDEA

- ✓ Gender inequality is social and political, not merely a private-family matter.

1.1 Sexual division of labour

- In many families, women are expected to do unpaid household work such as cooking, cleaning and caring for children.
- Men are more often associated with paid work outside the home.
- Women also perform paid work outside the home, but domestic responsibilities usually remain heavily unequal.
- This pattern is called the sexual division of labour.

BOARD PHRASE

✓ Sexual division of labour = unequal allocation of work on the basis of gender.

1.2 Public vs private division

- Traditionally, women were associated with the private sphere of home and family, while men dominated public life and politics.
- This reduced women's access to education, employment, decision-making and political office.
- The feminist movement challenged this separation and demanded equal opportunities in both private and public life.

1.3 Feminist movements

- Feminist movements seek equality for women in personal, family and public life.
- They have demanded voting rights, education, employment opportunities, legal equality and greater political representation.
- Political mobilisation helped bring women's issues into public debate.

KEY TERM

✓ Feminist = a person who believes in equal rights and opportunities for women and men.

1.4 Gender inequality in India

Area	How inequality appears
Education	Women historically had lower literacy and educational access.
Employment	Women are under-represented in many paid and high-status occupations.
Wages	Women may receive lower wages than men for similar work.
Household work	A large amount of women's work is unpaid and undervalued.
Safety	Women face harassment, violence and insecurity in public and private spaces.
Political power	Women remain under-represented in legislatures.

COMPETENCY TIP

✓ Gender equality involves social, economic and political equality—not only voting rights.

1.5 Women's political representation

- Women's representation in elected legislatures has historically been low.
- One important way to improve representation is reservation of seats.
- At least one-third of seats in Panchayats and Municipalities are reserved for women under constitutional provisions; many States provide a higher share.
- Political representation gives women greater voice in public decisions.

LINK TO FEDERALISM

✓ Local government reservations connect Chapter 3 with decentralisation from Chapter 2.

2. RELIGION, COMMUNALISM AND SECULARISM

- Religion and politics do not have to be completely separated in every situation.
- Mahatma Gandhi believed politics should be guided by moral values drawn from religion.
- Human-rights groups may demand protection for religious minorities.
- Women's movements may demand reform of family laws that discriminate against women.
- These are legitimate when they promote equality and do not impose one religion's domination.

SAFE PRINCIPLE

✓ Religious ideas may influence politics through ethics and equality; domination in the name of religion is the problem.

2.1 What is communalism?

- Communalism is based on the idea that religion is the principal basis of social community.

- It assumes followers of one religion share the same fundamental interests and that these interests differ from those of other religions.
- In extreme form, it treats people of different religions as unable to belong to the same nation.

DO NOT CONFUSE

✓ Religious belief $\neq$ communalism. Communalism begins when religion is used as the basis of political division and domination.

2.2 Forms of communalism

Form	How it appears
Everyday beliefs	Prejudices, stereotypes and belief in superiority of one's religion.
Quest for dominance	Majority seeks majoritarian dominance or minority seeks a separate political unit.
Political mobilisation	Religious symbols, leaders, emotions and fear are used to unite voters.
Communal violence	Riots, massacres and violent conflict in the name of religion.

2.3 Communal political mobilisation

- Political leaders may appeal to voters in the name of religion.
- Sacred symbols, religious leaders, emotional appeals and fear can be used to create political unity within a religious community.
- This becomes dangerous when it sets one community against another or treats citizenship as secondary to religious identity.

BOARD CLUE

✓ Communal politics often uses fear + religious identity + political mobilisation.

2.4 Communal violence

- Communalism can take its most destructive form through riots, massacres and violent conflict.
- Violence damages lives, property, trust between communities and democratic stability.

- A democratic state must protect citizens equally irrespective of religion.

2.5 India as a secular state

Secular feature	Meaning
No official religion	The Constitution does not establish any religion as the State religion.
Freedom of religion	Citizens may profess, practise and propagate religion subject to law.
No discrimination	The State cannot discriminate solely on religious grounds.
State intervention for equality	Government may act to end discriminatory religious practices and protect equal rights.

SECULARISM

- ✓ A secular state maintains equal citizenship while protecting religious freedom.

3. CASTE AND POLITICS

- Traditional caste hierarchy was linked to hereditary occupations and unequal social status.
- Members of the same caste were expected to form a distinct social community and often marry within the caste.
- Untouchability placed some groups outside the caste hierarchy and subjected them to severe exclusion.
- Social reformers and anti-caste movements challenged these inequalities.

3.1 Why old caste barriers have weakened

- Urbanisation has brought people from different castes into shared workplaces and neighbourhoods.
- Economic development and occupational mobility have weakened the link between caste and hereditary occupation.
- Literacy, education and social reform have challenged caste hierarchy.
- Constitutional provisions prohibit caste discrimination and untouchability.

BUT...

✓ Caste has not disappeared; old inequalities continue in new social and economic forms.

3.2 Caste inequalities today

- Some caste groups continue to have greater access to land, education, wealth and high-status occupations.
- Historically disadvantaged communities remain disproportionately represented among poorer groups.
- Untouchability is legally prohibited but has not disappeared completely in social practice.
- Economic inequality and caste inequality often overlap.

3.3 Caste in politics

- Political parties consider caste composition while choosing candidates.
- Parties and candidates may appeal to caste sentiments to gain support.
- Governments may respond to demands from caste groups for representation and benefits.
- Universal adult franchise and political competition have given disadvantaged caste groups greater political voice.

IMPORTANT BALANCE

✓ Caste influences politics, but elections are never decided by caste alone.

3.4 Why caste alone cannot determine elections

- No parliamentary constituency generally contains a clear majority of one caste.
- No political party receives all the votes of a particular caste or community.
- People have multiple identities and interests—class, gender, occupation, locality, party preference and leadership all matter.
- Voters evaluate parties, candidates and government performance as well.

3.5 Politics in caste

- Politics does not simply reflect fixed caste identities; political competition can reshape caste groups.
- Caste groups may expand by including neighbouring sub-castes.
- Different caste groups form coalitions and alliances.
- Politics also brings new internal differences to the surface—for example, rich vs poor or men vs women within the same caste.

Caste enters politics → Coalitions form → Identities expand → Internal differences emerge

4. DEMOCRATIC EXPRESSION OF SOCIAL DIFFERENCES

Healthy democratic expression	Unhealthy expression
Demanding equal rights and representation	Claiming superiority over another group
Peaceful mobilisation for justice	Using hatred, fear or violence
Reforming discriminatory laws/practices	Excluding citizens because of identity
Building broad coalitions	Permanent political division on religious/caste lines

CHAPTER'S BIG LESSON

✓ Democracy must recognise social differences without turning them into domination, exclusion or violence.

5. EXAM REVISION

Term	Meaning
Gender division	Socially created unequal roles of men and women.
Sexual division of labour	Work divided unequally on gender lines.
Feminist	Supports equal rights/opportunities for women and men.
Communalism	Political use of religion as the basis of social division.
Secular state	State with no official religion and equal citizenship.

Caste hierarchy	Ranking of caste groups into unequal social positions.
Untouchability	Extreme caste-based exclusion, prohibited by the Constitution.

5.1 Board-style questions

- Explain the sexual division of labour and its political significance.
- Why is women's political representation important?
- When can religion enter politics legitimately?
- Define communalism and explain its major forms.
- Explain the main features of a secular state in India.
- How have caste inequalities changed in modern India?
- Explain how caste influences politics.
- Explain how politics influences caste.
- Why can caste alone not determine election results?

5.2 Competency / case-based thinking

- A party asks citizens to vote only because they belong to one religion → communal political mobilisation.
- A movement asks for equal inheritance rights for women → legitimate equality-based political demand.
- Government bans an exclusionary practice to protect equality → compatible with secularism.
- A party forms an alliance among several caste groups → politics reshaping caste identities.
- A voter chooses based on development despite caste identity → caste is not the only political factor.

5.3 Last-day revision

Gender inequality → Feminist politics → Communalism → Secularism → Caste + politics

Prompt	Recall
Sexual division	Unequal gender-based work roles
Feminist movement	Equality in personal + public life

Political representation	Women need greater voice
Communalism	Religion used for political division
4 forms	Prejudice → dominance → mobilisation → violence
Secular state	No official religion + equality
Caste change	Urbanisation + mobility + education + law
Caste today	Inequality still persists
Caste in politics	Candidate selection + appeals + representation
Politics in caste	Coalitions + expanded identities + internal differences

6. ADDITIONAL EXAM-READY EVIDENCE

PATRIARCHY + GENDER INEQUALITY INDICATORS

Patriarchal society

- A patriarchal society is a male-dominated social system in which men are given greater power, value and control over resources than women.
- NCERT describes Indian society as still substantially patriarchal despite improvements since Independence.

Textbook evidence of inequality

Issue	NCERT-style evidence / meaning
Unpaid work	Women often work longer hours overall, but much of household and care work is unpaid and therefore undervalued.
Equal wages	The Equal Remuneration Act, 1976 established the principle of equal wages for equal work, yet wage gaps continue in practice.
Child sex ratio	Sex-selective abortion linked to son preference reduced the child sex ratio; the textbook uses the Census 2011 figure of about 919 girls per 1,000 boys.
Violence	Women face harassment, exploitation and domestic violence, showing that inequality also affects safety and dignity.
Public participation	Countries such as Sweden, Norway and Finland are used as examples of relatively high women's participation in public life.

Why these details matter

- They give concrete evidence for a 3-mark or 5-mark answer on gender inequality.
- They can also appear in data-based, assertion-reason or source-based questions.

6.1 Family laws, equality and caste economy

FAMILY LAWS + EQUALITY + CASTE ECONOMY

Family laws and gender equality

- Family laws of different religious communities deal with matters such as marriage, divorce, adoption and inheritance.
- Women's movements have argued that personal and family laws should not discriminate against women.
- A demand for reform is democratic when it seeks equality and does not promote domination of one religious community over another.

Constitutional equality

- The Constitution prohibits discrimination on grounds such as religion, race, caste, sex or place of birth.
- It also abolishes untouchability and guarantees equality before law.

Caste and economic inequality

- Historically, access to land, education and high-status occupations was shaped by caste hierarchy.
- Although formal caste restrictions are illegal today, the effects of accumulated advantages and disadvantages continue.
- Modern India contains rich and poor people in every caste, yet historically disadvantaged communities remain disproportionately represented among poorer groups.

EXAM TAKEAWAY

- ✓ Use these details to strengthen source-based and 5-mark answers.
- ✓ Always connect identity-based differences with equality, representation and democratic limits.

POLITICAL SCIENCE • CHAPTER 4

POLITICAL PARTIES

CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ A political party is a group of people who contest elections and seek to hold power in government.
- ✓ A party has three components: leaders, active members and followers.
- ✓ Political parties perform seven major functions in a democracy.
- ✓ Modern representative democracies cannot function effectively without political parties.
- ✓ Countries may have one-party, two-party or multi-party systems; India has a multi-party system.
- ✓ The Election Commission recognises national and State parties using vote-and-seat criteria.
- ✓ The current NCERT chapter lists six recognised national parties: AAP, BSP, BJP, CPI(M), INC and NPP.
- ✓ Political parties face four major challenges: internal democracy, dynastic succession, money and muscle power, and lack of meaningful choice.
- ✓ Reforms include anti-defection law, candidate affidavits, organisational requirements and stronger citizen participation.

Meaning → 7 functions → Party systems → National + State parties → Challenges → Reforms

1. POLITICAL PARTIES: MEANING AND COMPONENTS

- A political party is a group of people who come together to contest elections and hold power in the government.
- Members broadly agree on policies and programmes for society and try to gain popular support for them.
- Parties reflect political divisions in society and represent different interests and viewpoints.

THREE COMPONENTS

- ✓ Leaders
- ✓ Active members
- ✓ Followers

1.1 Partisanship

- A partisan is a person strongly committed to a political party, group or faction.
- Partisanship means taking a side and often viewing issues from that side's perspective.
- Political parties are naturally partisan because each represents particular policies, interests and social groups.

2. FUNCTIONS OF POLITICAL PARTIES

- Political parties nominate candidates to contest elections.
- Methods of candidate selection vary across countries.
- In India, top party leaders generally play a major role in selecting candidates.

BOARD WORD

✓ Parties provide voters with organised electoral choices.

2.1 Policies and programmes

- Parties present different policies and programmes, and voters choose among them.
- A large number of opinions in society are grouped into a smaller number of policy positions.
- The ruling party is expected to base government policy on the broad programme it supports.

2.2 Making laws

- Laws are formally debated and passed in legislatures.
- Since most legislators belong to political parties, party positions strongly influence law-making.
- Members often follow the direction of party leadership on important matters.

2.3 Form and run governments

- Political parties recruit and train leaders.
- Winning parties or coalitions form governments.
- Major policy decisions are taken by political executives who usually come from political parties.

2.4 Role of opposition

- Parties that lose elections act as the opposition.
- They criticise government failures, question policies and offer alternative views.
- Opposition parties also mobilise public opinion against unpopular government decisions.

2.5 Shape public opinion

- Parties raise and highlight public issues.
- They organise meetings, campaigns, movements and discussions.
- Pressure groups and social organisations may also be linked to parties.
- Public opinion often develops around the positions political parties take.

2.6 Access to government

- Political parties help ordinary citizens gain access to government machinery and welfare schemes.
- People may find it easier to approach a local party leader than a government official.
- Parties must remain responsive because voters can reject them in future elections.

7 FUNCTIONS - MEMORY FLOW

✓ Elections → Policies → Laws → Government → Opposition → Public opinion → Access to government

3. NEED FOR PARTIES AND PARTY SYSTEMS

- Without parties, every candidate would be independent.
- Independent representatives might be accountable locally, but no organised group would be responsible for national policy or government direction.
- Large and complex societies need organisations that collect different views, form policies, coordinate representatives and create responsible governments.
- The rise of parties is closely linked with the rise of representative democracy.

TOPPER LINE

✓ Political parties are a necessary condition for representative democracy.

3.1 Party systems

- There is no ideal number of parties for every country.
- The party system develops from a country's social divisions, history and electoral system.

System	Meaning	Example / clue
One-party	Only one party is allowed to control government.	Not considered a democratic competitive system.
Two-party	Two major parties have a serious chance of winning power.	USA and UK are common examples.
Multi-party	Several parties compete and more than two have a reasonable chance of power.	India

3.2 Why India has a multi-party system

- India has enormous social, geographical and cultural diversity.
- No single party can easily represent all interests and regions.
- Multiple parties give different groups and regions political representation.
- Sometimes several parties form an alliance or front to contest elections or form a government.

ALLIANCE

✓ An alliance/front is a group of parties working together; it is not itself one political party.

3.3 Popular participation

- Political parties are often among the least trusted democratic institutions.
- However, low trust does not mean citizens are completely detached from party politics.

- NCERT survey evidence shows that party membership and the proportion of people feeling close to a party have increased in India over time.

CONCEPT

✓ Political parties can be criticised and still remain central to democratic participation.

4. RECOGNISED POLITICAL PARTIES

- Every political party must register with the Election Commission of India.
- Recognised parties receive special facilities such as a reserved election symbol for their official candidates.
- The Election Commission uses vote and seat performance to recognise State and national parties.

Recognition	Textbook criterion
State party	At least 6% of votes in a State Assembly election and at least 2 Assembly seats.
National party	At least 6% of votes in Lok Sabha or Assembly elections in 4 States and at least 4 Lok Sabha seats.

CURRENT NCERT NOTE

✓ The current chapter lists six recognised national parties according to the Election Commission's 2023 notification.

4.1 Aam Aadmi Party (AAP)

- Formed on 26 November 2012 following the 2011 anti-corruption movement.
- Its stated focus includes accountability, clean administration, transparency and good governance.
- It emerged as an important political force in Delhi and Punjab.

RECALL

✓ AAP → 2012 → anti-corruption movement → governance/accountability.

4.2 Bahujan Samaj Party (BSP)

- Formed in 1984 under the leadership of Kanshi Ram.
- Seeks political power and representation for the 'bahujan samaj'— including Dalits, Adivasis, OBCs and religious minorities.
- Draws inspiration from social reformers such as Jyotiba Phule, B.R. Ambedkar and Periyar.

RECALL

✓ BSP founder → Kanshi Ram.

4.3 Bharatiya Janata Party (BJP)

- Founded in 1980.
- Draws inspiration from India's cultural nationalism and the idea of integral humanism.
- Supports a strong and modern India and has become one of the country's major national political forces.

MCQ CLUE

✓ BJP → integral humanism.

4.4 Communist Party of India (Marxist) - CPI(M)

- Founded in 1964 after a split in the Communist movement.
- Supports Marxism-Leninism, socialism, secularism and democracy.
- Has had important bases in states such as Kerala, West Bengal and Tripura.
- Has traditionally drawn support from workers, farmers, agricultural labourers and sections of the intelligentsia.

4.5 Indian National Congress (INC)

- Founded in 1885 and one of the world's oldest political parties.
- Played the central role in India's national movement and dominated Indian politics for several decades after Independence.
- It describes itself as a centrist, secular and democratic party and has historically tried to build support across social groups and regions.

4.6 National People's Party (NPP)

- Founded in 2013 under the leadership of P.A. Sangma.

- It is the first political party from North-East India to receive national-party status.
- Its political base and identity are strongly associated with the North-East.

SIX NATIONAL PARTIES

✓ AAP • BSP • BJP • CPI(M) • INC • NPP

4.7 State parties

- Parties recognised mainly in one State are commonly called State or regional parties.
- A State party need not have a narrow regional ideology; some have organisations in several States but achieve electoral success mainly in a few.
- State parties have become increasingly important in national politics.
- Since the coalition era, many State parties have participated in national governments.

FEDERALISM LINK

✓ State parties strengthen the federal character of Indian politics by giving regional interests a national voice.

5. CHALLENGES TO POLITICAL PARTIES

- Power is often concentrated in the hands of a few leaders.
- Ordinary members may not receive adequate information or meaningful participation in decision-making.
- Internal organisational elections may not be regular or genuinely competitive.
- Those who disagree with top leaders may find it difficult to continue within the party.

5.1 Dynastic succession

- Top positions can remain concentrated within a few families.
- Family connections may give some individuals unfair access to leadership positions.
- This limits opportunities for ordinary party workers and weakens internal democracy.

DO NOT CONFUSE

✓ Dynastic succession is related to, but distinct from, lack of internal democracy.

5.2 Money and muscle power

- Parties need resources to contest elections and run organisations.
- This can make them dependent on wealthy candidates, donors and powerful interest groups.
- In some cases, candidates with criminal backgrounds may receive party tickets because of their ability to mobilise money or influence.
- Excessive money and muscle power can distort democratic competition.

5.3 No meaningful choice

- Major parties may sometimes appear very similar in policies and programmes.
- When ideological differences become small, voters may feel they do not have a genuine alternative.
- Leaders may also move from one party to another, reducing the distinctiveness of party choices.

6. REFORMS OF POLITICAL PARTIES

- The Constitution was amended to discourage elected representatives from changing parties after an election.
- An MLA or MP may lose the seat for defection under the anti-defection provisions.
- The reform reduced some forms of political switching but also strengthened party leadership over legislators.

KEY TERM

✓ Defection = leaving the party on whose ticket a representative was elected to join or support another political formation.

6.1 Candidate affidavits

- The Supreme Court directed candidates contesting elections to file affidavits declaring details of property and criminal cases.
- This gives voters greater access to information about candidates.

- However, disclosure alone does not guarantee that parties will choose cleaner or more democratic candidates.

6.2 Organisational requirements

- The Election Commission requires parties to file organisational details and income-tax returns.
- Parties are expected to hold organisational elections.
- These requirements create formal accountability, though implementation may be uneven.

6.3 Suggested reforms

- Political parties should hold regular internal elections.
- More tickets should be given to women and under-represented groups.
- Parties should maintain transparent membership and financial records.
- Some proposals suggest state funding of elections to reduce dependence on private money.
- Reform should not rely only on laws; public pressure and citizen participation are essential.

NCERT'S BIG LESSON

✓ Bad politics is not corrected simply by staying away from politics; better politics requires more informed and active democratic participation.

6.4 Law vs citizen action

Legal / institutional reform	Citizen / political reform
Anti-defection provisions	Join parties and demand internal democracy.
Candidate affidavits	Question candidates and use disclosed information.
EC organisational requirements	Pressure parties for transparent finance and fair candidate selection.
Possible election-funding reforms	Build sustained public demand for cleaner politics.

7. EXAM REVISION

Term	Meaning
------	---------

Political party	Group that contests elections and seeks government power.
Partisanship	Strong commitment to one side/party.
Ruling party	Party or coalition running the government.
Opposition	Parties not in government that scrutinise those in power.
Alliance / front	Several parties working together.
Recognised party	Party receiving special ECI recognition/facilities.
Defection	Changing party allegiance after being elected.
Affidavit	Sworn declaration filed by a candidate.
Dynastic succession	Leadership passed through family connections.

7.1 Board-style questions

- Define a political party and name its three components.
- Explain the seven functions of political parties.
- Why are political parties necessary in a representative democracy?
- Differentiate among one-party, two-party and multi-party systems.
- Why has India adopted a multi-party system?
- What are recognised political parties? State the textbook recognition criteria.
- Name the six national parties listed in the current NCERT chapter.
- Explain any four challenges faced by political parties.
- Describe the major reforms introduced to improve political parties.
- Why can political parties not be reformed only through legal measures?

7.2 Competency / case-based thinking

- A party selects all candidates through decisions of one family → dynastic succession + weak internal democracy.
- A legislator leaves the party after being elected → defection.
- Several parties jointly form government → alliance/coalition in a multi-party system.
- A losing party questions government policy in Parliament → opposition function.

- A local leader helps citizens access a welfare scheme → access-to-government function.
- A party organises a campaign on unemployment → shaping public opinion.

7.3 Last-day revision

Meaning + 3 parts → 7 functions → Party systems → 6 national parties
→ 4 challenges → Reforms

6.5 Advanced party-reform notes

PARTY NUMBERS + COMPLETE REFORM AGENDA

More than 750 registered parties

- The NCERT chapter notes that more than 750 political parties are registered with the Election Commission of India.
- Only a much smaller number are serious contenders capable of winning substantial representation or forming governments.

WHY THIS MATTERS

✓ It explains why simply counting registered parties does not tell us how many effective parties a democracy has.

Suggested law for internal democracy

- One proposal is a law regulating the internal affairs of political parties.
- Parties could be required to maintain a membership register, follow their own constitution and create an independent authority to settle internal disputes.
- The proposal also includes open elections to the highest party positions.

More representation for women

- A major suggested reform is to make it compulsory for political parties to give at least one-third of election tickets to women.
- Another proposal is to reserve one-third of positions in party decision-making bodies for women.

State funding of elections

- Some reform proposals suggest that the government should finance elections partly to reduce parties' dependence on private money.

- Support could be given in kind—such as fuel, paper or communication facilities—or in cash linked to votes secured in the previous election.

Why law alone cannot reform parties

- NCERT warns that over-regulation can be counter-productive.
- Parties may find ways to formally satisfy or bypass rules without changing political behaviour.
- Political leaders themselves must pass many reform laws, so legal change has practical limits.

Two non-legal ways to reform parties

- Citizens can pressure parties through petitions, publicity, agitations, pressure groups, social movements and the media.
- People who want better parties can also join political parties and work to change them from within.

NCERT'S CLOSING MESSAGE

✓ The problem of bad politics can be solved by more and better politics—not by withdrawing from political participation.

POLITICAL SCIENCE • CHAPTER 5

OUTCOMES OF DEMOCRACY

CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Democracy should be judged by reasonable expectations, not by expecting it to solve every social and economic problem automatically.
- ✓ The chapter evaluates democracy through five broad outcomes: quality of government, economic growth, inequality, social diversity, and dignity/freedom.
- ✓ Democracy is expected to produce accountable, responsive and legitimate government.
- ✓ Its economic-growth record is mixed; democracy does not guarantee faster development.
- ✓ Political equality can coexist with serious economic inequality and poverty.
- ✓ Democracy is generally better at accommodating social diversity and resolving conflicts peacefully.
- ✓ Its strongest achievement is promoting the dignity and freedom of citizens.
- ✓ Growing public expectations and criticism can themselves be signs of democratic success.

Assess democracy → Government quality → Economic outcomes → Social diversity → Dignity + freedom

1. ASSESSING DEMOCRATIC OUTCOMES

- Democracy is considered better than dictatorship because it promotes political equality, dignity, better decision-making, peaceful conflict resolution and the possibility of correcting mistakes.
- But democracy is a form of government; it creates conditions and opportunities rather than guaranteeing every desired result.
- Different democracies operate in different social, economic and cultural conditions, so outcomes cannot be identical everywhere.

ASSESSMENT RULE

- ✓ Compare reasonable expectations from democracy with its actual performance.

1.1 Five major outcome areas

Outcome area	Central question
--------------	------------------

Government quality	Is government accountable, responsive and legitimate?
Economic development	Does democracy promote growth and development?
Inequality and poverty	Does democracy distribute economic gains fairly?
Social diversity	Can democracy manage differences and conflict peacefully?
Dignity and freedom	Does democracy protect equal respect and individual liberty?

2. ACCOUNTABLE, RESPONSIVE AND LEGITIMATE GOVERNMENT

- In a democracy, rulers are elected and can be questioned, criticised and removed through elections.
- Government is expected to follow rules and procedures while taking decisions.
- Citizens should be able to examine how decisions were made.
- Regular free and fair elections and open public debate are basic tests of accountability.

KEY TERM

✓ Accountable government = rulers must answer to citizens and can be held responsible for decisions.

2.1 Transparency

- Transparency means that citizens have the right and means to examine the process of decision-making.
- A democratic government should make information available rather than hiding public decisions.
- The Right to Information strengthens transparency by allowing citizens to demand official information.

Information → Transparency → Accountability → More responsive government

2.2 Nannu and the Right to Information

- Nannu, a daily-wage worker in East Delhi, repeatedly failed to get a duplicate ration card processed.
- He used the Right to Information mechanism to ask what progress had been made, which officials were responsible and what action would follow from delay.
- After the RTI request, officials acted quickly and his ration card was prepared.

WHAT THE CASE SHOWS

- ✓ Even an ordinary citizen can use democratic rights to force officials to become transparent and accountable.
- ✓ Democracy provides mechanisms to correct bureaucratic inaction.

2.3 Responsive government

- A responsive government listens to people's needs and expectations and acts on them.
- Democracies sometimes fail to respond quickly or fully, even when citizens clearly express demands.
- So democratic governments are expected to be responsive, but actual performance varies.

IMPORTANT DISTINCTION

- ✓ Accountability asks 'Can rulers be questioned?' Responsiveness asks 'Do they act on people's needs?'

2.4 Why democracy may be slow

- Democratic decisions often involve consultation, discussion, negotiation and procedures.
- This can make decision-making slower than in a dictatorship.
- However, decisions taken after discussion are often more acceptable and can be more effective in the long run.

BOARD BALANCE

- ✓ Slower decision-making is not automatically bad if it produces consultation, legitimacy and acceptance.

2.5 Legitimate government

- A democratic government is a legitimate government because it is based on the consent and participation of the people.
- People may complain about democratic governments, but they generally want to be ruled by elected representatives.
- Democracy enjoys broad support because people view it as their own government.

TOPPER LINE

✓ Democracy's strongest political outcome is legitimacy.

3. ECONOMIC OUTCOMES OF DEMOCRACY

Regime / country group	Average growth rate, 1950-2000
All democratic regimes	3.95%
All dictatorial regimes	4.42%
Poor countries under dictatorship	4.34%
Poor countries under democracy	4.28%

- On average, dictatorships recorded slightly higher growth across all countries.
- Among poor countries, however, the difference between democracy and dictatorship was negligible.

CORRECT CONCLUSION

✓ Democracy does not guarantee faster economic growth, but neither can dictatorship be justified as necessary for poor countries to develop.

3.1 What determines economic development?

- Economic development depends on many factors besides the form of government.
- Important factors include population size, global economic conditions, cooperation from other countries and national economic priorities.
- Therefore, democracy should not be judged solely by growth rate.

Political system → Population → Global conditions → Economic priorities
→ Development outcome

3.2 Political equality vs economic inequality

- Democracy is based on political equality: each adult citizen has equal voting rights.
- But political equality does not automatically produce economic equality.
- A small number of very rich people can control a disproportionate share of wealth while many citizens struggle to meet basic needs.

PARADOX

✓ One person, one vote can coexist with highly unequal income and wealth.

3.3 Income inequality - NCERT evidence

Country	Top 20% share	Bottom 20% share
South Africa	64.8%	2.9%
Brazil	63.0%	2.6%
Russia	53.7%	4.4%
USA	50.0%	4.0%
United Kingdom	45.0%	6.0%
Denmark	34.5%	9.6%
Hungary	34.4%	10.0%

WHAT THE TABLE PROVES

- ✓ Economic inequality can be very high even inside democracies.
- ✓ Different democracies perform very differently on distribution.

3.4 Reduction of inequality and poverty

- Democracies have not been very successful in reducing economic inequalities.
- The poor form a large proportion of voters, yet elected governments do not always address poverty as strongly as expected.
- People at the bottom may lack adequate food, housing, education and health care.

- In some poor countries, dependence on richer countries for basic needs adds another layer of inequality.

EXAM CONCLUSION

✓ Democracy guarantees political equality more reliably than economic equality.

4. ACCOMMODATION OF SOCIAL DIVERSITY

- No society can permanently eliminate all conflicts among social groups.
- Democracy provides procedures to express differences, negotiate them and reduce the chance that tensions become violent.
- This is a major advantage over regimes that suppress internal differences.

BELGIUM LINK

✓ Belgium shows how democratic accommodation can manage ethnic and linguistic differences.

4.1 Majority must work with minority

- Democracy is not simply rule by the opinion of a fixed majority.
- The majority must work with the minority so that government represents a broad or general view.
- Majority and minority opinions can change from one issue or election to another.

4.2 No permanent majority community

- Majority rule must not become rule by one religious, racial or linguistic community.
- Different persons and groups should be able to form a majority in different decisions and elections.
- Democracy remains inclusive only when every citizen has a chance to be part of a majority at some point.

SRI LANKA LINK

✓ Permanent majority-community domination undermines democratic accommodation.

5. DIGNITY AND FREEDOM

- Democracy is superior to other forms of government in promoting the dignity and freedom of individuals.
- Every person expects respect and equal treatment.
- Democratic principles give citizens a legal and moral basis to demand dignity.

STRONGEST HUMAN OUTCOME

✓ Freedom and dignity are among democracy's least disputed achievements.

5.1 Dignity of women

- Democracy has strengthened the idea that women deserve equal treatment and respect.
- Women continue to face inequality in practice, but democratic equality gives legitimacy to struggles against discrimination.
- Public discussion and legal reform can gradually expand women's rights and dignity.

5.2 Dignity of disadvantaged castes

- For groups historically subjected to caste inequality and untouchability, democracy recognises equal citizenship and dignity in principle.
- Discrimination has not disappeared, but democratic rights allow affected groups to challenge unequal treatment.
- The principle of equal status strengthens the struggle for social justice.

5.3 Freedom and public criticism

- Democracy allows citizens to question rulers, express dissatisfaction and demand more.
- Public complaints do not necessarily prove democracy has failed.
- They can show that people have become politically aware and expect power-holders to meet democratic standards.

NCERT INSIGHT

✓ When people openly complain and demand better government, they act as citizens rather than passive subjects.

5.4 Democracy's test never ends

- As democracy achieves one goal, citizens often raise their expectations and demand further improvements.
- This creates a continuous process of evaluation, criticism and reform.
- The fact that people keep asking more from democracy can itself reflect confidence in democratic possibilities.

Rights gained → Expectations rise → Citizens question → Reform demanded → Democracy deepens

6. EXAM REVISION

Outcome	Democracy's record
Accountability	Strong expectation; elections, debate and transparency provide mechanisms.
Responsiveness	Mixed; governments may not always respond quickly or fully.
Legitimacy	Major strength—people accept elected government as their own.
Economic growth	No guaranteed advantage over dictatorship.
Economic equality	Weak record; substantial inequality persists.
Social diversity	Generally better at peaceful accommodation.
Dignity + freedom	Strong and distinctive democratic achievement.

6.1 Key terms

Term	Meaning
Accountability	Rulers answer to citizens for decisions.
Responsiveness	Government acts on people's needs and demands.
Transparency	Citizens can examine decision-making.
Legitimacy	Government is accepted as rightful by the people.
Political equality	Equal political status, especially equal vote.
Economic inequality	Unequal distribution of income and wealth.

Social accommodation	Negotiating differences without permanent domination.
Dignity	Equal respect and worth of each individual.

6.2 Board-style questions

- How do we assess the outcomes of democracy?
- Explain how democracy produces an accountable, responsive and legitimate government.
- Why can democratic decision-making be slower yet more acceptable?
- What does the NCERT growth-rate evidence show about democracy and development?
- Why have democracies not been very successful in reducing economic inequality?
- Explain the two conditions under which democracy accommodates social diversity.
- How does democracy promote dignity and freedom of citizens?
- Why can public dissatisfaction be considered a sign of democratic success?

6.3 Competency / case-based thinking

- Officials act only after a citizen demands information → transparency leading to accountability.
- A government is elected but ignores clear public needs → legitimate, but not fully responsive.
- A country has equal voting rights but extreme income concentration → political equality with economic inequality.
- A majority religion permanently controls power → failure to accommodate social diversity.
- Citizens openly criticise rulers and demand reforms → democratic freedom and active citizenship.

6.4 Last-day revision

Government → Growth → Inequality → Diversity → Dignity + freedom

Prompt	Recall
Accountable	Answerable to citizens

Responsive	Acts on public needs
Legitimate	People's own government
Transparency	Decision process can be examined
Growth evidence	3.95 democracy vs 4.42 dictatorship
Poor-country growth	4.28 democracy vs 4.34 dictatorship
Political equality	Equal vote
Economic equality	Not guaranteed
Diversity condition 1	Majority works with minority
Diversity condition 2	No permanent majority community
Human outcome	Dignity + freedom
Complaints	Can signal active citizenship

2.6 Government quality - evidence and limitations

WHAT DEMOCRACIES DO WELL — AND WHERE THEY FALL SHORT

Regular elections and public debate

- Democracies have generally succeeded in establishing regular, free elections and conditions for open public debate.
- However, many democracies still fall short of providing a genuinely fair chance to everyone in elections.
- Not every major decision is subjected to full public debate.

Information and transparency

- Democratic governments do not always have a strong record of sharing information with citizens.
- Even so, citizens in democracies have stronger rights and mechanisms to demand information than in non-democratic regimes.

Corruption and responsiveness

- It is reasonable to expect democratic governments to be attentive to people's needs and largely free of corruption.
- The actual record is mixed: democracies may ignore public demands and corruption remains a serious problem.
- But there is no evidence that non-democratic governments are necessarily less corrupt or more responsive.

BALANCED BOARD CONCLUSION

- ✓ Democracy's record on efficiency, responsiveness and cleanliness is mixed.
- ✓ Its clear advantage is that citizens can question rulers, obtain information, organise opposition and replace governments.

2.7 Support for democracy

SOUTH ASIA — NCERT SURVEY EVIDENCE

Response	Bangladesh	India	Nepal	Pakistan	Sri Lanka
Democracy preferable	69	70	62	37	71
Sometimes dictatorship better	6	9	10	14	11
Doesn't matter	25	21	28	49	18

What does the evidence show?

- Support for democracy exists across South Asia, including countries that have experienced non-democratic rule.
- People generally prefer to be ruled by representatives elected by them.
- Democracy's ability to generate support for itself is an important outcome.

BIG IDEA

✓ A democratic government may be slow or imperfect, yet people value it because it is their own government.

Why legitimacy matters

- A legitimate government is one that people accept as rightful.
- Election, participation and public consent give democratic government a level of legitimacy that non-democratic regimes find difficult to match.

6.5 Exercise-style democratic challenges

APPLY THE CHAPTER, DON'T JUST MEMORISE IT

Situation 1: caste discrimination

- If a public or religious institution uses separate access for Dalits and non-Dalits, the democratic challenge is equal dignity and removal of caste discrimination.

Situation 2: farmer distress

- Large-scale farmer distress or suicides indicate that political equality alone is insufficient; governments must respond to economic insecurity and livelihood needs.

Situation 3: alleged fake encounter

- When security forces are accused of unlawful killing, democracy requires investigation, accountability and rule of law.

COMPETENCY METHOD

- ✓ Identify the democratic value involved: equality, dignity, accountability, responsiveness, rule of law or transparency.
- ✓ Then suggest the institutional mechanism that can deepen democracy.

Final chapter verdict

- Democracy's overall verdict is positive but qualified.
- It performs strongly on legitimacy, peaceful accommodation, dignity and freedom.
- Its record is weaker and more uneven on economic equality, corruption, speed and responsiveness.
- Because citizens can criticise and demand improvement, democracy continually creates pressure for deeper democracy.

PART IV

ECONOMICS

Understanding Economic Development

THIS SECTION INCLUDES

- Chapter 1 • Development
- Chapter 2 • Sectors of the Indian Economy
- Chapter 3 • Money and Credit
- Chapter 4 • Globalisation and the Indian Economy
- Chapter 5 • Consumer Rights

Revise concepts → examples → comparisons → exam questions

ECONOMICS • CHAPTER 1

DEVELOPMENT

CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Different people can have different and even conflicting developmental goals.
- ✓ Development is not only about income; equality, freedom, security and respect also matter.
- ✓ National development requires choosing fair and just goals that benefit many people.
- ✓ Average income or per capita income is useful for comparing countries, but it hides income distribution.
- ✓ Public facilities such as health, education, sanitation and PDS strongly affect quality of life.
- ✓ Human Development compares income together with health and education.
- ✓ Development must be sustainable so that resources remain available for future generations.

Chapter Flow

Different goals → Income + other goals → Per capita income → Public facilities → HDI → Sustainability

1. DEVELOPMENT AND DEVELOPMENTAL GOALS

- Development means progress towards a better life and the fulfilment of people's aspirations.
- There is no single development goal that fits everyone.
- A person's goals depend strongly on his or her life situation.

CORE IDEA

✓ Development is about improving people's choices, opportunities and quality of life.

1.1 Different people, different goals

Person / group	Possible developmental goals
Landless rural labourer	More days of work, better wages, education for children, no discrimination.
Prosperous farmer	Higher crop prices, reliable labour, higher family income.
Rain-dependent farmer	Reliable irrigation, stable income, crop security.
Urban unemployed youth	Regular job, decent salary, job security.
Young woman	Equal freedom, education, safety and opportunity.
Adivasi family	Protection of land, livelihood, culture and fair rehabilitation.

BOARD POINT

✓ Different persons have different goals because their life situations and priorities are different.

1.2 Developmental goals can conflict

- What is development for one person may not be development for another.
- It can even be destructive for another person.
- Example: a large dam may provide electricity and irrigation, but it may submerge villages and displace tribal communities.
- A fair development path must consider both benefits and costs.

Project benefit → Different groups affected → Conflict → Fair + just choice

1.3 Income and other goals

- People usually want more income because it allows them to buy goods and services.
- But income is not the only goal.
- People also value equal treatment, freedom, security, respect, regular employment, a safe environment and opportunities to learn.
- Some of these non-material goals may be more important than extra income.

EXAM LINE

✓ People look for a mix of material and non-material goals.

1.4 Why salary alone is not enough

Job A	Job B
Higher pay	Lower pay
No job security	Regular employment
Little family time	Better work-life balance
May reduce freedom/security	May increase security and satisfaction

- This shows why quality of work, security and freedom matter alongside salary.

1.5 National development

- If individuals have different goals, people may also disagree about what a country should achieve.
- National development means thinking about a fair and just path for the country.
- Important questions include: Who benefits? Who bears the cost? Does the policy help a large number or only a small group?

TOPPER FRAME

✓ National development = collective goals + fairness + justice + broad public benefit.

2. COMPARING COUNTRIES AND STATES

- Income is one important characteristic used to compare countries.
- Total income is not suitable for direct comparison because countries have different populations.
- Therefore, we use average income, also called per capita income.

FORMULA

✓ Per Capita Income = Total Income of the Country ÷ Total Population

2.1 World Bank income classification

- The World Bank uses per capita income as one criterion for classifying countries.

Category	Approx. per capita income used in NCERT
High-income / rich countries	US\$ 66,500 per annum and above
Low-income countries	US\$ 2,300 per annum or less
India	About US\$ 11,000 per annum; low-middle-income category

IMPORTANT

✓ Income classification is useful, but it does not measure all dimensions of development.

2.2 Limitation of averages

- Average income can hide large differences in how income is distributed.

Country A	Country B
Most citizens earn similar incomes.	Four citizens are very poor; one is extremely rich.
More equitable distribution.	Highly unequal distribution.
Same average income as B.	Same average income as A.

BOARD CONCLUSION

✓ Averages are useful for comparison, but they hide disparities.

2.3 Income and other development criteria

- A state with higher income is not automatically better on every development indicator.
- Health, education and access to public services must also be considered.

Indicator	Meaning
Infant Mortality Rate (IMR)	Deaths of children below age 1 per 1,000 live births.
Literacy Rate	Share of literate population aged 7 years and above.
Net Attendance Ratio	Share of children in a specified age group attending school.
Life Expectancy	Expected average years of life at birth.

2.4 Haryana, Kerala and Bihar comparison

State	Per capita income 2023-24 (Rs)	IMR	Literacy %	Net attendance %
Haryana	3,25,759	28	82	73
Kerala	2,81,001	6	94	94
Bihar	60,337	27	62	69

- Haryana has higher per capita income than Kerala, yet Kerala performs much better on health and education.

WHAT THIS PROVES

✓ Income alone is not an adequate measure of development.

3. PUBLIC FACILITIES

- Money cannot buy every good or service needed for a good life.

- Clean surroundings, safe drinking water, public health protection, schools, roads and collective security require community or government provision.
- Many facilities are cheaper and more effective when provided collectively.
- Public Distribution System (PDS), schools and health centres directly affect human well-being.

EXAMPLE

✓ Kerala's better health and education outcomes are linked to stronger public provision, not only individual income.

3.1 Public Distribution System (PDS)

- The PDS provides essential food items through ration shops at regulated prices.
- Its effectiveness differs across states.
- A well-functioning PDS can improve food security, nutrition and quality of life.

COMPETENCY LINK

✓ High public spending is not enough by itself; access, quality and effective implementation also matter.

3.2 Why collective provision matters

- Money cannot individually guarantee a pollution-free environment, unadulterated medicines, protection from infectious disease or universal access to schooling.
- Many essential goods and services are cheaper and more effective when provided collectively through public institutions.

3.3 PDS comparison

- NCERT cites a study in which about 90% of rural people in Tamil Nadu used ration shops, compared with about 35% in West Bengal.
- The example shows that the quality and reach of public facilities can affect nutrition and well-being independently of private income.

3.4 Rural education example from Uttar Pradesh

Indicator	Male	Female
Rural literacy rate	76%	54%
Literacy, age 10-14	90%	87%
Age 10-14 attending school	85%	82%

LESSON

✓ Development depends on access to functioning public facilities, not merely on government spending or household income.

4. HUMAN DEVELOPMENT

- Once we recognise the limitations of income, we need broader indicators.
- Human development focuses on the quality of human life.
- The UNDP Human Development Report compares countries using health, education and income indicators.

Income → Health → Education → Human Development

4.1 Human Development Index (HDI)

- HDI stands for Human Development Index.
- It combines key dimensions of health, education and income.
- A higher HDI rank generally indicates better overall human development.

Country	GNI per capita PPP \$	Life expectancy	Mean years schooling	HDI rank
Sri Lanka	12,616	77.5	10.8	89
India	9,047	72.0	6.9	130
Bangladesh	8,498	74.7	6.8	130
Nepal	4,726	70.4	4.5	145
Myanmar	4,919	66.9	6.4	150
Pakistan	5,501	67.6	4.3	168

NCERT DATA

✓ The current chapter uses Human Development Report 2025 data for 2023.

4.2 Purchasing Power Parity (PPP)

- For international comparison, income is converted into a common unit.
- PPP adjusts income so that the same amount of money represents roughly the same purchasing power across countries.

MEMORY

✓ PPP makes cross-country income comparisons more meaningful.

4.3 Body Mass Index (BMI) - activity concept

- BMI is one simple indicator used to discuss nutritional status.
- It is calculated as weight in kilograms divided by the square of height in metres.

FORMULA

✓ $BMI = \text{Weight (kg)} \div [\text{Height (m)}]^2$

- BMI is only one indicator; health should not be judged from a single number without age-appropriate interpretation.

5. SUSTAINABLE DEVELOPMENT

- Sustainable development means meeting present development needs without reducing the ability of future generations to meet theirs.
- A high level of development today is not desirable if it destroys the resource base needed tomorrow.
- Sustainability must therefore be part of any long-term development plan.

Use resources → Meet present needs → Protect resource base → Future generations

5.1 Groundwater overuse

- Groundwater is a renewable resource only when extraction does not exceed natural recharge.
- NCERT notes serious groundwater decline in many Indian districts.

- Overuse is especially common in agriculturally prosperous regions using intensive irrigation.
- If groundwater is withdrawn faster than it is replenished, future availability falls.

BIG IDEA

✓ Renewable resources can become scarce through overuse.

5.2 Renewable vs non-renewable resources

Renewable	Non-renewable
Can be replenished naturally if used within regenerative limits.	Exist in fixed stock or take geological time to form.
Examples: groundwater, forests, solar energy.	Examples: coal, petroleum, minerals.
Can still be exhausted locally through overuse.	Once depleted, replacement is extremely slow.

5.3 Why sustainability is a development issue

- Economic growth can increase pressure on water, forests, fossil fuels and minerals.
- Pollution can reduce the usefulness of natural resources even before they are physically exhausted.
- Development decisions must therefore balance production, equity and environmental protection.

BOARD ENDING

✓ Development that destroys future possibilities is not sustainable development.

5.4 Groundwater overuse: textbook evidence

- About 300 districts reported a groundwater-level decline of more than 4 metres over the previous 20 years.
- Nearly one-third of the country was already overusing groundwater reserves.
- If the same pattern continued, the chapter warns that about 60% of the country could be overusing groundwater in another 25 years.

- Major stress areas include Punjab, western Uttar Pradesh, hard-rock plateau regions of central and southern India, some coastal areas and fast-growing urban settlements.

5.5 Crude oil: exhaustion of a non-renewable resource

Region / country	Reserves (thousand million barrels)	Years reserves last
Middle East	836	70
United States	69	10.5
World	1732	47

- India depends substantially on imported crude oil; higher world prices therefore increase the economic burden.

SUSTAINABILITY MESSAGE

- ✓ Renewable resources can be overused.
- ✓ Non-renewable resources have a finite stock even if new reserves are discovered.

6. EXAM REVISION

Term	Meaning
Developmental goal	An aspiration a person or group wants to achieve.
Per capita income	Average income per person.
IMR	Infant deaths below age one per 1,000 live births.
Literacy rate	Share of literate population aged 7+.
Public facilities	Collectively provided essential services.
HDI	Composite human-development measure.
PPP	Purchasing-power-adjusted income comparison.
Sustainability	Maintaining development without harming future generations.

6.1 Board-style questions

- Why do different persons have different developmental goals?

- Explain how developmental goals may conflict.
- Why is income not the only criterion for development?
- What is per capita income? Why is it used to compare countries?
- Why can average income hide inequalities?
- How do public facilities contribute to development?
- Why is Kerala considered ahead of Haryana on several development indicators despite lower per capita income?
- What is HDI? Which dimensions does it consider?
- What is sustainable development? Why is groundwater overuse a concern?

6.2 Competency / case-based thinking

- A village gains electricity from a dam but families lose land → conflicting developmental goals.
- Two countries have the same average income but different income distribution → average alone is insufficient.
- A lower-income state has better IMR and literacy → public facilities and human development matter.
- A region pumps groundwater faster than recharge → unsustainable development.
- A policy raises income but causes pollution and displacement → evaluate both benefits and costs.

6.3 Last-day revision

Different goals → Income + non-income → Per capita → Public facilities
→ HDI → Sustainability

Prompt	Recall
Different goals	Life situations differ
Conflict	Development for one may harm another
Per capita income	Total income ÷ population
Average limitation	Hides distribution
IMR	Deaths below age 1 / 1,000 births
Kerala lesson	Income alone is inadequate
Public facilities	Health, school, PDS, sanitation etc.

HDI	Health + education + income
PPP	Comparable purchasing power
Sustainability	Protect future needs
Groundwater	Renewable but exhaustible through overuse
Development	Material + non-material goals

ECONOMICS • CHAPTER 2

SECTORS OF THE INDIAN ECONOMY

CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Economic activities can be classified in three ways: by nature of activity, employment conditions and ownership.
- ✓ Primary sector uses natural resources; secondary sector transforms them; tertiary sector provides services.
- ✓ Only final goods and services are counted when measuring total production to avoid double counting.
- ✓ GDP is the value of final goods and services produced within a country during a year; the chapter also introduces GVA.
- ✓ India's tertiary sector has grown fastest in production, but employment has not shifted out of agriculture at the same pace.
- ✓ Underemployment and disguised unemployment are major problems, especially in agriculture.
- ✓ Organised-sector workers receive legal protection and benefits; unorganised-sector workers need protection and support.
- ✓ Public-sector activity is needed where social benefit is large or private provision is inadequate or too costly.

3 sectors → GDP/GVA → Employment → Organised vs unorganised → Public vs private

1. SECTORS BY NATURE OF ACTIVITY

- Thousands of different activities take place in an economy, so classification helps us analyse them systematically.
- The criterion chosen depends on what we want to understand.

Basis of classification	Sectors
Nature of activity	Primary, Secondary, Tertiary
Employment conditions	Organised, Unorganised
Ownership of assets	Public, Private

1.1 Primary sector

- Primary-sector activities directly use natural resources.

- Examples include agriculture, dairy, fishing, forestry, mining and quarrying.
- It is called 'primary' because it forms the base for many other products.

ALSO CALLED

✓ Agriculture and related sector.

1.2 Secondary sector

- The secondary sector converts natural products into manufactured forms.
- Manufacturing can take place in factories, workshops or even homes.
- Examples: cotton → yarn/cloth; sugarcane → sugar/gur; clay/earth → bricks.

ALSO CALLED

✓ Industrial sector.

1.3 Tertiary sector

- Tertiary activities provide services rather than producing physical goods.
- Many services support the primary and secondary sectors: transport, storage, trade, communication and banking.
- Other essential services include teaching, healthcare, administration, law and personal services.
- Newer services include ATMs, internet services, call centres and software companies.

ALSO CALLED

✓ Service sector.

1.4 Interdependence of the three sectors

- The three sectors are not isolated; production in one depends on the others.
- A sugar mill depends on sugarcane from farmers.

- Farmers depend on industry for tractors, pumps, fertilisers and pesticides.
- Both agriculture and industry depend on transport, banking, storage and trade.

Primary inputs → Secondary production → Tertiary support → Markets + consumers

2. MEASURING PRODUCTION

- We cannot meaningfully add quantities of unlike goods such as cars, wheat and computers.
- Economists therefore add their monetary values.
- But we count only final goods and services.

Final vs intermediate goods

Final good/service	Intermediate good
Reaches the final user or consumer.	Used up in producing another good/service.
Its value is counted in total production.	Its value is already included in the final product.
Example: biscuits sold to consumers.	Example: flour used to make biscuits.

WHY ONLY FINAL GOODS?

✓ Counting wheat, flour and biscuits separately would count the same value repeatedly—double counting.

2.1 Gross Domestic Product (GDP)

- GDP is the value of all final goods and services produced within a country during a particular year.
- It indicates the overall size of the economy.
- In India, a central government ministry estimates GDP using information from government departments across States and Union Territories.

KEY WORDS

✓ Final goods + within the country + one year.

2.2 Gross Value Added (GVA)

- The current chapter also uses Gross Value Added (GVA) to show the contribution of the three sectors.
- GVA measures sectoral contribution after adjustment for taxes and subsidies.
- The chapter uses comparable historical GVA data to study structural change in the economy.

EXAM TIP

✓ At Class 10 level, know what GVA is used for; detailed GDP-GVA accounting is studied later.

3. CHANGING IMPORTANCE OF SECTORS

- In early stages of development, the primary sector is usually dominant in production and employment.
- As agriculture becomes more productive, people shift into craft, trade and manufacturing.
- With industrialisation, the secondary sector becomes increasingly important.
- In developed countries, the tertiary sector later becomes the largest sector in production and employment.

Primary dominance → Industrial growth → Secondary rises → Services expand → Tertiary dominance

3.1 India's changing production pattern

- Between 1977-78 and 2017-18, production increased in all three sectors.
- The tertiary sector grew the most and became India's largest producing sector by 2017-18.
- The primary sector's share in output declined over time.

DO NOT CONFUSE

✓ Largest producer by output does not mean largest employer.

3.2 Why has the tertiary sector grown?

Reason	Explanation
--------	-------------

Basic services	Hospitals, schools, police, courts, administration, transport, banking and insurance are essential.
Growth of agriculture + industry	More production creates greater demand for transport, trade, storage, banking etc.
Higher incomes	People demand tourism, restaurants, private education, healthcare and professional services.
ICT expansion	Information and communication technology services have grown rapidly.

- Not all service-sector jobs are equally productive or well-paid.
- Some skilled services pay well, while many small shopkeepers, repair workers and transport workers earn very little because alternative jobs are unavailable.

3.3 Two kinds of service-sector workers

- Some tertiary-sector workers are highly skilled and well paid—for example doctors, lawyers, teachers, accountants, software professionals and managers.
- Others are small shopkeepers, repair workers, transport workers and casual service providers who earn little because better opportunities are unavailable.
- Thus, expansion of the service sector does not mean that every service job is secure or highly productive.

4. EMPLOYMENT AND UNEMPLOYMENT

- India experienced a major shift in output shares without an equally large shift in employment.
- Industrial output rose by more than nine times between 1977-78 and 2017-18, while industrial employment rose only around three times.
- Service-sector production rose about fourteen times, while employment rose around five times.
- More than half of workers were still in the primary sector, producing only about one-sixth of GVA.

CORE PROBLEM

✓ Too many workers remain in agriculture because enough jobs have not been created in industry and services.

4.1 Underemployment

- Underemployment occurs when people are working but are not employed to their full capacity.
- Their labour is divided among more workers than are actually needed.
- This means total production would not fall if some workers moved to other jobs.

4.2 Disguised unemployment

- Disguised unemployment is hidden underemployment.
- Workers appear employed, but some of them add little or nothing to total production.
- NCERT's Laxmi example shows five family members working on a small farm even though fewer workers could produce the same output.

RURAL EXAMPLE

✓ If two workers leave the farm and farm output remains unchanged, those two were disguisedly unemployed.

4.3 Open vs disguised unemployment

Open unemployment	Disguised unemployment
Person has no job.	Person appears to have work.
Unemployment is visible.	Unemployment is hidden.
Output could rise if the person gets a job.	Some workers can leave without reducing current output.

4.4 How can more employment be created?

- Provide irrigation so farmers can grow more than one crop.
- Improve roads, transport, storage and marketing facilities.
- Provide affordable agricultural credit.
- Promote food-processing and other industries in semi-rural areas.
- Develop cold storage, dal mills, honey collection and processing centres.
- Expand schools, healthcare, tourism, regional crafts and IT services.

TEXTBOOK ESTIMATES

- ✓ Expanding education can create large numbers of jobs.
- ✓ Improved tourism can generate substantial additional employment.

4.5 Right to work

- MGNREGA 2005 guaranteed 100 days of employment in a year to rural people able and in need of work.
- If employment was not provided, the government had to pay an unemployment allowance.
- Preference was given to work that would improve future land productivity.
- The current NCERT Reprint 2026-27 states that MGNREGA 2005 was replaced in 2025 by the Viksit Bharat-Guarantee for Rozgar and Aajeevika Mission (Viksit Bharat-G RAM G 2025).

WHY CALLED 'RIGHT TO WORK'?

- ✓ Because the scheme creates a legal employment guarantee rather than treating work only as a discretionary benefit.

5. ORGANISED AND UNORGANISED SECTORS

- Organised-sector enterprises are registered with the government and follow formal rules and labour laws.
- Employment is regular and workers generally have job security.
- Workers have fixed hours; overtime must be paid.
- Benefits may include paid leave, provident fund, gratuity, medical benefits, safe working conditions and pensions.
- Examples of laws mentioned in the textbook include the Factories Act, Minimum Wages Act, Payment of Gratuity Act and Shops and Establishments Act.

5.1 Unorganised sector

- The unorganised sector contains small and scattered units that are largely outside effective government regulation.
- Rules may exist but are often not followed.
- Jobs are generally low-paid, irregular and insecure.

- Workers may receive no overtime, paid leave, sick leave, holiday pay or retirement benefits.
- Street vendors, repair workers, small farmers and casual labourers are common examples.

Organised	Unorganised
Registered + regulated	Mostly small/scattered, weak regulation
Regular employment	Irregular employment
Job security	Low security
Legal benefits	Few/no benefits
Fixed hours + overtime	Long hours, overtime often unpaid

5.2 Who needs protection in the unorganised sector?

- Rural vulnerable groups include landless labourers, small and marginal farmers, sharecroppers and artisans.
- Urban vulnerable groups include casual workers in construction, trade, transport, small factories and domestic work.
- Scheduled Castes, Scheduled Tribes and backward communities are disproportionately represented and may face both economic exploitation and social discrimination.

WHY PROTECTION?

✓ Protection of unorganised workers is necessary for both economic and social development.

5.4 Who is especially vulnerable?

- Rural groups: landless agricultural labourers, small and marginal farmers, sharecroppers, weavers, blacksmiths, carpenters and goldsmiths.
- Urban groups: workers in small factories, construction, trade, transport, domestic work and street vending.
- Scheduled Castes, Scheduled Tribes and backward communities are often over-represented in vulnerable unorganised work and may face both economic and social discrimination.

6. PUBLIC AND PRIVATE SECTORS

Public sector	Private sector
Government owns most assets and delivers services.	Individuals or companies own assets and deliver services.
Purpose includes public welfare and social need.	Main motive is generally earning profit.
Examples: Railways, Post Office.	Examples: TISCO, Reliance Industries.

6.1 Why does the government enter economic activities?

- Some facilities require huge investment and cannot be provided cheaply by private firms.
- Examples include roads, bridges, railways, harbours, electricity generation and irrigation dams.
- The government may subsidise important goods/services where full-cost pricing would harm production or access.
- It procures wheat and rice at a fair price and sells food at lower prices through ration shops.
- Health and education are primary public responsibilities because social benefit is very large.

PUBLIC-SECTOR LOGIC

✓ Social benefit may be more important than profit.

7. EXAM REVISION

Basis	Categories	Main question
Nature of activity	Primary / Secondary / Tertiary	What kind of activity is it?
Employment conditions	Organised / Unorganised	How are workers employed/protected?
Ownership	Public / Private	Who owns assets and provides services?

7.1 Key terms

Term	Meaning
------	---------

Primary sector	Direct use of natural resources.
Secondary sector	Manufacturing/processing of natural products.
Tertiary sector	Services.
Intermediate good	Used in producing another good/service.
Final good	Final-use product whose value is counted.
GDP	Value of final goods/services produced within a country in one year.
GVA	Sectoral value contribution after taxes/subsidies adjustment.
Underemployment	Workers employed below their productive capacity.
Disguised unemployment	Hidden underemployment.
Organised sector	Registered, regulated employment.
Unorganised sector	Weakly regulated, insecure employment.
Public sector	Government ownership.
Private sector	Private ownership.

7.2 Board-style questions

- Differentiate among primary, secondary and tertiary sectors with examples.
- Why are only final goods and services counted while calculating GDP?
- What is GDP? What does it tell us?
- Why has the tertiary sector become important in India?
- Explain disguised unemployment with a rural example.
- Suggest ways to create more employment in rural areas.
- Differentiate between organised and unorganised sectors.
- Why do workers in the unorganised sector need protection?
- Differentiate between public and private sectors.
- Why does the government undertake activities that the private sector may not provide?

7.3 Competency / case-based thinking

- A farmer grows cotton → primary sector.
- A textile mill converts cotton into cloth → secondary sector.

- A bank finances the mill → tertiary sector.
- Five workers do the work of three without extra output → disguised unemployment.
- A worker has appointment letter, paid leave and provident fund → organised sector.
- Government builds a bridge even though toll revenue may not cover cost → public-sector social objective.

7.4 Last-day revision

Primary/Secondary/Tertiary → GDP + GVA → Employment problem → Organised/Unorganised → Public/Private

Prompt	Recall
Primary	Natural resources
Secondary	Manufacturing
Tertiary	Services
GDP	Final goods/services, one year
Double counting	Avoid by counting final value
Largest producer 2017-18	Tertiary
Largest employer	Primary
Hidden joblessness	Disguised unemployment
Current Right-to-Work note	Viksit Bharat-G RAM G 2025
Organised	Registered + benefits
Unorganised	Low-paid + insecure
Public sector	Government ownership + social goals

5.3 Workers in organised and unorganised sectors

Sector	Organised (million)	Unorganised (million)	Total
Primary	1	232	233
Secondary	41	74	115
Tertiary	40	88	128
Total	82	394	476

- This table shows that the vast majority of India's workers are employed in the unorganised sector.
- Agriculture is overwhelmingly unorganised: almost all primary-sector workers in the table are unorganised.

BOARD TAKEAWAY

- ✓ Organised-sector employment forms only a small share of total employment.
- ✓ Protection of unorganised workers is therefore a major development issue.

ECONOMICS • CHAPTER 3

MONEY AND CREDIT

CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Money solves the barter problem of double coincidence of wants by acting as a medium of exchange.
- ✓ Modern money consists mainly of currency and demand deposits with banks.
- ✓ Banks connect depositors who have surplus funds with borrowers who need funds.
- ✓ Credit can raise income in productive situations, but it can also create a debt trap when risks are high.
- ✓ Terms of credit include interest rate, collateral, documentation and mode/duration of repayment.
- ✓ Formal credit comes mainly from banks and cooperatives and is supervised by the RBI.
- ✓ Informal credit comes from moneylenders, traders, employers, relatives and friends and is generally not supervised.
- ✓ Poor households depend more heavily on informal credit; expanding affordable formal credit is essential for development.
- ✓ Self-Help Groups help poor households—especially women—save, borrow and become less dependent on moneylenders.

Barter problem → Modern money → Banks → Credit → Formal vs informal → SHGs

1. MONEY AND BARTER

- Money is accepted in exchange for goods and services.
- A person can sell one product for money and then use that money to buy whatever is needed.

- Money therefore acts as an intermediate step in exchange.

CORE FUNCTION

✓ Money removes the need for a direct exchange between two matching wants.

1.1 Barter system and double coincidence of wants

- In a barter system, goods or services are directly exchanged without using money.
- Barter works only when each person wants exactly what the other person offers.

Double coincidence of wants

- Double coincidence of wants means that the wants of both parties must match at the same time.
- For example, a shoe producer wanting wheat must find a wheat farmer who also wants shoes.

WHY MONEY HELPS

✓ Money separates selling from buying and removes the double-coincidence condition.

1.2 Early forms of money

- Before modern currency, people used many objects as money.
- In India, grains and cattle were used in early periods.
- Metallic coins made of gold, silver and copper later became common.
- The material used as money changed as economies and institutions developed.

2. MODERN FORMS OF MONEY

- Modern currency includes paper notes and coins.
- Unlike gold or grain, modern currency has little or no intrinsic use value.
- It is accepted because it is authorised by the government.
- In India, the Reserve Bank of India issues currency notes on behalf of the Central Government.
- Indian law recognises the rupee as a medium of payment that cannot legally be refused in settling transactions.

LEGAL TENDER IDEA

✓ Currency is accepted because the State authorises and guarantees its use as payment.

2.1 Demonetisation and digital transactions

- The teacher note discusses the November 2016 demonetisation of old Rs 500 and Rs 1,000 notes.
- It also highlights the spread of bank-to-bank transfers, cheques, ATM/debit/credit cards, POS machines and UPI QR-code payments.
- Digital payment methods reduce the need for physical cash, though not every plastic card is itself money.

BOARD USE

✓ Treat digitalisation as an extension of modern banking and payment systems, not as a separate form of commodity money.

2.2 Deposits with banks and demand deposits

- People deposit surplus cash in bank accounts for safety and convenience.
- Banks pay interest on deposits.
- Depositors can withdraw money when required.

Demand deposits

- Deposits that can be withdrawn on demand are called demand deposits.
- They are widely accepted as a means of payment through cheques and electronic transfers.
- Currency plus demand deposits together constitute modern money.

2.3 Cheque payments

- A cheque is a written instruction to a bank to pay a specified amount from one person's account to another person.
- Cheque payments transfer money between bank accounts without using cash.
- This is possible only because demand deposits are linked to the banking system.

Payer writes cheque → Bank processes instruction → Account debited → Payee account credited

3. BANKS AND CREDIT

- Banks keep only a small share of deposits as cash for daily withdrawals.
- The current textbook example says banks hold about 5% of deposits as cash.
- The major portion of deposits is used to provide loans.
- Banks therefore mediate between depositors with surplus funds and borrowers who need funds.
- Banks charge borrowers a higher interest rate than the interest paid to depositors; the difference is a main source of bank income.

Depositors → Bank → Borrowers → Repayment + interest → Bank + depositors

3.1 What is credit?

- Credit or a loan is an agreement in which a lender supplies money, goods or services to a borrower in return for future payment.
- Credit is used for production, trade, farming, housing, education, health emergencies and many other needs.

IMPORTANT

✓ Credit is not automatically good or bad; its effect depends on risk, purpose and terms.

3.2 Positive role of credit - Salim

- Salim, a shoe manufacturer, receives a large order before a festival.
- He obtains leather on credit and an advance from the trader.
- The credit finances working capital, helps him complete production, earn profit and repay the borrowing.

POSITIVE CYCLE

✓ Credit → production → income/profit → repayment → higher economic activity.

3.3 Negative role of credit - Swapna

- Swapna, a small farmer, borrows for groundnut cultivation.
- A pest attack destroys the crop and she cannot repay the loan.

- The debt grows; she takes another loan in the next season and eventually becomes trapped in debt.
- In high-risk situations, credit can make a borrower worse off.

DEBT TRAP

✓ When income fails but debt and interest continue to grow, borrowing can create a vicious cycle of indebtedness.

3.4 Terms of credit

Term	Meaning
Interest rate	Cost paid for borrowing money.
Collateral	Asset pledged as security.
Documentation	Proofs/records required by the lender.
Duration	Period for which the loan is taken.
Mode of repayment	How and when the borrower repays.

- Easy terms generally mean lower interest, easier repayment, less collateral and simpler documentation.
- Terms differ greatly across lenders and borrowers.

3.5 Collateral

- Collateral is an asset owned by the borrower that is used as a guarantee until a loan is repaid.
- If the borrower fails to repay, the lender can sell the collateral to recover the loan.
- Common examples include land titles, bank deposits, livestock and house/property papers.

WHY POOR BORROWERS STRUGGLE

✓ People with few assets often cannot provide the collateral demanded by banks.

3.6 Megha's house-loan example

- The textbook example gives Megha a housing loan of Rs 5 lakh.
- The annual interest rate is 12%, with repayment over 10 years in monthly instalments.

- She provides employment/salary documents and house papers as collateral.

USE THIS EXAMPLE

✓ It demonstrates all major terms of credit in one case: amount, interest, documents, repayment period and collateral.

3.7 Credit arrangements in Sonpur

Borrower	Source	Key terms
Shyamal - small farmer	Trader / earlier moneylender	Trader: 3% per month + must sell crop to trader; moneylender earlier charged 5% per month.
Arun - larger farmer	Bank	8.5% per year; repayment within 3 years; can store crop and sell later.
Rama - landless worker	Landowner-employer	5% per month; repayment through labour; repeated borrowing.

- The same village can contain very different credit terms depending on assets, income and social position.

BOARD ANALYSIS

✓ Cheaper formal credit gives stronger borrowers more freedom; poorer borrowers may face costly and exploitative informal arrangements.

4. FORMAL AND INFORMAL CREDIT

Formal sources	Informal sources
Banks	Moneylenders
Cooperative societies	Traders
Supervised by RBI / formal rules	Employers
Generally lower and regulated interest	Relatives and friends
Require documents and often collateral	Terms vary widely and may be costly

4.1 Role of RBI

- The Reserve Bank of India supervises formal sources of credit.

- It monitors whether banks maintain required cash reserves.
- It also monitors lending practices and seeks to ensure that banks provide loans to different sections of society.
- Formal-sector regulation aims to make banking safer and credit more socially useful.

WHY SUPERVISION?

✓ Formal lenders handle public deposits and play a central role in the economy, so their lending must be regulated.

4.2 Rural credit sources - 2019

Source	Approx. share
Commercial banks	51%
Cooperative banks/societies	10%
Other formal agencies	5%
Moneylenders	23%
Relatives and friends	7%
Other informal agencies	3%
Landlords	1%

- The chapter's main conclusion is more important than memorising every percentage: formal sources provide about two-thirds of rural credit in the 2019 graph, while informal borrowing remains substantial.

DEVELOPMENT GOAL

✓ Expand formal credit and reduce dependence on expensive informal borrowing.

4.3 Formal credit and household income

- Access to formal credit is unequal.
- Poor urban households obtain about 54% of their loans from informal sources.
- Rich urban households obtain only about 17% from informal sources and about 83% from formal sources.
- A similar pattern exists in rural areas: richer households have easier access to cheaper formal credit.

WHY?

✓ Formal lenders often demand documents, regular income or collateral that poorer households cannot provide.

4.4 Why formal credit must expand

- Informal lenders may charge very high interest.
- Expensive credit reduces the borrower's income and can increase indebtedness.
- Cheap and affordable credit helps households invest in farming, business, education and other productive activities.
- Development requires both more formal credit and a greater share of formal credit for poor households.

5. SELF-HELP GROUPS AND MICRO-CREDIT

- SHGs organise rural poor people—especially women—into small groups, usually 15-20 members.
- Members meet regularly and save small amounts.
- The pooled savings are used to provide small loans to group members.
- Loans may be used for emergencies, working capital, seeds, housing materials, sewing machines or other needs.

Small savings → Group fund → Internal loans → Regular repayment → Bank linkage

5.1 How SHGs help the poor

- SHGs reduce dependence on moneylenders.
- Small loans may be available without the usual physical collateral.
- The group decides the purpose, amount, interest and repayment schedule.
- Regular repayment allows groups to become eligible for bank loans.
- Members may take decisions collectively and discuss social issues such as health, domestic violence and local problems.

WOMEN'S EMPOWERMENT

✓ SHGs combine access to credit with savings discipline, collective decision-making and greater social confidence.

- The group collectively decides the purpose, amount, interest and repayment schedule and is responsible for repayment.
- The bank loan is sanctioned in the name of the group; physical collateral from each member is not required.
- After one or two years of regular saving, an SHG may become eligible for a bank loan.
- Members commonly save about Rs 25 to Rs 100 or more per month, depending on their ability to save.

5.2 Grameen Bank of Bangladesh

- Grameen Bank is a major example of providing reasonable credit to poor households.
- It began as a small project in the 1970s under Professor Muhammad Yunus.
- By 2018, it had over 9 million members in about 81,600 villages in Bangladesh.
- Almost all borrowers were women from the poorest sections.
- Muhammad Yunus received the 2006 Nobel Peace Prize.

LESSON

✓ Poor borrowers can be reliable borrowers when credit is available on suitable and reasonable terms.

6. EXAM REVISION

Feature	Formal credit	Informal credit
Sources	Banks, cooperatives	Moneylenders, traders, employers, relatives/friends
Supervision	RBI / formal rules	No comparable formal supervision
Interest	Usually lower	Often higher
Records	Documented	May be undocumented
Collateral	Often required	May use labour/crop/social dependence
Risk to poor	Lower cost but harder access	Easy access but can be exploitative

6.1 Key terms

Term	Meaning
Barter	Direct exchange without money.
Double coincidence	Both parties want what the other offers.
Medium of exchange	Something accepted for payments.
Demand deposit	Bank deposit withdrawable on demand.
Cheque	Instruction to bank to transfer/pay money.
Credit	Loan with promise of future payment.
Collateral	Asset pledged against a loan.
Terms of credit	Interest, collateral, documentation and repayment conditions.
Formal credit	Credit from regulated institutions.
Informal credit	Credit from unregulated/private sources.
SHG	Small savings-and-credit group, usually of poor women.

6.2 Board-style questions

- How does money solve the problem of double coincidence of wants?
- Why are demand deposits considered money?
- Explain how banks mediate between depositors and borrowers.
- How can credit play both a positive and a negative role? Explain with examples.
- What are the terms of credit?
- Why do lenders ask for collateral?
- Differentiate between formal and informal sources of credit.
- What is the role of the RBI in formal-sector credit?
- Why should formal-sector credit be expanded in India?
- How do Self-Help Groups help poor households and women?

6.3 Competency / case-based thinking

- A farmer borrows at high monthly interest and must sell the crop cheaply to the lender → unfavourable informal credit.
- A business loan finances production and is repaid from profit → productive role of credit.

- A borrower pledges house papers → collateral.
- Payment moves directly between bank accounts → demand deposits functioning as money.
- A group of 18 women saves monthly and later receives a bank-linked loan → SHG.
- A poor household cannot get a bank loan despite needing credit → access problem caused by collateral/document requirements.

6.4 Last-day revision

Money → Banks → Credit → Terms → Formal/Informal → SHGs	
Prompt	Recall
Barter problem	Double coincidence of wants
Modern money	Currency + demand deposits
Currency issuer	RBI on behalf of Central Government
Bank cash reserve example	About 5%
Bank income	Loan interest - deposit interest
Credit effect	Can help or create debt trap
Terms	Interest + collateral + documents + repayment
Formal	Banks + cooperatives
Informal	Moneylenders/traders/employers/etc.
RBI	Supervises formal lenders
Poor households	Greater informal dependence

ECONOMICS • CHAPTER 4

GLOBALISATION AND THE INDIAN ECONOMY

CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Globalisation means rapid integration of countries through foreign trade and foreign investment.
- ✓ Multinational corporations (MNCs) own or control production in more than one country and organise production across borders.
- ✓ Foreign trade links markets by increasing choice, competition and movement of goods.
- ✓ Technology, especially transport and information technology, has made global production easier.
- ✓ India liberalised trade and investment policies from 1991, reducing government restrictions.
- ✓ The WTO sets rules for international trade, but the chapter highlights unequal rules and farm subsidies in developed countries.
- ✓ Globalisation has created opportunities for consumers, some firms and skilled workers, while many small producers and workers face severe competition.
- ✓ Fair globalisation requires worker protection, support for small producers and fairer international trade rules.

MNCs → Foreign trade → Globalisation → Technology → Liberalisation +
WTO → Impact → Fair globalisation

1. GLOBALISATION AND MNCs

- Globalisation is the process of rapid integration or interconnection between countries.
- In this chapter, the focus is economic globalisation through foreign trade and foreign investment.
- Goods, services, technology and investment increasingly move across national borders.

CORE DEFINITION

- ✓ Globalisation = greater integration of production and markets across countries.

1.1 What is an MNC?

- A multinational corporation (MNC) is a company that owns or controls production in more than one nation.
- MNCs do not simply sell abroad; they organise parts of production in different countries.

- Examples in the chapter include Ford Motors and other large global companies.

MNC VS ORDINARY COMPANY

✓ The defining feature is ownership/control of production in multiple countries.

1.2 Why do MNCs spread production?

Location factor	Why it attracts MNCs
Large market	Close to buyers and demand.
Low-cost labour	Reduces production cost.
Skilled workers	Supports technical and service activities.
Other inputs	Reliable raw materials, power, infrastructure etc.
Favourable policies	Tax, trade and investment rules may support business.

- MNCs divide production into small stages and place each stage where it can be done efficiently.

TEXTBOOK INSIGHT

✓ Global production can save an MNC 50-60% in costs in some production chains.

1.3 Production across countries

- Components may be manufactured in one country, assembled in another and sold worldwide.
- Customer-care and other services can be located in a third country.
- China may provide low-cost manufacturing, Mexico/Eastern Europe closeness to major markets, and India skilled English-speaking service workers.

Design / inputs → Components → Assembly → Services → Global market

1.4 Investment and foreign investment

- Investment means spending money to buy assets such as land, buildings, machines and equipment.
- Investment is made with the expectation of earning profit.

Foreign investment

- Investment made by an MNC in another country is called foreign investment.

MEMORY

✓ Foreign investment = MNC spending on productive assets in another country.

1.5 How MNCs interlink production

Method	How it works
Set up own factories/offices	Directly control production abroad.
Joint production with local firms	MNC brings capital and often newer technology.
Buy local companies	Most common route mentioned in the chapter; MNC takes over and expands production.
Place orders with small producers	MNC controls price, quality, delivery and often labour conditions.
Use local suppliers	Local firms become part of the MNC's production network.

1.6 Cargill Foods - buying a local company

- Cargill Foods, a large American MNC, bought the Indian company Parakh Foods.
- Parakh Foods already had a strong marketing network and four oil refineries.
- The takeover shifted control of these assets to Cargill.
- The example shows how buying an existing local company can quickly expand an MNC's production and market presence.

1.7 Small producers in MNC networks

- MNCs often place orders with small producers in industries such as garments, footwear and sports goods.
- The products are later sold under the MNC's brand.
- Large MNCs can exercise strong control over price, quality, delivery schedules and labour conditions.

POWER RELATION

✓ Small suppliers gain access to orders and markets, but bargaining power may remain with the MNC.

1.8 Ford Motors in India

- Ford Motors entered India in 1995 and invested Rs 1,700 crore in a large plant near Chennai.
- It collaborated with Mahindra and Mahindra.
- By 2017, Ford was selling about 88,000 cars in India and exporting about 1,81,000 cars to several countries.
- The plant linked Indian labour, auto-component suppliers, domestic buyers and export markets.
- The chapter notes that Ford later stopped producing cars for sale in India, though small-scale exports of cars and engines continued.

CASE-STUDY USE

✓ Ford demonstrates foreign investment + lower production cost + local suppliers + exports + interlinked production.

2. FOREIGN TRADE AND MARKET INTEGRATION

- Foreign trade means exchange of goods and services between countries.
- It allows producers to sell beyond domestic markets.
- Imports expand consumers' choice beyond goods produced within the country.
- Trade has connected distant markets for centuries, but its scale and speed have increased sharply.

2.1 Chinese toys in India

- Chinese producers exported low-priced, newly designed toys to India.
- Within a year, 70-80% of toy shops in the example replaced Indian toys with Chinese toys.
- Indian consumers gained greater choice and lower prices.
- Chinese producers expanded sales, while many Indian toy makers lost business.

DOUBLE EFFECT

✓ Foreign trade can benefit consumers and exporters while creating losses for competing domestic producers.

2.2 Integration of markets

- When trade opens, goods move between markets in different countries.
- Choice expands and prices of similar goods tend to move closer.
- Producers in different countries begin competing directly with one another.
- Thus foreign trade integrates markets separated by large distances.

Imports + exports → More choice → Price competition → Producer competition → Integrated markets

3. FACTORS THAT ENABLE GLOBALISATION

Factor	Contribution
Improved transport technology	Faster and cheaper movement of goods.
Containerisation	Reduces loading/unloading time and transport cost.
Telecommunication	Quick communication across long distances.
Information technology	Allows services and information to be transmitted globally.
Liberalisation	Removes trade and investment restrictions.
WTO pressure/rules	Encourages member countries to reduce trade barriers.

3.1 Role of information technology

- Telecommunication technology enables instant communication across countries.
- Internet and computer networks allow information and services to be transferred cheaply and quickly.
- Examples include call centres, data entry, accounting, administrative services and engineering work done in India for firms abroad.

SERVICE GLOBALISATION

✓ IT allows some services to be produced in one country and consumed in another.

3.2 Movement of people between countries

- Countries are connected not only through goods, services, investment and technology, but also through the movement of people.
- People move across countries in search of better income, better jobs and better education.
- NCERT notes that, unlike trade and investment, the movement of people has not increased as rapidly in recent decades because governments continue to impose many restrictions.

IMPORTANT DISTINCTION

✓ Globalisation has rapidly increased flows of goods, services, investment and technology.

✓ Cross-border movement of people remains more restricted.

3.3 Why transport technology matters

- Containerisation allows goods to be moved intact across ships, railways, aircraft and trucks.
- This reduces port-handling cost and time and helps exports reach distant markets more quickly.
- Falling air-transport costs have also increased the volume of goods transported internationally.

4. TRADE POLICY, LIBERALISATION AND WTO

- A trade barrier is a government restriction on foreign trade.
- Import tax is one example: it raises the price of imported goods and reduces imports.
- A quota limits the quantity of a good that can be imported.

CHINESE TOY EXAMPLE

✓ An import tax or quota can reduce imported toys and protect domestic toy producers.

4.1 Why India used trade barriers earlier

- After Independence, the government protected domestic producers from foreign competition.
- New industries needed time to develop and compete.
- Imports were therefore allowed mainly for essential items such as machinery, fertilisers and petroleum.

INFANT-INDUSTRY LOGIC

✓ Protection can give domestic industries time to become stronger before facing global competition.

4.2 Liberalisation in India

- From around 1991, India significantly reduced restrictions on foreign trade and investment.
- Liberalisation means removing or relaxing government barriers and allowing businesses greater freedom to import, export and invest.
- Indian producers were increasingly exposed to competition from producers around the world.

Fewer restrictions → More imports/exports → More foreign investment →
More competition → Greater global integration

4.3 World Trade Organisation (WTO)

- The WTO aims to liberalise international trade.
- It establishes trade rules for member countries and seeks to ensure that these rules are followed.
- The current chapter notes about 160 member countries.
- The WTO was started at the initiative of developed countries.

CRITICAL POINT

✓ The chapter argues that free-trade rules have not always been applied equally to developed and developing countries.

4.4 WTO and the farm-subsidy debate

- Developed countries have often retained support for their own producers while asking developing countries to remove protection.

- The chapter uses US agriculture as an example: agriculture is a tiny share of US employment and GDP, yet farmers receive large government subsidies.
- Subsidies allow farm products to be sold abroad at artificially low prices.
- This can harm farmers in developing countries who must compete with subsidised imports.

FAIR-TRADE QUESTION

✓ Free trade is not fair if one side keeps large subsidies while the other side is pressured to remove support.

4.5 US agriculture and the WTO fairness debate

Indicator	United States agriculture
Share in US GDP	About 1%
Share in total employment	About 0.5%
Government support	Large production and export subsidies

- Subsidies allow US farm products to be sold at unusually low prices in world markets.
- Developing-country farmers may then face unfair competition from heavily subsidised imports.

FREE TRADE VS FAIR TRADE

✓ WTO promotes reduction of trade barriers.
 ✓ NCERT highlights the contradiction when developed countries retain protection or subsidies while developing countries are pressured to liberalise.

5. IMPACT OF GLOBALISATION IN INDIA

- Globalisation has increased the choice of goods available in Indian markets.
- Competition has improved quality and lowered prices for several products.
- Well-off urban consumers have often benefited the most through greater choice and higher living standards.

5.1 Impact on producers and firms

- MNC investment created jobs in industries such as automobiles, electronics, mobile phones, soft drinks, fast food and urban banking.
- Local companies supplying raw materials and components to MNCs also benefited.
- Several large Indian firms upgraded technology and production standards because of greater competition.
- Some Indian companies themselves became MNCs—examples include Tata Motors, Infosys, Ranbaxy, Asian Paints and Sundaram Fasteners.

5.2 New opportunities in services

- Globalisation created export opportunities in IT-enabled services.
- Data entry, accounting, administrative tasks, engineering services and call-centre work can be supplied from India to customers abroad.

INDIA'S ADVANTAGE

✓ Skilled labour + English-language capability + lower service costs.

5.3 Special Economic Zones (SEZs)

- Governments set up Special Economic Zones to attract foreign investment.
- SEZs provide infrastructure such as electricity, water, roads, transport, storage, recreation and education facilities.
- The textbook example states that companies in SEZs receive tax concessions for an initial period of five years.
- SEZs can also create conflict where land acquisition or development imposes costs on local communities.

5.4 Labour flexibility

- To reduce labour costs, companies may hire workers for short periods instead of regular permanent employment.
- This flexibility may attract investment and help firms handle fluctuating orders.
- For workers, however, it can mean lower job security and fewer benefits.

CONFLICT OF INTEREST

✓ Employers value lower cost and flexibility; workers value stability, wages and legal protection.

5.5 Small producers: compete or perish

- Small manufacturers in batteries, capacitors, plastics, toys, tyres, dairy products and vegetable oil have faced strong import competition.
- Some units shut down, causing job losses.
- The chapter notes that small and medium industries employ about 11 crore workers, next only to agriculture.
- To compete better, small producers need infrastructure, modern technology, marketing/information networks and timely credit at reasonable interest.

POLICY LESSON

✓ Competition can raise efficiency, but small producers may need temporary support to become capable competitors.

5.6 Garment workers - pressure of competition

- Foreign MNCs place large orders with Indian garment exporters and seek the cheapest possible products.
- Exporters cannot easily reduce raw-material costs, so they often try to reduce labour costs.
- Workers are increasingly hired temporarily, work long hours and may receive low wages and few benefits.
- The chapter's Sushila case shows how a permanent worker with benefits became a lower-paid temporary worker after factory closure.

UNEQUAL BENEFIT

✓ Globalisation may increase export orders and MNC profits without ensuring workers receive a fair share.

5.7 Why the impact is not uniform

Groups that often gain more	Groups that may face greater pressure
Well-off consumers	Small domestic producers

Large Indian companies	Workers in insecure jobs
Skilled and educated workers	People with low skills/assets
MNC-linked suppliers	Firms unable to match imported competition
IT/service exporters	Workers facing flexible employment

- People with education, skill and wealth are better placed to use new opportunities.
- Those with fewer resources may not share the benefits equally.

6. FAIR GLOBALISATION

- Fair globalisation means creating opportunities for all and sharing benefits more equally.
- Government policies should protect the interests of all citizens, not only rich and powerful groups.
- Governments can enforce labour laws and workers' rights.
- They can support small producers until they become strong enough to compete.
- When necessary, they can use trade and investment barriers.
- They can negotiate at the WTO for fairer rules and cooperate with other developing countries.
- People's organisations and campaigns can also influence trade and investment decisions.

FINAL IDEA

✓ Globalisation is a reality; the key question is how to make it fairer.

7. EXAM REVISION

Term	Meaning
Globalisation	Rapid integration of countries through trade and investment.
MNC	Company owning/controlling production in more than one country.
Investment	Spending on productive assets.
Foreign investment	Investment by an MNC in another country.
Foreign trade	Trade in goods/services across countries.

Market integration	Markets become connected through trade and competition.
Trade barrier	Government restriction such as tariff or quota.
Liberalisation	Removal/reduction of trade and investment restrictions.
WTO	Organisation that sets and oversees international trade rules.
SEZ	Special zone with infrastructure/incentives to attract investment.

7.1 Board-style questions

- What is globalisation? Explain the role of MNCs in the process.
- Why do MNCs set up production in particular countries?
- Explain any four ways in which MNCs interlink production across countries.
- How does foreign trade lead to integration of markets?
- Explain how technology has stimulated globalisation.
- What are trade barriers? Why did India use them after Independence?
- What is liberalisation? How has it helped globalisation?
- What is the WTO? Why are its trade rules criticised as unfair?
- Explain why the impact of globalisation in India has not been uniform.
- What steps can be taken to make globalisation fairer?

7.2 Competency / case-based thinking

- An MNC buys an Indian company and expands it → foreign investment through takeover.
- Imported toys become cheaper and domestic makers lose sales → foreign trade + competition + market integration.
- A tax raises the price of imported goods → trade barrier.
- A service is produced in India for a foreign customer → IT-enabled globalisation of services.
- A temporary worker loses benefits while exports rise → uneven impact of globalisation.
- Government enforces labour law and supports small firms → step toward fair globalisation.

7.3 Last-day revision

MNC → Foreign investment → Trade → Technology → Liberalisation →
WTO → Impact → Fairness

Prompt	Recall
MNC	Production in more than one country
Foreign investment	MNC buys productive assets abroad
Main MNC routes	Own units, partnership, takeover, orders/suppliers
Ford India	1995; Rs 1,700 crore
Foreign trade	Connects and integrates markets
Chinese toys	Choice ↑, prices ↓, domestic pressure ↑
Trade barrier	Tariff / quota
Liberalisation	Restrictions reduced from 1991
WTO	Global trade rules; fairness debate
SEZ	Infrastructure + investment incentives
Uneven impact	Gains/losses differ by group
Fair globalisation	Opportunities + better sharing of benefits

ECONOMICS • CHAPTER 5

CONSUMER RIGHTS

CHAPTER SNAPSHOT

- ✓ Consumers are often in a weaker position because sellers may have more information and bargaining power.
- ✓ The consumer movement grew from dissatisfaction with unfair trade practices and weak enforcement.
- ✓ Consumer rights include safety, information, choice, representation, redressal and consumer education.
- ✓ Consumers can seek justice through the consumer-dispute redressal system.
- ✓ A well-informed consumer checks labels, bills and quality marks such as ISI, AGMARK and Hallmark.
- ✓ Consumer protection becomes effective only when consumers are aware, organised and willing to act.

Marketplace → Consumer movement → Rights → Justice → Well-informed consumer → Movement forward

1. THE CONSUMER IN THE MARKETPLACE

1.1 Who is a consumer?

- A consumer purchases goods or uses services for consideration and uses them as final goods or services.
- People participate in markets both as producers and as consumers.

1.2 Why is consumer protection needed?

- Individual consumers often have less information and bargaining power than sellers or large companies.
- Rules and regulations may exist but can be weakly enforced.
- Consumers therefore need legal protection, information and collective organisations.

CORE IDEA

- ✓ Unequal information + unequal power + weak enforcement can lead to consumer exploitation.

1.3 Common forms of consumer exploitation

Practice	Example
Underweight / short measure	Consumer receives less quantity than paid for.
Adulteration	Inferior or harmful substance is mixed into a product.
Defective / unsafe goods	Product does not work properly or creates danger.
Overcharging	Seller charges more than the permitted/declared price.
Misleading information	False or incomplete claims influence purchase.
Deficient service	Banking, medical, transport or other service fails expected standard.

1.4 Adulteration and unsafe goods

- Adulteration may violate both the right to safety and the right to information.
- Unsafe goods such as defective electrical appliances, pressure cookers or medicines can threaten life and property.

1.5 Misleading advertisements and offers

- Advertisements can exaggerate quality, performance or benefits.
- Consumers should distinguish promotional claims from verifiable information on labels, warranties and certification.

2. THE CONSUMER MOVEMENT

2.1 Why did the consumer movement arise?

- The consumer movement arose from dissatisfaction with unfair trade practices and the absence of an effective legal system for consumer protection.
- In India, food shortages, hoarding, black marketing and adulteration helped turn the movement into an organised social force in the 1960s.

2.2 Growth of consumer organisations

- Consumer organisations created awareness, tested products, published information and helped consumers take complaints forward.
- Collective action shifted part of the responsibility for quality and fair dealing from consumers alone toward sellers, producers and government.

2.3 International consumer movement

- The United Nations adopted Guidelines for Consumer Protection in 1985, strengthening the consumer-rights movement worldwide.
- Consumers International is a global umbrella institution of consumer-welfare organisations.

WHY IT MATTERS

✓ Consumer protection is both a national and an international movement.

2.4 Consumer Protection Act: 1986 and 2019

- The Consumer Protection Act, 1986 (often called COPRA in the textbook) created an important legal framework for consumer protection in India.
- The Act was amended/replaced by updated consumer-protection legislation in 2019 to strengthen consumer protection.
- For Class 10 answers, focus on consumer rights, redressal and awareness rather than detailed legal procedure.

3. CONSUMER RIGHTS

3.1 Right to safety

- Consumers have the right to be protected against goods and services hazardous to life and property.
- Producers must follow required safety standards, especially for high-risk goods and services.

3.2 Reji Mathew case: safety and medical negligence

- Reji Mathew, a Class IX student in Kerala, suffered permanent disability after improper anaesthesia during a tonsil operation.
- His father pursued the case through consumer redressal institutions.
- The National Commission held the hospital responsible for medical negligence and awarded compensation.

CASE LESSON

✓ The right to safety applies to services such as medical treatment, not only to physical goods.

3.3 Right to be informed

- Consumers must receive key information such as price, ingredients, net quantity, manufacturing/expiry dates, batch details and instructions.
- MRP helps consumers identify the maximum retail price; a consumer may bargain below it, but normally should not be charged above it without lawful reason.

3.4 Right to Information Act, 2005 and Amritha's case

- The textbook links the right to information with the RTI Act, 2005 for services provided by government departments.
- Amritha used RTI after a government job interview when officials failed to disclose her result.
- Her application led to information about the delay and ultimately to her appointment letter.

CASE LESSON

✓ An informed citizen can use legal information rights to challenge administrative silence.

3.5 Right to choose

- Consumers should have access to alternatives and should not be forced to purchase an unwanted product or service.
- A seller should not impose an unnecessary tied product as a condition for receiving another service.

3.6 Right to be heard / represented

- Consumer interests must receive due consideration in appropriate forums.
- Consumer organisations and consumer commissions help individuals represent grievances.

3.7 Right to seek redressal

- Consumers can seek remedy against unfair trade practices, defective goods, deficient services or exploitation.
- Compensation can depend on the nature and degree of damage suffered.

3.8 Right to consumer education

- Consumers have the right to knowledge and skills needed to make informed choices.

- Consumer education includes awareness of labels, bills, certification marks, complaint mechanisms and legal rights.

3.9 Consumer responsibilities

Responsibility	Good practice
Read information	Check labels, dates, quantity, price and instructions.
Keep proof	Demand and preserve a bill/cash memo.
Check quality	Look for relevant standardisation marks.
Use safely	Follow instructions and warnings.
Compare choices	Assess quality, warranty, price and terms.
Act responsibly	Raise genuine complaints; avoid false claims.

4. WHERE SHOULD CONSUMERS GO TO GET JUSTICE?

4.1 Consumer-dispute redressal system

- Consumers may approach the appropriate consumer redressal body when a seller or service provider does not resolve a legitimate grievance.
- A consumer can present a complaint personally; legal representation is not always necessary.

4.2 Three-tier structure

Level	Institution
District	District Consumer Disputes Redressal Commission
State	State Consumer Disputes Redressal Commission
National	National Consumer Disputes Redressal Commission

- Cases can move through the appellate structure when a party challenges a lower-level decision.

4.3 Prakash case: delayed money order

- The textbook describes Prakash, whose money order did not reach his daughter when needed.

- He approached a district-level consumer commission and obtained redress.
- The example shows that consumer law covers deficient services as well as defective goods.

4.4 Possible remedies

- Repair or removal of defects.
- Replacement of defective goods.
- Refund of price.
- Compensation for loss or injury.
- Correction of deficient service.
- Direction to stop unfair or restrictive trade practices.

5. LEARNING TO BECOME A WELL-INFORMED CONSUMER

5.1 Why a bill / cash memo matters

- A bill proves that a transaction took place and records details such as product, price, seller and date.
- Without proof of purchase, establishing a complaint can become difficult.

5.2 Standardisation and quality certification

Mark / body	Purpose
ISI / BIS standards	Quality and safety standards for industrial products.
AGMARK	Grading/certification of agricultural products.
Hallmark	Purity certification for precious-metal jewellery.
FSSAI details	Food-safety licensing/compliance information.

5.3 Mandatory certification

- For certain products affecting health or safety, compliance with prescribed standards is mandatory.
- Consumers should verify the authenticity of certification marks rather than trusting a printed symbol blindly.

5.4 Jago Grahak Jago and awareness campaigns

- Government and public-awareness campaigns encourage consumers to know their rights, demand bills and check product information.
- Media, schools and consumer groups also help spread consumer education.

5.5 Role of consumer organisations

- Consumer groups advise complainants, organise awareness drives, publish comparative information and advocate stronger protection.
- They are particularly important for consumers who lack legal knowledge or resources.

6. TAKING THE CONSUMER MOVEMENT FORWARD

6.1 National Consumers' Day

- India observes 24 December as National Consumers' Day.
- The date marks the enactment of the Consumer Protection Act in 1986.

6.2 Progress of the movement

- The current NCERT chapter notes more than 2,000 consumer groups in India.
- Only about 50-60 are described as well organised and recognised for their work.
- India has established dedicated authorities for consumer-dispute redressal.

6.3 Continuing challenges

- Consumer redressal can still become cumbersome, expensive and time-consuming.
- Consumers may need lawyers and must spend time filing and attending proceedings.
- Cash memos are often not issued, which makes evidence difficult to gather.
- Small-value retail purchases may discourage consumers from pursuing formal complaints.

NCERT'S FINAL MESSAGE

- ✓ Consumer movements are effective only with active consumer participation.
- ✓ Rights become meaningful when consumers are aware, organised and willing to assert them.

7. EXAM REVISION

7.1 Six consumer rights - master table

Right	Meaning / clue
Safety	Protection from hazardous goods/services.
Information	Price, quality, quantity, dates, ingredients etc.
Choice	Freedom from forced/tied purchase.
Be heard / represented	Consumer interests get representation.
Redressal	Remedy and compensation for genuine harm.
Consumer education	Knowledge and skills for informed purchase.

7.2 Important case-study links

Case / example	Concept
Reji Mathew	Safety + medical negligence + compensation
Amritha	RTI + right to information
Prakash	Deficient service + consumer redressal
MRP / packaged goods	Right to information
ISI / AGMARK / Hallmark	Standardisation and certification

7.3 Board-style questions

- Why do consumers need protection in the marketplace?
- What factors gave birth to the consumer movement in India?
- Explain the six consumer rights with suitable examples.
- Explain the Reji Mathew and Amritha cases and the consumer rights involved.
- How does the three-tier consumer redressal system help consumers?
- Why is a cash memo important?
- Explain the role of ISI, AGMARK and Hallmark.
- Critically examine the progress of the consumer movement in India.

7.4 Last-day checklist

Know exploitation → Know 6 rights → Know 3 cases → Know 3 redressal levels
→ Know marks → Know movement limits

FINAL 7-DAY SST REVISION PLAN

Day	Coverage	Revision focus
Day 1	History Ch 1-2	Timelines, movements, causes/effects, key people
Day 2	History Ch 3-5	Global connections, industrialisation, print culture
Day 3	Geography Ch 1-3	Resources, forests, water + map recall
Day 4	Geography Ch 4-7	Agriculture, minerals, industries, lifelines + maps
Day 5	Political Science Ch 1-5	Definitions, case studies, comparisons, democratic outcomes
Day 6	Economics Ch 1-5	Core concepts, examples, tables, formal/informal comparisons
Day 7	Full-book recall	Weak areas, maps, key terms, case studies, last-day tables

EXAM-DAY CHECKLIST

- Read the question carefully and identify the exact command word: explain, analyse, compare, describe or evaluate.
- Use headings or numbered points for longer answers.
- Support answers with textbook examples or case studies where relevant.
- For comparison questions, use a two-column structure whenever possible.
- For map questions, label only what is asked and keep markings neat.
- Do not spend too long on one answer; leave time to review the paper.
- Before submission, check question numbers, maps, subparts and any unanswered items.

LAST 10 MINUTES

- Check that every attempted answer has the correct question number.
- Review maps and labels.
- Underline key terms only if time permits and your school format allows it.
- Correct obvious factual or spelling errors.

ABOUT THIS REVISION NOTEBOOK

This book is built for repeated, high-speed Class 10 Social Science revision. Its layout intentionally uses short sections, nested numbering, comparison tables and recap blocks rather than long textbook-style paragraphs.

The same visual system is used across History, Geography, Political Science and Economics so that students do not have to adjust to a new note style every time they change subjects.

For additional practice, previous-year questions and updates, visit sjmaths.com.

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ONE BOOK. FOUR SUBJECTS.

A COMPLETE CLASS 10 SST REVISION SYSTEM

INSIDE THIS BOOK

- History: 5 chapters
- Geography: 7 chapters
- Political Science: 5 chapters
- Economics: 5 chapters
- Hierarchical notes, recall tables, case studies, map cues and exam questions

Built for focused revision before school and board examinations.

Learn • Recall • Revise • Perform

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